CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.1 - Slaves as Fixed Capital: Slave Labor and Southern Economic Development

Ralph V. Anderson and Robert E. Gallman

ARTICLE	Slaves as Fixed Capital: Slave Labor and Southern Economic Development
JOURNAL	The Journal of American History 64, no. 1 (1977)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 24-25
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/1888272

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 24-25

Slaves as Fixed Capital: Slave Labor and Southern Economic Development

RALPH V. ANDERSON
AND
ROBERT E. GALLMAN

ACCORDING to Eugene D. Genovese: ''Slavery requires all hands to be occupied at all times.''[1] The statement implies that the requirement is peculiar to slavery, differentiating it from other forms of labor organization. If Genovese is right, then slave-owners were subject to a constraint on their operations that may have affected their choice of economic activities and systems of production. The economic decisions of individual slaveholders, in turn, presumably influenced the character of the economies in which slavery figured. Thus, the requirement to keep slaves occupied at all times may have had wide ramifications, perhaps of an important nature.

While these ideas are by no means novel, they have not yet been given their full due. This essay considers first the reasons why slavery required all hands to be occupied at all times. The analysis is general and rests on the assumption that slaveholders typically preferred more income to less, and less trouble to more, other things being equal, and that they had a rough idea of the relationship between actions and their results. The analysis does not assume that slaveholders were moved exclusively by economic considerations, nor that they adjusted perfectly to the conditions that confronted them. But economics lies at the heart of what can be called ''Genovese's rule'' and it is the focus of this paper.

Second, the essay considers a few historical illustrations of the operation of ''Genovese's rule.'' The primary concern of this essay, however, is the effect of the rule on the organization of southern slave plantations in the nineteenth century and the consequences of plantation organization for southern economic performance and development.

Ralph V. Anderson is professor of economics in Elon College. Robert E. Gallman is professor of economics in the University of North Carolina, Chapel Hill. The authors acknowledge the financial assistance of the National Science Foundation.

[1] Eugene D. Genovese, *The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy & Society of the Slave South* (New York, 1965), 49.

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:59:31 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

Those scholars who have referred to slaves as ''capitalized labor'' have grasped an important truth. To own a slave was to have access to his entire labor and to be responsible for his full maintenance. Thus a slave was a form of capital; specifically, ''fixed'' capital (as opposed to ''circulating'' capital, such as inventories).

The slaveholder was unlikely to make adjustment to short-lived variations in the activities of his enterprise through the purchase and sale of fixed assets; the risks and costs of such behavior were too large. In this respect his behavior was identical with that of the industrial capitalist. Barring adjustments through rental markets, fluctuations in the level of activity of his enterprise left him at times with under-utilized assets, which nonetheless required maintenance. The industrial capitalist, in times of slack, saw his bills for labor, repairs, fuel, and intermediate product reduced sharply, while the comparable expenditures on the part of the slaveholder scarcely declined.

The entrepreneur who used exclusively slave labor thus had to regard all his costs virtually fixed, in the shortrun (barring, once again, adjustments through a rental market). This sharply distinguished his case from that of the employer of free labor. In other words, the responsibility for handling variations in the level of employment of labor—a responsibility shared in the free-market setting by employee, employer, and society—was largely assumed, in the slave society, by the individual slaveholder.

The two cases described above do not, of course, represent the universe of productive arrangements. Consider the case of an entrepreneur who employs only family labor. Insofar as his family feeling was strong, he shared one of the constraints imposed on the slaveholder: he could not easily adjust to downward fluctuations in the activity of his firm by curtailing his work force. Nonetheless, his reactions to fluctuations and his preparations for them may have differed a good deal from the reactions and preparations of the slaveholder. For example, imagine both firms facing a regular, fully anticipated set of variations in activity—say seasonal variations. To the family employer, the slack time may have had some real value, representing a desired period of leisure, to be usefully exploited by the family, even if it resulted in only limited immediate product. The slaveholder, however, was unlikely to take this view. Of course, cases run together; the patronizing slaveholder or employer of free labor may act on occasion like the good family man, and the tyrannical family head may sometimes act like a

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:59:31 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.1 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Anderson, Ralph V., and Robert E. Gallman. "Slaves as Fixed Capital: Slave Labor and Southern Economic Development." *The Journal of American History* 64, no. 1 (1977): 24–46. https://www.jstor.org/stable/1888272.

Footnote citation

Ralph V. Anderson and Robert E. Gallman, "Slaves as Fixed Capital: Slave Labor and Southern Economic Development," *The Journal of American History* 64, no. 1 (1977): 24–25, https://www.jstor.org/stable/1888272.

Shortened citation

Anderson and Gallman, "Slaves as Fixed Capital," 24–25.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 24-25. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Ralph V. Anderson and Robert E. Gallman - Slaves as Fixed Capital — Slave Labor and Southern Economic Development.pdf
SHA-256	39a900c6a4623f8b66833b606fc0149a620104098bccbe11f276a69a289fa0a8
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/1888272

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.2 - Poor Whites, Slaves, and Free Blacks in Tennessee, 1796-1861

Elizabeth Fortson Arroyo

ARTICLE	Poor Whites, Slaves, and Free Blacks in Tennessee, 1796-1861
JOURNAL	Tennessee Historical Quarterly 55, no. 1 (1996)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 57-58
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/42628410

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 57-58

Poor Whites, Slaves, and Free Blacks in Tennessee, 1796–1861

by Elizabeth Fortson Arroyo

The antagonism between the antebellum South's poor whites and its slaves and free blacks has figured prominently in the region's history, literature, and mythology. Reasons for mutual suspicion abounded, and many whites of the middling and upper classes encouraged such antipathy.

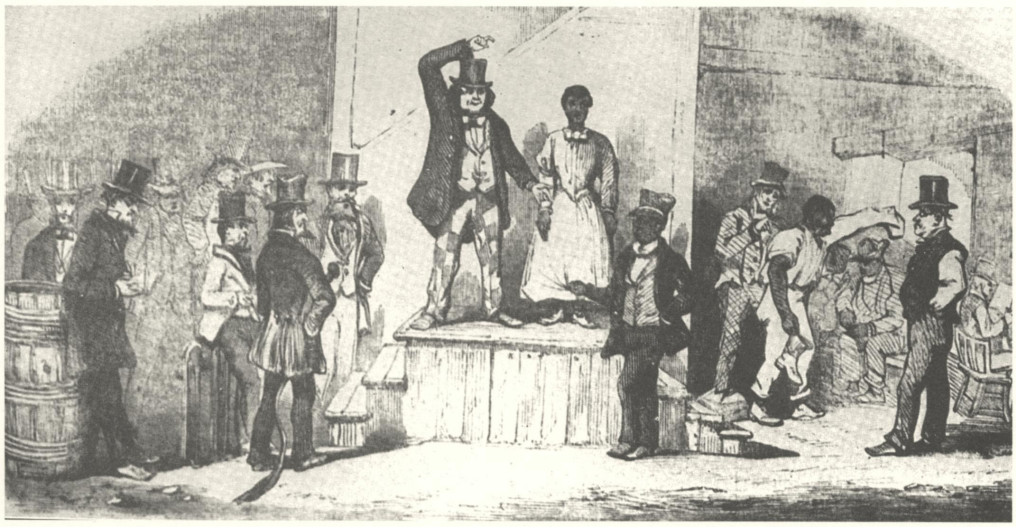
Numerous areas of social and economic alliance existed, however, between poor whites and black people, slave and free. The history of these peoples in Tennessee provides several examples of coexistence, even co-dependency. Hired, landless white laborers worked with black people in fields, factories, and mines, dug ditches and constructed roads and public buildings. They shared membership in evangelical churches. And some participated in an illicit market of stolen goods and enjoyed interracial gambling, drinking, and other socializing. Most white southerners, of course, found any activity connoting equality between the races both distasteful and potentially subversive of the social order. Political leaders soon erected legal and social barriers to prevent overfamiliarity. Many black people, meanwhile, disdained the "lowest" classes of white people, and also feared any heightening of racial tensions that could result from too familiar interactions between black and white. Still, on numerous occasions black people and poor whites defied the racial caste system of the antebellum South.

Why juxtapose these two groups and their experiences in Tennessee? First, the written record is slanted; their mutual hatreds have been made infamous. It is surprising and intriguing to learn when, where, and how they joined forces socially and economically. Second, the history of the two groups begs a basic question about the antebellum period: why were poor whites and blacks not natural allies against those, such as planters, employers, or monopolist merchants, who seemed to oppress them both? Examples of attempts at such interracial alliance exist, but they come after the Civil War—for example, the Populist movement, farmers' co-op organizations, and various unions. To understand why antebellum poor whites, free blacks, and slaves never fully exploited their mutual interests, one must examine where poor whites fit in the southern social order, as well as where black people did. One must also understand how these groups perceived their own self-interest, what improvements in their lives they hoped to effect, and which other members of southern society could help or hinder them.

Historian Stephen V. Ash has defined poor whites in the mid-nineteenth-century South as "any whites who owned no land, no slaves, no herds, and little or no property of any sort." They formed a group separate from the yeomen and herdsmen who "had peculiar interests, goals, and worldviews shaped by their role as property-owning petty producers." Historians such as J. Wayne Flynt have emphasized not only poor whites' economic marginality but aspects of their distinctive culture, such as music, dance, and foods. Furthermore, I. A. Newby has pointed out how southerners have defined them in terms of character, discriminating between the "respectable" poor and the "shiftless" poor.[1]

Poor white southerners, though nonslaveholders, nevertheless lived in a slaveholding society and could not avoid some relationship to the institution of slavery. Slaveholders knew that they had to cultivate poor whites' support for slavery and the various measures necessary for its maintenance. For example, poor whites were an important component of slave patrols, particularly in the black-belt areas where slaves outnumbered whites, and they also served in militias. They were furthermore a political force to be courted. And when the South made its bid for secession, in a war effort in which the needs and perquisites of slaveowners became a sore point, poor whites had to accept stated war aims and help fill the armies.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:44 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms



One of the cornerstones of pro-slavery ideology was that African Americans were inferior to whites. Such a paternalistic view justified the sale and enslavement of black people. This sketch of a slave auction was made from life by Eyre Crowe in 1853. (From Frederic Bancroft, *Slave-Trading in the Old South,* 1931)

The black people of the South, similar to poor whites in certain material, occupational, and even cultural ways, nevertheless occupied a fundamentally different place in southern society. As slaves, they were a coerced source of cheap labor, a people whose abilities, loyalties, and relationships to their owners played a significant role in how whites viewed their society. As free men and women, they also provided cheap labor and lived with strict limits on their freedom prescribed by their race. Free black people constituted a troubling presence in this slave society, a living counterpoint to proslavery arguments because of their self-sufficiency and their very desire to live as free people. And last, black people, slave and free, made up a social element that white people believed had to be controlled with eternal vigilance. The specter of slave rebellion haunted white southerners, masters and nonslaveholders alike, as did the supposed overweening desire held by black men for white women. For these reasons, black people were defined socially in ways that put them at odds with poor whites.

Scholars have attributed the antipathy that developed between poor whites and blacks to a number of causes. Pierre L. van den Berghe and George M. Fredrickson have argued that a caste system based on color elevated poor whites to inclusion in a "*Herrenvolk* democracy," a perceived commonality of interests and identity among whites of all classes.[2] Also, white laborers sometimes feared competition for jobs from both free blacks and slaves whose masters hired them out. Less directly, they competed with slaves in general, whose owners, without their chattel servants, might have hired white workers. Furthermore, some poor whites resented the advantages held by slaveholders, who did not have to produce a livelihood by the sweat of their own brows, and whose fortunes rested on the labor of a despised caste.

Some poor whites also may have felt uneasy when considering how close they were to the status of slavery. Slaves were landless in an agricultural society, had few material goods, and in nearly all cases could expect little or no advancement in life. Many poor whites found themselves in a very similar situation.

In the colonial period, in fact, the status of many poor whites had often been similar to that of black servants of the time. Indentured servants could be separated from their families, given insufficient necessities, whipped, and sexually coerced. They also endured the uncertainty of knowing that by committing ill-defined "infractions," they could extend their servitude beyond the original agreement. Indentured white servants, like slaves, ran away from cruel masters. As would be the case with their descendants, some of them formed alliances with the black people with whom they lived

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:44 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.2 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Arroyo, Elizabeth Fortson. "Poor Whites, Slaves, and Free Blacks in Tennessee, 1796-1861." *Tennessee Historical Quarterly* 55, no. 1 (1996): 56–65. https://www.jstor.org/stable/42628410.

Footnote citation

Elizabeth Fortson Arroyo, "Poor Whites, Slaves, and Free Blacks in Tennessee, 1796-1861," *Tennessee Historical Quarterly* 55, no. 1 (1996): 57–58, https://www.jstor.org/stable/42628410.

Shortened citation

Arroyo, "Poor Whites, Slaves," 57–58.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 3-4 correspond to original journal pages 57-58. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Elizabeth Fortson Arroyo - Poor Whites, Slaves, and Free Blacks in Tennessee, 1796-1861.pdf
SHA-256	9183d9478ca93876f7bf3a22052521cc5d7a60926e7ee004d97bd27f5308aa14
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/42628410

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.3 - High Cotton: The Antebellum Alabama Plantation Mistress and the Cotton Culture

Leah Rawls Atkins

ARTICLE	High Cotton: The Antebellum Alabama Plantation Mistress and the Cotton Culture
JOURNAL	Agricultural History 68, no. 2 (1994)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 92-93
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3744405

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 92-93

High Cotton: The Antebellum Alabama Plantation Mistress and the Cotton Culture

LEAH RAWLS ATKINS

Traveling on the *Herald* from Montgomery to Mobile in 1828, Captain Basil Hall found his ears "wearied with the sound of Cotton! Cotton! Cotton!" At each landing the river steamer took on more cotton and new passengers, whose first question was always "What's cotton at?" Hall was so tired of all the cotton talk that he "wished all the cotton in the country was at the bottom of the Alabama [River]."[1] When a British actor took the steamboat *Carolina* from Montgomery to Mobile in 1835, he complained that the side galleries were filled with bales of cotton, the windows were blocked up, and the "*Carolina* became, in fact, a floating mass of cotton."[2] Other travelers noted that the "whole soul" of the Alabama planter was "wrapped up in the pursuit" of growing more cotton and that he devoted "every rod of his land to cotton-growing."[3] In 1858 a British visitor to Mobile described it as a city "where the people live in cotton houses and ride in cotton carriages. They buy cotton, sell cotton, think cotton, eat cotton, drink cotton, and dream cotton. They marry cotton wives, and unto them are born cotton children. In enumerating the charms of a fair widow, they begin by saying she makes so many bales of cotton. It is the great staple—the sum and substance of Alabama."[4]

LEAH RAWLS ATKINS is Director of the Center for the Arts and Humanities, Auburn University.

1. Captain Basil Hall, *Travels in America in the Years 1827 and 1828,* 3 vols. (Edinburgh: Cadell & Company, 1829), 3: 308–311.

2. Tyrone Power, *Impressions of America, During the Years, 1833, 1834, and 1835,* 2 vols. (London: Richard Bentley, 1836), 2: 157.

3. [Joseph Holt Ingraham], *The Southwest, By A Yankee* (New York: Harper & Brothers, 1835), 2: 91, and Harriet Martineau, *Society in America,* 2 vols. (New York: Sanders & Otley, 1937), 2: 203.

4. Hiram Fuller, *Belle Brittan on a Tour at Newport and Here and There* (New York: Derby and Jackson, 1858), 112.

agricultural history volume 68 · number 2 · spring 1994. © agricultural history society

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:04:10 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

"Cotton wives" played a significant role in the cotton kingdom of Alabama, but the reality of their lives was hidden under a canopy of romance. The mythology of the southern belle, whose waist was cinched tight by laced corset, whose complexion was as white as moonlight on magnolia blossoms, and who fainted at the least crisis, began as the Romantic movement swept Europe. "Beautiful, graceful, accomplished in social charm, bewitching in coquetry, yet strangely steadfast in soul," she remains, Francis Pendleton Gaines has written, "perhaps the most winsome figure in the whole field of our fancy."[5] Sir Walter Scott's tales of medieval aristocracy influenced the South. While the rest of the nation only "read Scott with enthusiasm, the South assimilated his works into its very being," and soon the Old South came to regard itself "as the epitome of the chivalric ideal," including its cult of womanhood.[6]

John Pendleton Kennedy's novel *Swallow Barn* appeared in 1832 and marked the beginning of a glamorous treatment in American fiction of southern rural life. Kennedy painted with a Romantic palette a picturesque Virginia plantation and introduced Prudence Meriwether, a "high authority in matter of dress," with an "exaggerated thoughtlessness," and "sometimes, in her tone of conversation, a little too much girlishness." Bel Tracy is the spirited neighbor girl with "too rigorous [an] estimate of the proprieties and privileges of her sex." The stage was set for the plantation myth and the mystique of the southern belle.[7]

Such mythology received a boost at the end of the century when reverence for the South was entwined with the "Lost Cause" and the image of the "grand and beautiful women" of the South standing behind their men in gray.[8] In 1896 an Alabama division of the United Daughters of the Confederacy (UDC) was organized, and here as across the nation, the UDC perpetuated a romantic image of the Old South and of southern womanhood.[9]

In the fictional and literary representations of plantation life the mistress has often been a stock character, a reliable stereotype. In these stories aristocratic life has made the planter indolent and inert, while his

5. Francis Pendleton Gaines, *The Southern Plantation: A Study in the Development and Accuracy of a Tradition* (1924; Gloucester, Mass.: Peter Smith, 1962), 16.

6. Rollin G. Osterweis, *Romanticism and Nationalism in the Old South* (Baton Rouge: LSU Press, 1971), 42–47.

7. John Pendleton Kennedy, *Swallow Barn; or A Sojourn in the Old Dominion* (1832; reprint, Baton Rouge: LSU Press, 1986). See especially, 38–40, 77–78, 109. See also Kathryn Lee Seidel, *The Southern Belle in the American Novel* (Tampa: Univ. of South Florida Press, 1985).

8. James O. Prude, *The Importance and Growth of Genealogical Work in the South* (Montgomery: Alabama Historical Society, 1895), 23.

9. Ann Williams Boucher, "Wealthy Planter Families in Nineteenth-Century Alabama," (Ph.D. diss., Univ. of Connecticut, 1978), 17–18.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:04:10 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.3 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Atkins, Leah Rawls. "High Cotton: The Antebellum Alabama Plantation Mistress and the Cotton Culture." *Agricultural History* 68, no. 2 (1994): 92–104. https://www.jstor.org/stable/3744405.

Footnote citation

Leah Rawls Atkins, "High Cotton: The Antebellum Alabama Plantation Mistress and the Cotton Culture," *Agricultural History* 68, no. 2 (1994): 92–93, https://www.jstor.org/stable/3744405.

Shortened citation

Atkins, "High Cotton," 92–93.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 92-93. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Leah Rawls Atkins - High Cotton — The Antebellum Alabama Plantation Mistress and the Cotton Culture.pdf
SHA-256	d7b16fe30bc7b50ca49e013c39f9b9381530857efdc0bcc08e230ae1d725ddca
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3744405

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.4 - A Divided Prism: Two Sources of Black Testimony on Slavery

David Thomas Bailey

ARTICLE	A Divided Prism: Two Sources of Black Testimony on Slavery
JOURNAL	The Journal of Southern History 46, no. 3 (1980)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 381-382
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2207251

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 381-382

A Divided Prism: Two Sources of Black Testimony on Slavery

By David Thomas Bailey

Mired in a cynical mood, a historian might sum up his profession in a single thought: a source can be found to prove anything. No other group of scholars has tried so valiantly to prove this point as the students of American slavery. From an accessible and fairly small number of sources historians of slavery have produced a variety or, more appropriately, a boiling stew of contradictory writings on all aspects of the peculiar institution.

The publication of Robert W. Fogel and Stanley L. Engerman's *Time on the Cross* produced the most heated recent battle in the study of slavery. Using some well-known and a few less familiar collections of sources, Fogel and Engerman derived some startling and some obvious results. Reaction to their methods and conclusions came swiftly. Conventional and quantitative historians, after undertaking detailed examination of Fogel and Engerman's evidence, disputed the findings of *Time on the Cross* on every major point.[1]

An older and less well focused debate has surrounded the use of a group of sources containing the recollections of slaves and former slaves. Included among such "black" sources are autobiographies of former slaves, autobiographical narratives dictated by escaped slaves to abolitionists, antebellum and immediate postwar interviews, letters written by slaves and former slaves to their masters, an occasional narrative dictated by a black still in bondage, and several sets of twentieth-century interviews with former slaves.[2] Recent his-

[1] Fogel and Engerman, *Time on the Cross: The Economics of American Negro Slavery* (Boston and Toronto, 1974).

[2] Various collections include Benjamin Drew, *A North-Side View of Slavery. The Refugee: or, the Narratives of Fugitive Slaves in Canada* (Boston, 1856); John W. Blassingame, ed., *Slave Testimony: Two Centuries of Letters, Speeches, Interviews, and Autobiographies* (Baton Rouge, 1977); Robert S. Starobin, ed., *Blacks in Bondage: Letters of American Slaves* (New York, 1974).

Mr. Bailey is assistant professor of history at Michigan State University.

The Journal of Southern History
Vol. XLVI, No. 3, August 1980

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:02:33 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

torians of slavery have most often used two of these sources: twentieth-century interviews and book-length autobiographies (including the narratives by escaped slaves). This concentration has come about for two major reasons. The two bodies of sources are by far the largest collections of black testimony about slavery. Moreover, due to republication they have become fairly accessible. Unfortunately, no single repository of the autobiographies exists, and although most have recently been republished, a few valuable memoirs remain relatively hard to find. The twentieth-century interviews have recently become particularly accessible. George P. Rawick collected the largest set, the Federal Writers' Project interviews, in his multivolume set, *The American Slave.* The Rawick collection also includes two volumes which contain part of the product of another study conducted under the direction of Charles Spurgeon Johnson at Fisk University in the late 1920s.[3]

In the first major twentieth-century study of slavery Ulrich Bonnell Phillips dismissed autobiographies of former slaves as "of dubious value."[4] Most historians in the first half of the twentieth century followed his lead and ignored black testimony about slavery. Although the work of the Writers' Project and the Fisk study produced a small ripple of interest in the opinions of former slaves,[5] black sources failed to receive concentrated attention from historians until the 1960s. In 1963 Charles H. Nichols complained that "Nearly everyone concerned with American slavery has had his say, but in our time we have forgotten the testimony of its victims." In response to this problem, Nichols decided to write his account of slavery, *Many Thousand Gone,* "from the point of view of those whose unpaid labor maintained the plantation system of the Old South."[6] Just as Nichols's decision reflected the civil rights movement of the late 1950s and early 1960s, John W. Blassingame's approach in *The Slave Community* mirrored the academic concentration on black studies and black culture that blossomed in American universities in the late sixties. In particular, Blassingame argued that "there is no better way to investigate the slave's personality than

[3] Rawick, ed., *The American Slave: A Composite Autobiography* (19 vols., Westport, Conn., 1972). Rawick has recently edited an additional twelve volumes of Writers' Project narratives, which are not analyzed in this article.

[4] Phillips, *American Negro Slavery: A Survey of Supply, Employment and Control of Negro Labor as Determined by the Plantation Régime* (New York and London, 1918), 445*n*.

[5] John B. Cade, "Out of the Mouths of Ex-Slaves," *Journal of Negro History,* XX (July 1935), 294–337; Benjamin A. Botkin, "The Slave as His Own Interpreter," *Library of Congress Quarterly Journal of Current Acquisitions,* II (November 1944), 37–63.

[6] Nichols, *Many Thousand Gone: The Ex-Slaves' Account of Their Bondage and Freedom* (Leiden, Neth., 1963), ix.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:02:33 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.4 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Bailey, David Thomas. "A Divided Prism: Two Sources of Black Testimony on Slavery." *The Journal of Southern History* 46, no. 3 (1980): 381–404. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2207251.

Footnote citation

David Thomas Bailey, "A Divided Prism: Two Sources of Black Testimony on Slavery," *The Journal of Southern History* 46, no. 3 (1980): 381–382, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2207251.

Shortened citation

Bailey, "A Divided Prism," 381–382.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 381-382. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	David Thomas Bailey - A Divided Prism — Two Sources of Black Testimony on Slavery.pdf
SHA-256	9205e729fde0f22fdf4c78633cd6cba63a47b54b6f73455b1af0bb429875b995
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2207251

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.5 - Cuffy, 'Fancy Maids,' and 'One-Eyed Men': Rape, Commodification, and the Domestic Slave Trade in the United States

Edward E. Baptist

ARTICLE	Cuffy, 'Fancy Maids,' and 'One-Eyed Men': Rape, Commodification, and the Domestic Slave Trade in the United States
JOURNAL	The American Historical Review 106, no. 5 (2001)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 1619-1620
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2692741

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 1619-1620

"Cuffy," "Fancy Maids," and "One-Eyed Men": Rape, Commodification, and the Domestic Slave Trade in the United States

EDWARD E. BAPTIST

In January 1834, the slave trader Isaac Franklin wrote from New Orleans to his Richmond partner and slave buyer, Rice Ballard: "The fancy girl, from Charlattsvilla [Charlottesville], will you send her out or shall I charge you $1100 for her. Say quick, I wanted to see her . . . I thought that an old Robber might be satisfied with two or three maids." Franklin implied that his partner was holding the young woman, one of many "fancy maids" handled by the firm of Franklin, Armfield, and Ballard, for his own sexual use. Unwilling, the jest implied, to share his enslaved sex objects, Ballard was keeping the desirable Charlottesville maid in Richmond instead of passing her on to his partners so that they might take their turn of pleasure. The joke, and the desire it did not seek to disguise, was business as usual. In this case, the business was a slave-trading partnership, and systematic rape and sexual abuse of slave women were part of the normal practice of the men who ran the firm—and the normal practice of many of their planter customers as well. Franklin, Armfield, and Ballard supplied field hands and carpenters to the raw new plantations of Louisiana, Mississippi, and Arkansas in the 1830s, but they also supplied planters with many a "fancy maid." In fact, the letter quoted went on to suggest, tongue in cheek, that such women were in such heavy demand that the firm might do better selling coerced sex retail rather than wholesale. Referring to two enslaved women, Franklin mused self-indulgently on the conversion of female labor into slavers' money: "The old Lady and Susan could soon pay for themselves by keeping a whore house." Yet what did Franklin indulge most? Was sexual or monetary greed the trump suit in his own decision-making? Perhaps, he continued, in the vein of aggressive sexual banter that pervades the traders' letters, the

The author would like to thank the following persons for assistance and criticism: Ligia Aldana, Stephanie Baptist, Jeffrey P. Brosco, Stephanie M. H. Camp, Kenneth Goodman, James Lake, Russ Castronovo, Drew Gilpin Faust, Sybil Lipschultz, Charles Rosenberg, Lee Sorenson, Phillip Troutman, and the editorial board and anonymous reviewers of the *American Historical Review*. Richard S. Dunn and the McNeil Seminar for Early American Studies provided important feedback and encouragement, while Mimi Miller and the Historic Natchez Foundation and Steven Engle and the Department of History at Florida Atlantic University granted additional opportunities to present and discuss papers on this topic. He is also extremely grateful to Tim Pyatt and John White of the Southern Historical Collection at the University of North Carolina for the many ways in which they facilitated the research that led to this essay.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 02:01:49 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

partners would rather see the house "located and established at your place, Alexandria, or Baltimore for the Exclusive benefit of the consern & [its] agents."[1]

Franklin and his colleagues passionately wanted "mulatto" women, and black people generally: as bodies to rape and bodies to sell. If these men were more than mere exceptions in the society in which they lived—and I shall argue that they illustrate that society's half-denied and half-remembered assumptions about commerce and rape—then the stakes of explaining their desires are high. What sort of society did slaveowning white men create in the antebellum U.S. South? What sorts of ideas and psychological forces cemented their devotion to the supposedly pre-modern institution of racial slavery to a deep involvement in the rapid commercial expansion that reached a peak during the 1830s?

The present essay seeks to explain the ideas about slavery, rape, and commerce embedded in and produced by the passionate desires of Franklin and his partners. For some years, historians interpreting the institutions and ideology of nineteenth-century southern slavery have focused their attentions on explaining slaveholders' paternalist defenses of their planter institution. Like some of their sources, such histories have often explicitly or implicitly portrayed the domestic slave trade as a contradiction within an otherwise stable system.[2] Recent works have returned the issue of that trade to the forefront, arguing that the commerce in human beings was an inescapable and essential feature of the region's pre–Civil War society and culture.[3] In the drop of water that is the correspondence between Franklin, Ballard, and their associates, one might perceive a need to push historians' revisions of the slave South's whole world further still. Indeed, these men reveal themselves as being so devoted to their picture of the slave trade as a fetishized commodification

[1] Isaac Franklin to R. C. Ballard, January 11, 1834, folder 13, Series 1.1, Rice Ballard Papers, Southern Historical Collection, University of North Carolina, Chapel Hill, North Carolina (hereafter, Ballard Papers). Wendell Holmes Stephenson, *Isaac Franklin: Slave Trader and Planter of the Old South, With Plantation Records* (Baton Rouge, La., 1938). See Phillip D. Troutman, " 'Fancy Girls' and a 'Yellow Wife': Sex and Domesticity in the Domestic Slave Trade," unpublished paper presented at the Southern Historical Association, Louisville, Ky., November 10, 2000. For other references to the Franklin and Armfield or Franklin and Ballard firms, see George W. Featherstonhaugh, *Excursion through the Slave States*, 2 vols. (London, 1844), 1: 151–70; E. A. Andrews, *Slavery and the Domestic Slave-Trade in the United States* (Boston, 1836), 135–53; William Jay, *A View of the Action of the Federal Government in Behalf of Slavery* (New York, 1839), 75, 84, 86; E. S. Abdy, *Journal of a Residence and Tour in the United States of North America, From April, 1833, to October, 1835* (London, 1835), 2: 179–80; Frederic Bancroft, *Slave Trading in the Old South* (Baltimore, Md., 1931), 59–60, 64, 275–76, 304; Michael Tadman, *Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South* (Madison, Wis., 1989), 80–81, 84, 104, 107; Ariela Gross, *Double Character: Slavery and Mastery in the Antebellum Southern Courtroom* (Princeton, N.J., 2000); William Calderhead, "The Role of the Professional Slave Trader in a Slave Economy: Austin Woolfolk, A Case Study," *Civil War History* 23 (September 1977): 195–211; and Calderhead, "How Extensive Was the Border State Slave Trade: A New Look," *Civil War History* 18 (March 1972): 42–55.

[2] Elizabeth Fox-Genovese, *Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women in the Old South* (Chapel Hill, N.C., 1988), 98; Eugene Genovese, in *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made* (New York, 1974), perhaps most explicitly on 96–97; and Genovese, "The Logical Outcome of the Slaveholders' Philosophy: An Exposition, Interpretation, and Critique of the Social Thought of George Fitzhugh of Port Royal, Virginia," in *The World the Slaveholders Made: Two Essays in Interpretation* (New York, 1969), 118–244; Jeffrey R. Young, *Domesticating Slavery: The Master Class in Georgia and South Carolina, 1670–1837* (Chapel Hill, 1999).

[3] Tadman, *Speculators and Slaves*; Walter Johnson, *Soul by Soul: Life inside the Antebellum Slave Market* (Cambridge, Mass., 1999); Stephen Deyle, " 'The Irony of Liberty': Origins of the Domestic Slave Trade," *Journal of the Early Republic* 12 (Spring 1992): 37–62; Phillip D. Troutman, "Slave Trade and Sentiment in Antebellum Virginia" (PhD dissertation, University of Virginia, 2000).

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 02:01:49 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.5 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Baptist, Edward E. "Cuffy, 'Fancy Maids,' and 'One-Eyed Men': Rape, Commodification, and the Domestic Slave Trade in the United States." *The American Historical Review* 106, no. 5 (2001): 1619–1650. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2692741.

Footnote citation

Edward E. Baptist, "Cuffy, 'Fancy Maids,' and 'One-Eyed Men': Rape, Commodification, and the Domestic Slave Trade in the United States," *The American Historical Review* 106, no. 5 (2001): 1619–1620, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2692741.

Shortened citation

Baptist, "Cuffy, 'Fancy Maids,' and 'One-Eyed Men,'" 1619–1620.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 1619-1620. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Edward E. Baptist - Cuffy, Fancy Maids, and One-Eyed Men — Rape, Commodification, and the Domestic Slave Trade in the United States.pdf
SHA-256	15a32f04400031563426f77e08fb8191a98d749ae8724f69c8db1de7aab4ecb4
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2692741

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.6 - Comparative Regional Development in Antebellum Manufacturing

Fred Bateman and Thomas Weiss

ARTICLE	Comparative Regional Development in Antebellum Manufacturing
JOURNAL	The Journal of Economic History 35, no. 1 (1975)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 182-183
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2119163

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 182-183

Comparative Regional Development in Antebellum Manufacturing

A reconsideration of regional economic development during the antebellum period is underway. Emphasis thus far has tended to center on economic aggregates, on one region (the South) or on a single sector (agriculture). While the results of this work have altered our understanding of the antebellum South's relative economic position—or at least have sharpened the debate on the issues—comprehension of the role and position of the period's industrial sector remains faulty, largely because it has been derived from indirect evidence.

Our analysis of the nature of southern manufacturing activity has demanded knowledge of industrial development elsewhere, particularly when dealing with questions of why the South evolved as it did. Such questions involving alternate paths of development can be analyzed fruitfully in a comparative context. Discussion of such issues as slavery and comparative advantage that underlies much of the existing body of thought regarding southern industrial levels frequently becomes entangled in debates regarding the reasons why southern manufacturing developed as it did, and what might have happened if certain, presumably retardant, conditions had been absent. Comparison of southern industrial development with that of the other major agricultural but not slave-based economy, the antebellum West, and comparison of both South and West with the major nonagricultural economy in the East do provide answers based on empirical evidence rather than on hypothetical constructs alone.

VIEWS ON REGIONAL MANUFACTURING PATTERNS

Detailed and specific studies comparing antebellum industrial development on a regional basis are surprisingly rare. The long-standing view of the mid-nineteenth-century American economy

This study of American manufacturing was conducted under grants from the National Science Foundation. Additional financial support was provided by the Indiana University Graduate School of Business and by the University of Kansas General Research Fund. Jeremy Atack provided considerable research assistance as well as valuable comments, particularly on the section dealing with economies of scale.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:04 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

held the Northeast to be the developing industrial area, the West the food-supplying region, and the South primarily an agricultural region supplying raw materials for industrial use outside the area. Reinforcing this was a frequent tendency to blend the East and West into an "industrial North," where the economy differed dramatically from the non-industrialized South. It was thus tempting to generalize this "laggard" industrial condition into southern economic "backwardness." Only recently has this perception come under serious challenge in studies suggesting that economic development and welfare in the South had not suffered in comparison to the rest of the United States, particularly to the West. The southern economy in the aggregate appears to have been prosperous despite its industrial condition.

While the traditional generalizations regarding overall economic conditions among the regions seem obviously suspect given recent empirical evidence, were those regarding the manufacturing sectors specifically also off the mark? Examination of several indicators of regional industrial development (Table 1) reveals not large differences between the West and South, but rather similarity of the two regions when they are compared to the eastern states. The amounts of capital and labor per firm in the western and southern states are similar, but far below that of either New England or the Middle States. Even output per firm in the West was considerably closer to that of the South than of these eastern areas.

By any measure New England clearly was the most advanced industrial region, with the Middle Atlantic region a somewhat distant second. From this perspective, both the western and the southern industrial sectors were "laggard." But is that an appropriate perspective? The West, a developed and richly-endowed agricultural region, was already establishing a pervasive and diversified manufacturing sector, one that after the Civil War would blossom into one of the world's major industrial regions. And the South's industrial condition, when set in contrast to this other primarily agricultural region, seems neither so backward nor so underdeveloped. What appears are three different regions—each responding to existing factor endowments and specializing according to these differences in input availability. This kind of comparative advantage argument assumes an even more convincing appeal when considered in conjunction with regional income estimates, which do not reveal

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:04 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.6 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Bateman, Fred, and Thomas Weiss. "Comparative Regional Development in Antebellum Manufacturing." *The Journal of Economic History* 35, no. 1 (1975): 182–208. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2119163.

Footnote citation

Fred Bateman and Thomas Weiss, "Comparative Regional Development in Antebellum Manufacturing," *The Journal of Economic History* 35, no. 1 (1975): 182–183, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2119163.

Shortened citation

Bateman and Weiss, "Comparative Regional Development," 182–183.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 182-183. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Fred Bateman and Thomas Weiss - Comparative Regional Development in Antebellum Manufacturing.pdf
SHA-256	60fa4dadc512c67dcf964424f2a7dd420eeaffbdee920156d986deafe16c16d4
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2119163

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.7 - 'In Pressing Need of Cash': Gender, Skill, and Family Persistence in the Domestic Slave Trade

Daina Ramey Berry

ARTICLE	'In Pressing Need of Cash': Gender, Skill, and Family Persistence in the Domestic Slave Trade
JOURNAL	The Journal of African American History 92, no. 1 (2007)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 22-23
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/20064152

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 22-23

"IN PRESSING NEED OF CASH": GENDER, SKILL, AND FAMILY PERSISTENCE IN THE DOMESTIC SLAVE TRADE

Daina Ramey Berry*

Charlotte grew up on a Rockingham County, Virginia, plantation with her parents and sixteen brothers and sisters. Her family was somewhat favored by their slaveholder Charles L. Yancy because they represented nearly half of his enslaved population. They spent most of the day in the fields cultivating wheat, corn, rye, hemp, and tobacco; her father Novel was the "head man" who managed the agricultural laborers. Their lives changed when Yancy, who had developed a drinking problem, decided to employ an overseer. Suddenly, the plantation profits decreased and Charlotte and her family were subjected to four overseers over the course of two or three years. Unfortunately, Yancy's financial troubles continued and he "found himself in pressing need of cash," so Charlotte was sold to the highest bidder on the auction block in Richmond.[1]

Charlotte's sale greatly affected her parents and siblings. Her mother, Mary Francis, "show[ed] all the symptoms of a distracted mind and a broken heart" and her father "laboured under great distress." Yancy noticed a change in Novel and asked him to share his feelings; to this he replied:

> Why, master, if I should see one of your daughters sold away from you, and you did not ever expect to see her again in this life, I could give a pretty close guess how you felt; and now, if you can just place yourself in my stead, and think how you would feel at a separation such as I had to endure, and then my other children weeping around me, you can tell what the matter is with me.[2]

As the dialogue continued, the distressed father reminded the slaveholder of his continued faithfulness, hoping that Yancy would understand the reason for his sadness. Acknowledging Novel's loyalty, Yancy justified his decision to sell Charlotte, claiming, "If I have to sell, and must sell, I have to sell to the best advantage." At age 19, and a skilled field hand, Charlotte was one of the most valuable laborers on the estate and brought "the heaviest price"; Yancy believed he had no choice but to sell her first.[3] Not quite convinced by this rationale,

*Daina Ramey Berry is Associate Professor of History at Michigan State University in East Lansing, MI.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:01:26 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

Charlotte's brother J. A. Banks entered the conversation and requested that Yancy sell him next so that his parents would not have to witness repeated acts of sale. To this Yancy replied, "You are about 19 years of age, and the most valuable *man* I have on the farm. I cannot spare *you*, but I have more young women than I need. I must sell some of them."[4]

Southern slaveholders purchased, sold, and traded enslaved black laborers on a daily basis throughout the antebellum period. Historians interested in the economics of slavery have uncovered a wealth of material relating to the domestic slave trade as well as the transatlantic trade, and have debated the overall profitability of this "inhuman bondage."[5] More recently, Steven Deyle's prizewinning study *Carry Me Back: The Domestic Slave Trade in American Life* examined both the "long-distance interstate trade" and the extensive local or "intrastate" trade. Far from being "marginal" to the southern economy, the slave system was an essential element in commercial life. Deyle found that in 1860, the commercial value of the enslaved population "was roughly three times greater than the total amount of all capital, North and South combined, invested in manufacturing, almost three times the amount invested in railroads, and seven times the amount invested in banks." With regard to the slaveholding states, "By 1860 slave property had even surpassed the assessed value of real estate." Historian Herbert Gutman had argued in 1975 that "once every 3.5 minutes, 10 hours a day, 300 days a year, for 40 years, a human being was bought and sold in the antebellum South." However, since that time, historians documenting the domestic slave trade have estimated that Gutman's figures were "too low."[6]

One reason "this species of property" was so valuable was because from 1820 to 1860 prices were increasing. For example, Deyle estimates that from 1820 to 1829, the lowest average price for slaves sold in the New Orleans market was $617. Between 1850 and 1859, the lowest average price had risen to $1,046.[7] With the exception of the studies by Walter Johnson and Edward Baptist, however, there has been little information available about differences in the prices for enslaved males and females.[8] Part of the reason for this omission is that most studies of slave prices have focused on "prime male slaves."[9] This has been the case since 1918 when historian U. B. Phillips in *American Negro Slavery* observed that "the only market grade . . . for which basic price tabulations can be made with any confidence is that of young male prime field hands, for these alone may usually be discriminated, even when ages and qualities are not specified."[10] Many of the studies that followed concurred with Phillips and did not bother to analyze prices for bondwomen. However, as Walter Johnson noted, "The entire economy of the antebellum South was constructed upon the idea that the bodies of enslaved people [males *and* females] had a measurable monetary value, whether they were ever actually sold or not."[11] Building on this body of scholarship, this essay examines the relationships among gender, skill, family

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:01:26 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.7 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Berry, Daina Ramey. "'In Pressing Need of Cash': Gender, Skill, and Family Persistence in the Domestic Slave Trade." *The Journal of African American History* 92, no. 1 (2007): 22–36. https://www.jstor.org/stable/20064152.

Footnote citation

Daina Ramey Berry, "'In Pressing Need of Cash': Gender, Skill, and Family Persistence in the Domestic Slave Trade," *The Journal of African American History* 92, no. 1 (2007): 22–23, https://www.jstor.org/stable/20064152.

Shortened citation

Berry, "'In Pressing Need of Cash,'" 22–23.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 22-23. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Daina Ramey Berry - In Pressing Need of Cash — Gender, Skill, and Family Persistence in the Domestic Slave Trade.pdf
SHA-256	d24630f3b2092527050f7b7a06dc05e7242acf8ac3811c0ab6cc035ac88bde95
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/20064152

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.8 - Conjure and Christianity in the Nineteenth Century: Religious Elements in African American Magic

Yvonne Chireau

ARTICLE	Conjure and Christianity in the Nineteenth Century: Religious Elements in African American Magic
JOURNAL	Religion and American Culture: A Journal of Interpretation 7, no. 2 (1997)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 225-226
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/1123979

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 225-226

Conjure and Christianity in the Nineteenth Century: Religious Elements in African American Magic

Yvonne Chireau

Shortly before the turn of the nineteenth century, an amateur collector of Negro spirituals and folklore recounted a conversation that she had had with an unidentified African American clergyman. According to the collector, the clergyman, "one of the most scholarly and noted ministers of the colored race," admitted that, even as a professed Christian, he found himself "under the influences of *voodooism*" and other African occult practices. He explained that, as a young pastor, he had grown "completely discouraged" after numerous unsuccessful attempts to attract new worshipers into his congregation until one day an unexpected visitor happened his way:

> I was in my study praying when the door opened and a little Conjure man came in and said softly: "You don't understand de people. You must get you a *hand* as a friend to draw 'em. Ef you will let me fix you a luck charm, you'll git 'em."

The minister accepted the "hand" from the Conjurer, which was a small, homemade talisman, and found to his surprise that his church was full the very next week. "For four years," he recalled, "the aisles were crowded every Sunday." Disgusted, the minister eventually destroyed the charm, unable to reconcile his increasing popularity with the apparent potency of the occult object. "I knew it was not the gospel's power, but that wretched 'luck ball.' " Perplexed, he concluded, "I . . . have never been able to draw an audience since."[1]

In the history of American religion, this anecdote serves as an intriguing reminder of the diverse currents that have long contended with Christianity for the spiritual allegiance of both clergy and laypersons. The minister's tacit acceptance and eventual rejection of the Conjurer's charm illustrates how even religiously observant individuals can adopt unorthodox, idiosyncratic beliefs and behavior under circumstances where unbridgeable gaps in knowledge or loss of control may exist. As I will argue, this story is not an exceptional

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:03:47 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

case; rather, it is an example of the kind of convergence of beliefs that commonly occurred between African American magic and Christianity. For generations, magic has persisted in black culture, often obscured but deemed compatible with other spiritual traditions. Its widespread appeal is attested to by numerous accounts describing conjuring relics, supernatural rituals, and occult specialists among African American churchgoers. From slavery days to the present, practitioners and clients of the magical arts have moved freely across ecclesial boundaries, drawing copiously from the symbols and language of Christianity. The picture of black religion that emerges is, thus, more complex than formulations distinguishing between magic and religion as separate empirical categories would indicate.

Conjure is African American occultism. The term applies to an extensive area of magic, practices, and lore that includes healing, spells, and supernatural objects. Conjure belongs to a broader realm of beliefs that have historically occupied the spiritual imagination of both blacks and whites. Recent studies of early American religion have shown that a tangle of esoteric, heterodox, and occult traditions was inherited by European colonists and, after flourishing for several generations, gradually was reconfigured in the wake of eighteenth-century Protestant entrenchment.[2] Spiritual variety is no less prevalent today, when neopaganism, witchcraft, New Age traditions, and other experimental spiritualities compete with established religions and popular interpretations of magic abound within American subcultures. Black American Conjure is but one facet in a spectrum of supernatural beliefs that continues to thrive, albeit covertly, in the United States.[3]

The relationship betwen Conjure and Christianity has been traditionally regarded as inimical, due to the assumed conflict between the immutability of divine will and the claims of individuals to be able to manipulate spiritual power. Scholars of religion have been divided on the meaning of Conjure practices in African American life. Some interpreters have viewed occult beliefs as residual superstitions, the consequence of an incomplete Christianization of black Americans that began in slavery.[4] Others have portrayed magical practices as enduring survivals of native African traditions: detached from their religious moorings, occult beliefs are seen to have provided the spiritual fodder by which bondspersons challenged slaveowner hegemony and retained a powerful ancestral heritage.[5] Although each has some legitimacy, none of these viewpoints does complete justice to describing the relationships of accommodation and assimilation that allowed practitioners of Conjure and Christianity to reconcile their beliefs. As religious traditions, both Conjure and

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:03:47 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.8 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Chireau, Yvonne. "Conjure and Christianity in the Nineteenth Century: Religious Elements in African American Magic." *Religion and American Culture: A Journal of Interpretation* 7, no. 2 (1997): 225–246. https://www.jstor.org/stable/1123979.

Footnote citation

Yvonne Chireau, "Conjure and Christianity in the Nineteenth Century: Religious Elements in African American Magic," *Religion and American Culture: A Journal of Interpretation* 7, no. 2 (1997): 225–226, https://www.jstor.org/stable/1123979.

Shortened citation

Chireau, "Conjure and Christianity," 225–226.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 225-226. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Yvonne Chireau - Conjure and Christianity in the Nineteenth Century — Religious Elements in African American Magic.pdf
SHA-256	485fa41387ca9626920fe385232d119016407f5d0590c3ce9970461427599cac
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/1123979

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.9 - Capitalism and Slavery

John J. Clegg

ARTICLE	Capitalism and Slavery
JOURNAL	Critical Historical Studies 2, no. 2 (2015)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 281-282
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/48873909

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 281-282

Capitalism and Slavery

John J. Clegg, *New York University*

Was slavery capitalist? For today's historians the question can evoke musty, long-winded debates from the 1970s. Yet in the last year three books by prominent scholars have reopened the question, catching the attention of many outside the historical profession. While they differ in many respects, these books agree that slavery was central to nineteenth-century capitalism and that it enabled the industrialization of Britain and the United States. Walter Johnson's *River of Dark Dreams* graphically depicts what Johnson calls the "full throttle capitalism" of the cotton frontier. Edward Baptist's *The Half That Has Never Been Told* tells "the making of American capitalism" from the point of view of the slaves who made it. Finally, Sven Beckert's *Empire of Cotton* firmly situates American slavery in the context of capitalism's global expansion at the gunpoint of an imperial British state.[1]

This new development in the historiography of slavery coincides with revived academic interest in capitalism in the wake of the recent financial crisis. Indeed these three authors are all associated with a burgeoning field in American history departments—"the history of capitalism"—in which slavery has become something of a signature topic.[2] It is therefore strange that none of them seem interested in asking what capitalism is. Even Beckert's field-defining essay neglected to

Many thanks to Robin Blackburn, Vivek Chibber, Stanley Engerman, Niklas Frykman, Noam Maggor, and Charles Post for helpful comments and criticisms. Special thanks to Robert Brenner for his extensive comments and criticisms. All the above are exempted of responsibility for my errors and idiosyncrasies.

1. Walter Johnson, *River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom* (Cambridge: Belknap, 2013); Edward Baptist, *The Half That Has Never Been Told: The Making of American Capitalism* (New York: Basic, 2014); Sven Beckert, *Empire of Cotton: A Global History* (New York: Knopf, 2014).

2. The new history of American capitalism incorporates nineteenth-century histories of risk and money (Jonathan Levy, *Freaks of Fortune* [Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2012]; Steven Mihm, *A Nation of Counterfeiters* [Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2009]), as well as twentieth-century histories of credit and securities markets (Louis Hyman, *Debtor Nation* [Princeton, NJ: Princeton Uni-

Critical Historical Studies (Fall 2015). © 2015 by The University of Chicago. All rights reserved.
2326-4462/2015/0202-0005$10.00

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:57:35 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

hazard a definition, and Seth Rockman, another leading historian of capitalism, has recently commended the field's "disavowal of theoretical definitions."[3]

I believe this is a mistake. In this article I defend a view of capitalism as widespread and systematic market dependence. I argue that American slave plantations were indeed capitalist in this sense and that recognizing this allows us to resolve inconsistencies in this new literature, particularly with regard to the relation between violence and productivity, and between slavery and industrialization. Finally, I argue that developing a more robust conception of capitalism is essential if historians of capitalism wish to engage scholars in other fields and contribute to contemporary political and economic debates.

NAMING THE SYSTEM

Although they are reticent to define the term, Johnson, Baptist, and Beckert frequently refer to "capitalism" in their books. In spite of their reticence we can thus piece together some implicit or operative definitions from the contexts in which they employ the term.[4] A survey of these contexts reveals that they mean several things when they call features of antebellum slavery "capitalist."

First and foremost, they are referring to the profit motive of slave owners. They don't argue that slave owners were always rational and calculating; indeed, Johnson and Baptist stress other motives such as sadism and irrational speculation. Rather, the claim is that slave owners were fundamentally out to make money and often applied modern innovations and management techniques to this end.

Second, and as a consequence of the first, they mean that American slavery exhibited rapid and continuous productivity growth—a unique characteristic of capitalist societies.[5] Here they draw on evidence of substantial increases in the amount of cotton picked by slaves: roughly 2 percent per year.[6] This rate of pro-

---

versity Press, 2012]; Julia Ott, *When Wall Street Met Main Street* [Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2011]). Finance thus competes with slavery for prominence in the field.

3. Sven Beckert, "History of American Capitalism," in *American History Now*, ed. Eric Foner and Lisa McGirred (Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 2011), 314–35; Seth Rockman, "What Makes the History of Capitalism Newsworthy?," *Journal of the Early Republic* 34, no. 3 (2014): 444.

4. To paraphrase Wittgenstein, the meaning of a word is the way it is used.

5. Beckert cites Angus Maddison's *longue durée* income data, which demonstrates capitalism's unique productivity dynamics. Baptist reproduces a graph from Guy Clark based on Maddison's data. See Angus Maddison, *Contours of the World Economy, 1–2030 AD* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2007).

6. Alan Olmstead and Paul Rhode, "Productivity Growth and the Regional Dynamics of Antebellum Southern Development," in *Economic Evolution and Revolution in Historical Time*, ed. Paul W. Rhode, Joshua L. Rosenbloom, and David F. Weiman (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 2011), 203. We

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:57:35 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.9 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Clegg, John J. "Capitalism and Slavery." *Critical Historical Studies* 2, no. 2 (2015): 281–304. https://www.jstor.org/stable/48873909.

Footnote citation

John J. Clegg, "Capitalism and Slavery," *Critical Historical Studies* 2, no. 2 (2015): 281–282, https://www.jstor.org/stable/48873909.

Shortened citation

Clegg, "Capitalism and Slavery," 281–282.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 281-282. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	John J. Clegg - Capitalism and Slavery.pdf
SHA-256	aa3c709816204c2dc9f07c15511060d613cd3430c9b258badbb56caf9d3f081d
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/48873909

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.10 - Would Slavery Have Survived Without the Civil War? Economic Factors in the American South During the Antebellum and Postbellum Eras

Peter A. Coclanis and Stanley L. Engerman

ARTICLE	Would Slavery Have Survived Without the Civil War? Economic Factors in the American South During the Antebellum and Postbellum Eras
JOURNAL	Southern Cultures 19, no. 2 (2013)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 66-67
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/26217427

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 66-67

DEBATE

Would Slavery Have Survived Without the Civil War?

Economic Factors in the American South During the Antebellum and Postbellum Eras

by Peter A. Coclanis and Stanley L. Engerman



Slavery was so important to the South and economic factors so central to slavery that it behooves all students of the South, even in the early twenty-first century, to consider the material issues at hand. Slave auction market, c. 1864, Atlanta, Georgia, courtesy of the Library of Congress.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 01:57:51 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

The debate that follows was sponsored by the University of South Carolina Institute for Southern Studies and the Watson-Brown Foundation and first aired as part of South Carolina ETV's "Take on the South" series. Peter Coclanis and Stanley Engerman kindly have modified their discussion for our pages.

Peter A. Coclanis: Slavery, an Impediment to Development, Would Have Ended Even Without the Civil War

Although some obscurantist southerners, a century and a half after secession, still believe slavery tangential, if not incidental, to the coming of the Civil War, almost all professional historians place the so-called peculiar institution front and center. That said, even today many questions relating to the economics of slavery on the eve of war are open to debate. The lack of consensus is understandable, for the subject is as multifaceted as it is complex, and it is possible for scholars to mount and sustain robust arguments that are different, even antithetical, as this debate will demonstrate. Nonetheless, slavery was so important to the South and economic factors so central to slavery that it behooves all students of southern history, even in the early twenty-first century, closely to consider the material issues at hand in 1860 and 1861.

My argument here is two-fold: (1) slavery, though generally profitable, had a harmful, long-term developmental impact on the southern economy; and (2) that the institution would gradually have evolved into something else in the late nineteenth century even without the Civil War. Before moving on, however, a necessary disclaimer: I well recognize the moral enormity that was slavery, and my comments here pertain only to the economic aspects of the peculiar institution, and, even delimited to the economic realm, should be seen as an attempt to analyze "what was" rather than "what ought to have been."[1]

DEFINITIONAL CONCERNS

Even trying to understand "what was" is an exacting task. For starters, there are definitional concerns. If the past is a foreign country, as geographer David Lowenthal famously put it back in 1985, we visit the economic history of the antebellum South with a very restricted visa indeed.[2] What South are we talking about? As William Freehling, among many others, has told us, there were actually many "Souths," and the importance of slavery differed dramatically across the region. There were parts of the region—East Tennessee, for example—where slavery was unimportant, and, by the late antebellum period, its importance in much of the Border South and Upper South as a whole was on the wane. To be sure, slavery, and, more to the point, plantation slavery informed economic life in some parts of the Deep South—the South Carolina and Georgia Lowcountry, the sugar parishes

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 01:57:51 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.10 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Coclanis, Peter A., and Stanley L. Engerman. "Would Slavery Have Survived Without the Civil War? Economic Factors in the American South During the Antebellum and Postbellum Eras." *Southern Cultures* 19, no. 2 (2013): 66–90. https://www.jstor.org/stable/26217427.

Footnote citation

Peter A. Coclanis and Stanley L. Engerman, "Would Slavery Have Survived Without the Civil War? Economic Factors in the American South During the Antebellum and Postbellum Eras," *Southern Cultures* 19, no. 2 (2013): 66–67, https://www.jstor.org/stable/26217427.

Shortened citation

Coclanis and Engerman, "Would Slavery Have Survived," 66–67.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 66-67. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Peter A. Coclanis and Stanley L. Engerman - Would Slavery Have Survived Without the Civil War.pdf
SHA-256	22c03d4b8981b7a255adb72a63c5a07cc1f33198018cee68e39e47e12285e18c
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/26217427

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.11 - Citizens of Nowhere: Fugitive Slaves and Free African Americans in Mexico, 1833-1857

Sarah E. Cornell

ARTICLE	Citizens of Nowhere: Fugitive Slaves and Free African Americans in Mexico, 1833-1857
JOURNAL	The Journal of American History 100, no. 2 (2013)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 351-352
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/44307337

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 351-352

Citizens of Nowhere: Fugitive Slaves and Free African Americans in Mexico, 1833–1857

Sarah E. Cornell

On October 6, 1837, two enslaved African Americans were hanged in Rapides Parish, Louisiana. The next day, seven more souls shared their fate. Local whites had sentenced these slaves to death, despite the financial loss incurred by the slave owners, because they believed that the slaves had planned to rebel and wreak bloody vengeance upon them. Solomon Northup, a free African American from the North who was illegally enslaved in the area several years later, recorded a different account of the conspiracy. The goal of the failed plot, still "a subject of general and unfailing interest in every slave hut on the bayou," was not the slaughter of whites, he wrote. Rather, a "large number of runaways" planned a "crusade to Mexico," where they could find freedom. They would use violence only as a means to reach their destination. Northup predicted that the failed attempt would "doubtless go down to succeeding generations as their chief tradition."[1]

This essay investigates the nature of the freedom fugitive slaves imagined, found, and constructed in Mexico. The experiences of slaves who fled the Deep South for Mexico in the antebellum era illuminate that the connections between the Deep South and Mexico challenged U.S. slavery and racism, but fugitive slaves found only a contingent freedom once they arrived. Former bondspeople in Mexico experienced a real but fragile freedom when they restarted their lives across the border. They faced obstacles built upon their identities as people who had lived in a system of racialized labor in the United States and as a sometimes-racialized other in Mexico. As they sought official and cultural citizenship to complement their freedom, they were subject to discriminatory practices at both the federal and local levels.

The literature on the colonial and early republic South characterizes the region as a vibrant, complex borderland where events such as the ones in Rapides Parish would have been commonplace. Studies of the South during the antebellum period through the end of the nineteenth century, however, isolate the region from its border connections. Although

Sarah Cornell is an assistant professor of history at the University of Massachusetts–Amherst.

I thank Thomas Bender, Christian Ayne Crouch, Marcela Echeverri, Meg Frisbee, Linda Gordon, Matthew Pratt Guterl, Karl Jacoby, Benjamin Johnson, Anthony Kaye, Peter Kolchin, Jenny Shaw, David Weber, the anonymous *JAH* reviewers, and especially Martha Hodes and Barbara Krauthamer. I thank everyone who commented at various forums where I presented this piece, particularly faculty at the University of New Mexico, and for funding, the National Endowment for the Humanities, the Clements Center for Southwest Studies, the Society for Historians of American Foreign Relations, the American Historical Association, the Huntington Library, Tulane University, the University of North Carolina at Chapel Hill, and New York University.

[1] Solomon Northup, *Twelve Years a Slave*, ed. Sue Eakin and Joseph Logsdon (Baton Rouge, 1996), 188.

doi: 10.1093/jahist/jat253
© The Author 2013. Published by Oxford University Press on behalf of the Organization of American Historians.
All rights reserved. For permissions, please e-mail: journals.permissions@oup.com.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:02:55 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

some works do explore the U.S. South in light of other polities, regions, and nations, most are comparative studies of otherwise disconnected histories. Although this comparative literature highlights important similarities between the South and other areas, the South is often portrayed as increasingly parochial and unique. Recently, scholars have intertwined seemingly separate histories and undertaken transnational research that uncovers flows of people, goods, and ideas never contained by regional or national borders. Such Civil War–era transnational histories recast the U.S. South as "a messy, complicated borderlands of sorts between North America and the Caribbean."[2]

These studies have vastly expanded our knowledge of the South, deepening our understanding of how international events shaped U.S. views of slavery and abolition and thus influenced the events leading to the Civil War and emancipation. Yet most works focus on the Caribbean, especially the British West Indies. They overlook black and white southern transnational visions of Mexico, a region bound to the South by proximity and constant flows of people, goods, and ideas. In the antebellum era, poor and elite white southerners, enslaved and free African Americans, and Mexicans of all classes compared, constructed, and challenged their evolving racial, labor, and political systems. From this vantage, the U.S.-Mexican border created a "transregional borderlands" between the U.S. South and northern Mexico that supported alternative configurations of race and labor, configurations that, depending on one's perspective, were either threatening or exhilarating.[3]

While 1930s Works Progress Administration interviews with former slaves and their descendants reveal a persistent historical memory of Mexico as an asylum for fugitive slaves, historians have paid scant attention to slave flight south of the U.S. border. Historians of Texas are the exception. But slaves from large swaths of the South, including Louisiana, Mississippi, Alabama, and Arkansas, also found freedom in Mexico. Moreover, the Texas histories focus on geopolitics rather than the lives of fugitive slaves after they reached Mexican territory. A historiography narrowly limited by national boundaries partially accounts for this elision of Mexico, but this explanation is unsatisfactory because an impressive body of literature exists that examines the lives of former slaves in Canada and West Africa. Perhaps the relatively successful assimilation of fugitive slaves into Mexican society, which makes archival evidence on them scarce, also explains the dearth of investigation. However, the erasure of Mexico as a country in which U.S. slaves could find freedom reinforces a

[2] On the South in the colonial and early republic periods, see Tiya Miles, *Ties That Bind: The Story of an Afro-Cherokee Family in Slavery and Freedom* (Berkeley, 2005); Kirsten Fischer, *Suspect Relations: Sex, Race, and Resistance in Colonial North Carolina* (Ithaca, 2002); Claudio Saunt, *A New Order of Things: Property, Power, and the Transformation of the Creek Indians, 1733–1816* (New York, 1999); Theda Perdue, *Cherokee Women: Gender and Culture Change, 1700–1835* (Lincoln, 1998); and Daniel H. Usner Jr., *Indians, Settlers, and Slaves in a Frontier Exchange Economy: The Lower Mississippi Valley before 1783* (Chapel Hill, 1992). For comparative literature focusing on the U.S. South, see Peter Kolchin, "The South and the World," *Journal of Southern History,* 75 (Aug. 2009), 565–80. For works on the South from the antebellum period to the end of the nineteenth century that entwine seemingly separate histories or use a transnational approach, see Matthew Pratt Guterl, *American Mediterranean: Southern Slaveholders in the Age of Emancipation* (Cambridge, Mass., 2008), 7–11; Rebecca J. Scott, *Degrees of Freedom: Louisiana and Cuba after Slavery* (Cambridge, Mass., 2005), 155; Andrew Zimmerman, *Alabama in Africa: Booker T. Washington, the German Empire, and the Globalization of the New South* (Princeton, 2010); Edward Bartlett Rugemer, *The Problem of Emancipation: The Caribbean Roots of the American Civil War* (Baton Rouge, 2008); and Sven Beckert, "From Tuskegee to Togo: The Problem of Freedom in the Empire of Cotton," *Journal of American History,* 92 (Sept. 2005), 498–526. Guterl, *American Mediterranean,* 11.

[3] Karl Jacoby, "Between North and South: The Alternative Borderlands of William H. Ellis and the African American Colony of 1895," in *Continental Crossroads: Remapping U.S.-Mexico Borderlands History,* ed. Samuel Truett and Elliot Young (Durham, N.C., 2004), 231.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:02:55 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.11 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Cornell, Sarah E. "Citizens of Nowhere: Fugitive Slaves and Free African Americans in Mexico, 1833-1857." *The Journal of American History* 100, no. 2 (2013): 351–374. https://www.jstor.org/stable/44307337.

Footnote citation

Sarah E. Cornell, "Citizens of Nowhere: Fugitive Slaves and Free African Americans in Mexico, 1833-1857," *The Journal of American History* 100, no. 2 (2013): 351–352, https://www.jstor.org/stable/44307337.

Shortened citation

Cornell, "Citizens of Nowhere," 351–352.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 351-352. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Sarah E. Cornell - Citizens of Nowhere — Fugitive Slaves and Free African Americans in Mexico, 1833-1857.pdf
SHA-256	059a71df699e1c5bd70c3cd4526fac943094ed8bf4bf075506c116870bc07f44
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/44307337

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.12 - An 'Abominable' New Trade: The Closing of the African Slave Trade and the Changing Patterns of U.S. Political Power, 1808-60

Steven Deyle

ARTICLE	An 'Abominable' New Trade: The Closing of the African Slave Trade and the Changing Patterns of U.S. Political Power, 1808-60
JOURNAL	The William and Mary Quarterly 66, no. 4 (2009)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 833-834
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/40467543

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 833-834

An "abominable" New Trade: The Closing of the African Slave Trade and the Changing Patterns of U.S. Political Power, 1808–60

Steven Deyle

IN 1798 a Delaware Quaker named Warner Mifflin wrote a letter to President John Adams. After traveling through nearby Maryland, Mifflin was struck by "the abominable Trade carried on through that part of the Country, by Negroe-Drovers, buying Drove after Drove of the poor afflicted Blacks, like droves of Cattel for Market; carrying them into the Southern States for Speculation; regardless of the separation of nearest Connections & natural ties." Mifflin not only believed that a recent yellow fever epidemic was God's punishment on the country for engaging in this trade but also feared that "if the Practice continued, [it] was likely to produce punishment on the Government, Rulers and those in Authority, who did not exert themselves for the suppression of this cruel Practice." Mifflin decided to write to Adams, he explained, because he thought that "perhaps the President as prime Magistrate in the United States, may be entirely without the knowledge of this atrocious & abominable Crime."[1]

Mifflin's description of the nascent internal American slave trade was revealing. His suggestion that Adams did not know of the trade's existence indicates its relative newness. His disgust and fear of God's retribution further signified a recognition that this new traffic would have devastating consequences for millions of the nation's inhabitants. Though Mifflin could never have foreseen this outcome, he was also

Steven Deyle is an associate professor of history at the University of Houston. He would like to thank the organizers of the Omohundro Institute of Early American History and Culture's 2007 conference in Ghana. He would also like to thank Ira Berlin, Betty Dessants, Simon Newman, and the anonymous readers for the *William and Mary Quarterly* for their helpful comments on earlier versions of this article.

[1] Warner Mifflin to John Adams, Sept. 24, 1798, in Adams Papers, Letters Received (September–October 1798), reel no. 391, Massachusetts Historical Society, Boston.

William and Mary Quarterly, 3d Series, Volume LXVI, Number 4, October 2009

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:58:07 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

correct that the nation would ultimately pay a heavy price for countenancing this trade in slaves within its own borders.

Within ten years of Mifflin's observation, the United States banned the African slave trade but not slavery itself, opening the door to the development of an even larger American trade in slaves. Virginia slave owners used their extensive political power in the early Republic to promote this new traffic, which quickly answered their needs. The domestic slave trade transformed southern society, making human chattel the most valuable form of property in the South. But this wealth came with a price. The slave trade tied Virginia slaveholders' own fortunes to the new southwestern empire for slavery. As enslaved Virginians poured into the Southwest via this trade, southern political power followed in their wake. When Abraham Lincoln's 1860 election threatened the security of the South's largest capital asset, politicians from the Deep South, not Virginians, took the lead in responding to this crisis with secession. In the end Virginia (and several other Upper South states) had little choice but to follow because of the bond that the slave trade had cemented between them and their Deep South compatriots. This new American slave trade brought great wealth to the nation but resulted in long-term changes in political power within the United States that would eventually tear the nation apart and culminate in bloody civil war.[2]

Though buying and selling human slaves had always been a part of American society, the nature of this traffic changed over time. In the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries, most slaves sold in British North America were imported from Africa or the West Indies, and by the mid-eighteenth century a small, locally based domestic trade had also developed. After the American Revolution this internal trade became a major

[2] The classic and still important work on the domestic slave trade is Frederic Bancroft's *Slave Trading in the Old South*, which first argued that the domestic slave trade was a pervasive factor in antebellum American life. See Bancroft, *Slave Trading in the Old South* (1931; repr., New York, 1959). After 1931 little was done on the topic until Michael Tadman gave a statistical analysis for the magnitude of the intraregional slave trade, showing most slave owners' active participation in it. See Tadman, *Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South* (Madison, Wis., 1989). There has since been an outpouring of new work on the domestic trade. Walter Johnson examined the meaning of a slave sale to all the parties involved. See Johnson, *Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market* (Cambridge, Mass., 1999). Robert H. Gudmestad studied white southerners' evolving attitudes toward and acceptance of the intraregional slave trade. See Gudmestad, *A Troublesome Commerce: The Transformation of the Interstate Slave Trade* (Baton Rouge, La., 2003). I examined the intraregional and local slave trades and the effects of this traffic on the entire nation, including the North. See Deyle, *Carry Me Back: The Domestic Slave Trade in American Life* (New York, 2005). For newer work being done on the domestic slave trade, see the essays in Johnson, ed., *The Chattel Principle: Internal Slave Trades in the Americas* (New Haven, Conn., 2004).

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:58:07 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.12 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Deyle, Steven. "An 'Abominable' New Trade: The Closing of the African Slave Trade and the Changing Patterns of U.S. Political Power, 1808-60." *The William and Mary Quarterly* 66, no. 4 (2009): 833–850. https://www.jstor.org/stable/40467543.

Footnote citation

Steven Deyle, "An 'Abominable' New Trade: The Closing of the African Slave Trade and the Changing Patterns of U.S. Political Power, 1808-60," *The William and Mary Quarterly* 66, no. 4 (2009): 833–834, https://www.jstor.org/stable/40467543.

Shortened citation

Deyle, "An 'Abominable' New Trade," 833–834.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 833-834. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Steven Deyle - An Abominable New Trade — The Closing of the African Slave Trade and the Changing Patterns of U.S. Political Power, 1808-60.pdf
SHA-256	b7378bfb3121a61e821c2e0fefabcdc731e01ddd206b3f54cb71bdf64b59a25f
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/40467543

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.13 - The Irony of Liberty: Origins of the Domestic Slave Trade

Steven Deyle

ARTICLE	The Irony of Liberty: Origins of the Domestic Slave Trade
JOURNAL	Journal of the Early Republic 12, no. 1 (1992)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 37-38
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3123975

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 37-38

"THE IRONY OF LIBERTY: ORIGINS OF THE DOMESTIC SLAVE TRADE"

Steven Deyle

In 1798, a Delaware Quaker, Warner Mifflin, wrote a letter to President John Adams. A recent yellow fever epidemic in Philadelphia had caused Mifflin to ponder the reason for this disaster. After completing a trip from the eastern shore of Virginia to his home in Delaware, Mifflin believed that he had found the explanation for God's wrath. While passing through Maryland, he was struck by "the abominable Trade carried on through that part of the Country, by Negroe-Drovers, buying Drove after Drove of the poor afflicted Blacks, like droves of Cattel for Market; carrying them into the Southern States for Speculation; regardless of the separation of nearest Connections & natural ties." Mifflin claimed that he "was deeply afflicted under a Sense of the Guilt hereby brought on our Nation, which seemed to me, if the Practice continued, was likely to produce punishment on the Government, Rulers and those in Authority, who did not exert themselves for the suppression of this cruel Practice." The Delaware Quaker decided to write to Adams because he thought "that perhaps the President as prime Magistrate in the United States, may be entirely without the knowledge of this atrocious & abominable Crime."

One of the most disturbing aspects of this development for Mifflin was its occurrence "among a People who, by their Representatives a

---

Steven Deyle is a Ph.D. candidate in history at Columbia University. An earlier version of this essay was presented at the 1989 annual conference of the Society for Historians of the Early American Republic in Charlottesville, Virginia. Research for this article was partially funded by a Beveridge Grant from the American Historical Association. The author would like to thank Doron Ben-Atar, Randy Bergstrom, Betty Dessants, Eric Foner, David Mattern, William Pease, and the anonymous reviewers for their generous comments and suggestions.

JOURNAL OF THE EARLY REPUBLIC, 12 (Spring 1992). © 1992 Society for Historians of the Early American Republic.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:58:55 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

few Years back, declared to all the World, and (as I consider it) before the Majesty of Heaven, that 'it was self-evident all men were created equal; that they were endow'd by their Creator with certain unalienable Rights, among which are Life, Liberty, etc.''' As he thought about the nation's withholding ''from so great a part of our fellow-men, the unalienable Right with which they are endow'd by their Creator,'' Mifflin wondered what ''will be the Consequence to this Country, if the before mention'd barbarous Trade & Traffick is continued? I feel it at times almost sufficient to burst a human Heart; Then how will that God who is just & Merciful view those Actions?''[1]

Warner Mifflin's explanation of the cause of the yellow fever epidemic might have been unusual. His description of the domestic slave trade, however, was both insightful and informative. Mifflin's suggestion that Adams did not know of the trade's existence indicates its relative newness. Another sign of the internal trade's recent development was Mifflin's shock at what he saw. His disgust and fear of God's retribution also signified a changing perception of both slave trading and slave traders. Finally, his questioning of how the domestic slave trade could be reconciled with the ideals of the American Revolution illustrates the conflict that many had with the presence of chattel slavery and especially its more distasteful aspects, such as the selling of human beings, in the new republic.

Although slave trading had long been part of American society, its nature had changed over time. Before the Revolution slave traders were wealthy and respected merchants who generally viewed their African and West Indian purchases as they would any other cargo. Despite the emergence of a small, locally based domestic trade in the mid-eighteenth century, most slaves sold in the colonial period were imported from Africa.[2] By the nineteenth century the slave trade had

---

[1] Mifflin to Adams, Sept. 24, 1798, Adams Family Papers (Massachusetts Historical Society, Boston).

[2] Much work has been done lately on the nature of slave trading in British North America; see Steven Deyle, '''By farr the most profitable trade': Slave Trading in British Colonial North America,'' *Slavery & Abolition*, 10 (Sept. 1989), 107-125; Jay Coughtry, *The Notorious Triangle: Rhode Island and the African Slave Trade, 1700-1807* (Philadelphia 1981); James G. Lydon, ''New York and the Slave Trade, 1700 to 1774,'' *William and Mary Quarterly*, 35 (Apr. 1978), 375-394; Darold D. Wax, ''Negro Imports into Pennsylvania, 1720-1766,'' *Pennsylvania History*, 32 (July 1965), 254-287; Wax, ''Black Immigrants: The Slave Trade in Colonial Maryland,'' *Maryland Historical Magazine*, 73 (Spring 1978), 30-45; Herbert S. Klein, *The Middle Passage: Comparative Studies in the Atlantic Slave Trade* (Princeton 1978); Susan Westbury, ''Slaves of Colonial Virginia: Where They Came From,'' *William and*

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:58:55 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.13 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Deyle, Steven. "The Irony of Liberty: Origins of the Domestic Slave Trade." *Journal of the Early Republic* 12, no. 1 (1992): 37–62. https://www.jstor.org/stable/3123975.

Footnote citation

Steven Deyle, "The Irony of Liberty: Origins of the Domestic Slave Trade," *Journal of the Early Republic* 12, no. 1 (1992): 37–38, https://www.jstor.org/stable/3123975.

Shortened citation

Deyle, "The Irony of Liberty," 37–38.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 37-38. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Steven Deyle - The Irony of Liberty — Origins of the Domestic Slave Trade.pdf
SHA-256	48dd90be5df6ec88f2698b1ab27d1933381ef3b889fd20843b73686ce95d3a03
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3123975

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.14 - Reconfiguring the Old South: 'Solving' the Problem of Slavery, 1787-1838

Lacy Ford

ARTICLE	Reconfiguring the Old South: 'Solving' the Problem of Slavery, 1787-1838
JOURNAL	The Journal of American History 95, no. 1 (2008)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 95-96
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/25095466

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 95-96

Reconfiguring the Old South: "Solving" the Problem of Slavery, 1787–1838

Lacy Ford

For suggestions on how to use this article in the U.S. history classroom, see our "Teaching the *JAH*" Web project at http://www.indiana.edu/~jah/teaching/.

The Civil War, emancipation, and Confederate defeat stand among the pivotal moments in American history, moments that gave the nation, "conceived in liberty" yet marred by slavery, an elusive "new birth of freedom." For many years, the importance of those events fostered an understandable historiographical preoccupation with the configuration and posture of southern society on the eve of the American Civil War. The scholarly fascination with the Old South at its antebellum maturity often slighted the earlier formation of that society, the making of the Old South. In recent years, however, the creation of the Old South through a unique set of choices, accommodations, and compromises made in the face of unpredictable historical contingencies has received increasing attention from historians. They are intrigued as much by the twists and turns of the Old South's evolution as by the undeniable drama of the late antebellum journey to secession and war. Building on his own work and that of other scholars, Ira Berlin has produced an impressive reinterpretation of American slavery that emphasizes its creation and evolution, not just its flourishing as a regional institution in the era of well-established cotton plantations and sectional conflict. Berlin and others have begun to restore a strong sense of chronology and variety to the study of the enslaved in the Old South. They have looked at generational change and regional variation in the slave population and in slavery as an institution, highlighting patterns of slave demography, work, and culture. Berlin's synthesis, with the earlier seminal scholarship on which it was built, has allowed historians to recapture dynamism and diversity in the experience of the enslaved in the United States.[1]

Lacy Ford is professor of history and chair of the department at the University of South Carolina. He would like to thank Peter Kolchin and the anonymous referees of the *Journal of American History* for their helpful comments and suggestions. He would also like to thank Dr. Trenton Hizer of the Library of Virginia and Sara Eye, a Ph.D. student at the University of South Carolina, for their help with the research for and preparation of this article. Some of the research for this article was supported by a National Endowment for the Humanities research fellowship.

Readers may contact Ford at ford@gwm.sc.edu.

[1] See Lacy Ford, "Introduction: A Civil War in the Age of Capital," in *A Companion to Civil War and Reconstruction,* ed. Lacy Ford (Malden, 2005), 1–22. For the highlights of Ira Berlin's contributions, see Ira Berlin, *Many Thousands Gone: The First Two Centuries of Slavery in North America* (Cambridge, Mass., 1998), 1–14, 358–65; Ira Berlin, *Generations of Captivity: A History of African-American Slaves* (Cambridge, Mass., 2003), 246–270; and Ira Berlin, "Time, Space, and the Evolution of Afro-American Society in British Mainland North America," *American Historical Review,* 85 (Feb. 1980), 44–78. For another view that also emphasizes the evolution of slavery over time, see Peter Kolchin, *American Slavery, 1619–1877* (New York, 1993). For an example of a work expanding on the insights of Ira Berlin and Peter Kolchin, see Mark M. Smith, *Mastered by the Clock: Time, Slavery, and Freedom in*

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 01:5:22 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

Similarly, a recent flurry of important and pioneering work has restored balance to our study of white society in the Old South, helping shift the region's historiography from its traditional tilt toward the mature, late antebellum Old South to the formation of the Old South. Those studies have renewed scholars' understanding of the complexity and nuance of the Old South's historical evolution and internal diversity. Yet scholars still lack a unifying interpretation of the creation of white society in the Old South and the relationship of that society with slavery, an interpretation sensitive to the change over time and internal diversity highlighted in recent literature and to the creative tensions generated by internal differences and disagreements, an integrated interpretation comparable to the one Berlin offered for the history of slavery in the region.[2]

This essay attempts to sketch a broad outline for such an interpretative synthesis by focusing on one issue: the evolving efforts of the South's white politicians, intellectuals, and opinion makers to grapple with the problem of slavery in ways acceptable to white southerners. It traces those inadequate and tortured efforts and the conflicts they spawned from the drafting of the Constitution to the emergence of the full-scale abolitionist attack on slavery in the mid-1830s. This examination suggests ways to round out what Berlin called the story of "making slavery, making race" in the pre–Civil War American South.[3]

Representatives of the collection of slaveholding states that would become the Old South hardly arrived of one mind at the grand convention of 1787. At that convention the white South's internal differences never appeared more distinctly than in discussions of the international slave trade. During the era of the Articles of Confederation, Joseph Clay, a Savannah merchant, had advised the prominent Georgia politician James Jackson that "the Negro business is a great object with us, both with a View to our Interest individually, and the general prosperity of this State and its commerce, it is to the trade of this Country, as Soul to the Body." Clay's depiction of the centrality of the foreign slave trade to the commerce of Confederation-era Savannah highlighted the south Atlantic region's lingering hunger for slave imports. So it is hardly surprising that South Carolina and Georgia delegates to the Philadelphia convention made keeping the international slave trade legal, at least for a time, a *sine qua non* of joining the new Union. Charles Cotesworth Pinckney, later a prominent Charleston Federalist, told the Philadelphia convention that "South Carolina and Georgia cannot do without slaves," and he implied that without protection for the right to import slaves, those two southernmost states of the

the American South (Chapel Hill, 1997).

[2] On the formation of the Old South from the perspective of particular issues, locales, or subregions, see, for example, Eva Sheppard Wolf, *Race and Liberty in the New Nation: Emancipation in Virginia from the Revolution to Nat Turner's Rebellion* (Baton Rouge, 2006); Matthew Mason, *Slavery and Politics in the Early American Republic* (Chapel Hill, 2006); Tom Downey, *Planting a Capitalist South: Masters, Merchants, and Manufacturers in the Southern Interior, 1790–1860* (Baton Rouge, 2006); Adam Rothman, *Slave Country: American Expansion and the Origins of the Deep South* (Cambridge, Mass., 2005); Kirsten E. Wood, *Masterful Women: Slaveholding Widows from the American Revolution through the Civil War* (Chapel Hill, 2004); Robert H. Gudmestad, *A Troublesome Commerce: The Transformation of the Interstate Slave Trade* (Baton Rouge, 2003); Edward E. Baptist, *Creating an Old South: Middle Florida's Plantation Frontier before the Civil War* (Chapel Hill, 2002); Walter Johnson, *Soul by Soul: Life inside the Antebellum Slave Market* (Cambridge, Mass., 1999); Daniel S. Dupre, *Transforming the Cotton Frontier: Madison County, Alabama, 1800–1840* (Baton Rouge, 1997); and Christopher Morris, *Becoming Southern: The Evolution of a Way of Life, Warren County and Vicksburg, Mississippi, 1770–1860* (New York, 1995). For a major step toward examining change over time, see Michael O'Brien, *Conjectures of Order: Intellectual Life and the American South, 1810–1860* (2 vols., New York, 2004).

[3] Berlin, *Many Thousands Gone*, 1, 358–65.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 01:5:22 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.14 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Ford, Lacy. "Reconfiguring the Old South: 'Solving' the Problem of Slavery, 1787-1838." *The Journal of American History* 95, no. 1 (2008): 95–122. https://www.jstor.org/stable/25095466.

Footnote citation

Lacy Ford, "Reconfiguring the Old South: 'Solving' the Problem of Slavery, 1787-1838," *The Journal of American History* 95, no. 1 (2008): 95–96, https://www.jstor.org/stable/25095466.

Shortened citation

Ford, "Reconfiguring the Old South," 95–96.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 95-96. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Lacy Ford - Reconfiguring the Old South — Solving the Problem of Slavery, 1787-1838.pdf
SHA-256	ab3626f2c05260873df7be4d05e9b089223aa578350bdc60fae98f5f681e096d
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/25095466

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.15 - Guilt Over Slavery: A Historiographical Analysis

Gaines M. Foster

ARTICLE	Guilt Over Slavery: A Historiographical Analysis
JOURNAL	The Journal of Southern History 56, no. 4 (1990)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 665-666
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2210932

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 665-666

Guilt Over Slavery: A Historiographical Analysis

By Gaines M. Foster

THE CONTENTION THAT WHITE SOUTHERNERS FELT GUILTY ABOUT SLAVERY, that in their heart of hearts they found it impossible to reconcile their peculiar institution with their democratic sentiments and evangelical faith, has long occupied an important place in the historiography of the South. Except for a seminal article by Charles G. Sellers, Jr., however, historians have rarely offered a systematic examination of this guilt thesis. Most references to it appear in books or articles that focus on some larger issue and often cite Sellers and other secondary works to establish the existence of guilt. Only a few of these works rigorously examine the evidence of guilt or clearly define the concept itself. Most do not make clear whether guilt was manifested in a religious or a psychological sense or constituted a conscious or a subconscious sense of moral failure or wrongdoing. Despite this vagueness, historians have treated guilt as a powerful force, crediting it with shaping southern culture and influencing the white South's behavior in antebellum sectional conflicts, in the secession crisis, and in the conduct of the Civil War. Any concept put to such important historiographical uses deserves rigorous evaluation. Such an analysis begins with an understanding of the intellectual context out of which the guilt thesis emerged. It must also include an examination of the validity of the assumptions that underlie the thesis and of the evidence cited in its behalf.[1]

[1] Charles G. Sellers, Jr., "The Travail of Slavery," in Sellers, ed., *The Southerner as American* (Chapel Hill, 1960), 40–71. My analysis makes no claim to be an exhaustive account of every work mentioning guilt over slavery but rather only an evaluation of major works. James M. McPherson, "Slavery and Race," *Perspectives in American History*, III (1969), 460–73, offers an early review of the thesis itself. For a more comprehensive review of the literature on the antebellum South see Drew Gilpin Faust, "The Peculiar South Revisited: White Society, Culture, and Politics in the Antebellum Period, 1800–1860," in John B. Boles and Evelyn Thomas Nolen, eds., *Interpreting Southern History: Historiographical Essays in Honor of Sanford W. Higginbotham* (Baton Rouge, 1987), 78–119.

Mr. Foster is an associate professor of history at Louisiana State University.

The Journal of Southern History
Vol. LVI, No. 4, November 1990

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:59:02 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

Before the Civil War some abolitionists suspected that white southerners did not fully believe in slavery, that they doubted its legitimacy and morality, and after Appomattox a few southerners admitted as much. But by the end of the nineteenth century, most white southerners looked back on slavery as a benign if not a beneficial institution. Few early, white academics in the South criticized it, and those who did never questioned the region's commitment to it. When the professionalization of history began in the early twentieth century, as John David Smith has convincingly demonstrated, "the vast majority of white students of slavery . . . pointed to slavery's overall benefits for the blacks," portrayed "slavery as a benign school in which blacks fared better than as freedmen," and "revived, refined, updated, and modified many of the same arguments espoused by antebellum and postbellum proslavery writers." Although challenged by white and black neo-abolitionist historians, these proslavery historians "ultimately carried the day in the age of segregation."[2]

Central to proslavery historiography, of course, was the work of Ulrich B. Phillips, especially his *American Negro Slavery*. In it Phillips described paternalistic slaveholders who conducted a school for civilization for savage but childlike Africans. His planters sometimes felt burdened by their charges' demands but experienced no guilt in owning them. Even during the American Revolution—a time, many later historians believed, during which southerners fretted over slavery—Phillips found little anxiety. A few Virginians, he admitted, "were disquieted by" slavery, but the vast majority of southerners never questioned the institution despite widespread discussion of liberty and equality. "The negroes of the rice coast were so outnumbering and so crude," explained Phillips, "that an agitation applying the doctrine of inherent liberty and equality to them could only have had the effect of discrediting the doctrine itself." The limited influence of "revolutionary doctrines" soon passed, and "self interest" regained its "wonted supremacy"; after 1800, Phillips contended, a conservative trend led to the acceptance of proslavery beliefs and, eventually, to the Civil War. Phillips did describe slavery as "a thing of appreciable disrelish in many quarters" and "the slave trade, . . . whether foreign or domestic," as bearing a "permanent stigma," but he apparently never wrote about southerners feeling guilty. After all, if planters did blacks a favor, why should they feel guilty? For

[2] Aileen S. Kraditor, *Means and Ends in American Abolitionism: Garrison and His Critics on Strategy and Tactics, 1834–1850* (New York, 1969), 260; John David Smith, *An Old Creed for the New South: Proslavery Ideology and Historiography, 1865–1918* (Westport, Conn., and London, 1985), 8 (first, second, and fourth quotations), 9 (third quotation); and Gaines M. Foster, *Ghosts of the Confederacy: Defeat, the Lost Cause, and the Emergence of the New South, 1865 to 1913* (New York and Oxford, 1987), 23–24, 180–91.

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:59:02 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.15 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Foster, Gaines M. "Guilt Over Slavery: A Historiographical Analysis." *The Journal of Southern History* 56, no. 4 (1990): 665–694. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2210932.

Footnote citation

Gaines M. Foster, "Guilt Over Slavery: A Historiographical Analysis," *The Journal of Southern History* 56, no. 4 (1990): 665–666, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2210932.

Shortened citation

Foster, "Guilt Over Slavery," 665–666.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 665-666. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Gaines M. Foster - Guilt Over Slavery — A Historiographical Analysis.pdf
SHA-256	659df377094bdfc75f25dc5b9192e091e233bffe571ec15556b9a43eeac9da56
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2210932

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.16 - The Domestic United States Slave Trade: New Evidence

Herman Freudenberger and Jonathan B. Pritchett

ARTICLE	The Domestic United States Slave Trade: New Evidence
JOURNAL	The Journal of Interdisciplinary History 21, no. 3 (1991)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 447-448
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/204955

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 447-448

Journal of Interdisciplinary History, XXI:3 (Winter 1991), 447–477.

Herman Freudenberger and Jonathan B. Pritchett

The Domestic United States Slave Trade: New Evidence

The internal slave trade in antebellum America was a medium by which human chattel were transferred from one owner to another and, in some cases, from one region to another. Much of this traffic in slaves went on between the eastern seaboard states and the areas farther west that were being opened up to exploitation. Using data from certificates of good character, a unique source of information for slaves traded in the New Orleans market, this research note adds further details to what is known of this interregional trade.

For only a brief time, certificates of good character had to accompany any slave brought in from another state. These certificates are especially interesting for the information that they provide on age, height, point of origin, and general characteristics—information which is generally lacking in other sources. The certificates of good character, which have never before been systematically utilized by researchers of the domestic slave trade, are located in the Notarial Archives of New Orleans.[1] Our study is based on all of the data from these certificates for the year 1830.

CERTIFICATES OF GOOD CHARACTER

Louisiana has a long history of legislative attempts to regulate or prohibit the importation of slaves from other states or foreign places. Many of these laws were passed for the avowed purpose of prohibiting the introduc-

Herman Freudenberger is Professor of Economics at Tulane University. He is the author of *The Industrialization of a Central European City* (Edington, 1977).

Jonathan B. Pritchett is Assistant Professor of Economics at Tulane University.

The authors thank David Galenson, John Komlos, William Oakland, Judith K. Schafer, and Richard Steckel for helpful comments and suggestions. Funding was provided by the Tulane Committee on Research.

© 1991 by The Massachusetts Institute of Technology and the editors of *The Journal of Interdisciplinary History.*

1 Wendall H. Stephenson, *Isaac Franklin: Slave Trader and Planter in the Old South* (Baton Rouge, 1938); Donald Sweig, "Northern Virginia Slavery: A Statistical and Demographic Investigation," unpub. Ph.D. diss. (College of William and Mary, 1982); Ulrich B. Phillips, *Life and Labor in the Old South* (Boston, 1929).

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:02:12 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

tion of undesirable slaves who might instigate insurrections. The Louisiana legislature had prohibited the introduction of slaves for sale in 1826, but the act was repealed in 1828. In his annual message to the Louisiana legislature later that year, Governor Henry Johnson noted that a "serious evil had arisen from the great number of vicious slaves recently sold in this state, which calls loudly for the effectual interposition of the Legislature."[2]

The legislature responded by passing an act which required the certification of all imported slaves over the age of twelve. This act made it necessary for anyone who brought a slave to Louisiana after April 1, 1829, to bring a certificate which specified "the name, age, sex, and near as possible, the size, marks and color of said slave," in addition to the place of purchase and from whom the slave was bought. The certificate had to be signed by two or more freeholders (other than the vendor) from the county where the slave was purchased. The freeholders had to swear that they had known the slave for "several" years and that the said slave was not guilty of any crimes, "but that he or she has a good moral character and is not in the habit of running away."

Certificates of good character had to be deposited with the parish judge or a notary public at the time that the slave was sold in Louisiana. Vendors convicted of violating the provisions of this act were subject to fines of $1,000–2,000 and imprisonment of six months to one year. In addition, all slaves illegally introduced were to be confiscated and sold at public auction, the proceeds to be divided between the informer and the state. Copies of this act were to be transmitted to the governors of Mississippi and Alabama, and were to be published in the government gazettes of the states of Maryland, Virginia, Kentucky, Tennessee, and Missouri.[3]

2 Lewis Cecil Gray, *History of Agriculture in the Southern United States to 1860* (Washington, D.C., 1933), I, 335–337; Ethel E. Kramer, "Slavery Legislation in Ante-Bellum Louisiana, 1803–1860," unpub. M.A. thesis (Louisiana State Univ., 1944), 101–120; Francois-Xavier Martin, *History of Louisiana* (New Orleans, 1882), 266–267. John F. Condon, "Annals of Louisiana," app. to *ibid.*, 430; Joe Gray Taylor, *Negro Slavery in Louisiana* (Baton Rouge, 1963), 211–218; Paul R. Lachance, "The Politics of Fear: French Louisianians and the Slave Trade, 1786–1809," *Plantation Society*, I (1979), 162–197; Judith K. Schafer, "The Immediate Impact of Nat Turner's Insurrection on New Orleans," *Louisiana History*, XXI (1980), 361–376. *Journal of the Senate of the State of Louisiana* (New Orleans, 1829), 6. Also cited in Stephenson, *Isaac Franklin*, 74.

3 *Louisiana Acts*, 9th Leg., 1 sess., 1829, 38–44; *Journal of the Senate* (New Orleans, 1828), 65.

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:02:12 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.16 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Freudenberger, Herman, and Jonathan B. Pritchett. "The Domestic United States Slave Trade: New Evidence." *The Journal of Interdisciplinary History* 21, no. 3 (1991): 447–477. https://www.jstor.org/stable/204955.

Footnote citation

Herman Freudenberger and Jonathan B. Pritchett, "The Domestic United States Slave Trade: New Evidence," *The Journal of Interdisciplinary History* 21, no. 3 (1991): 447–448, https://www.jstor.org/stable/204955.

Shortened citation

Freudenberger and Pritchett, "Domestic United States Slave," 447–448.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 447-448. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Herman Freudenberger and Jonathan B. Pritchett - The Domestic United States Slave Trade — New Evidence.pdf
SHA-256	3bc4e9739c266e52bccda11f46ea2454d09fb3df5f50c8fd2668e4427cb3a1de
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/204955

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.17 - Yeomen Farmers in a Slaveholders' Democracy

Eugene D. Genovese

ARTICLE	Yeomen Farmers in a Slaveholders' Democracy
JOURNAL	Agricultural History 49, no. 2 (1975)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 331-332
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3741274

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 331-332

EUGENE D. GENOVESE

YEOMEN FARMERS IN A SLAVEHOLDERS' DEMOCRACY

In 1861 enough nonslaveholders hurled themselves into a prolonged bloodbath to enable a proudly proclaimed slave republic to sustain itself for four ghastly years. These "plain folks" suffered terrible casualties and privations on behalf of a social order that objectively oppressed them in a variety of well-known ways. Many contemporary Northerners and indeed even some Southerners, not to mention subsequent historians, expressed wonder at the nonslaveholders' gullibility, ignorance, and docility. Slavery, it has long been asserted, had numbed the lower-class whites quite as much as it had ostensibly numbed the enslaved blacks. Southern abolitionists, for understandable reasons, became the bitterest proponents of this argument and railed in frustration at the nonslaveholders' groveling before the aristocratic pretensions of the haughty planters.

Yet, we know very well that those nonslaveholders were touchy, proud people who hardly specialized in groveling and who were as quick as the planters to shed blood over questions of honor. We know also that they seized and maintained substantial political rights and were largely responsible for some of the most democratic state constitutions in the United States.[1]

The argument for their supine capitulation to an overbearing aristocracy reduces to the assertion that someone other than themselves ought to have been the judge of their own best interest—that they were incompetent to understand their own world and their place within it. Ever since Rousseau, those who believe themselves democrats but have difficulty accepting majority rule have been prone to square this ideological circle by claiming that the people have been duped and that their

EUGENE D. GENOVESE is Professor of History at the University of Rochester. This paper was presented as the luncheon address to the annual meeting of the Agricultural History Society, 19 April 1974, Denver, Colorado.

1 See esp., Fletcher M. Green, *Constitutional Development in the South Atlantic States, 1776–1860* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1930); and "Democracy in the Old South," *Journal of Southern History* 12 (February 1946): 3–23.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:01:04 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

words and actions do not reflect their own inner will. Presumably, someone else is to be the guardian and agent of the people's will. Those who argue in this manner, without meaning to be satirical, claim for themselves the honor of defending genuine democracy against the voters.

The nonslaveholders have always been prime candidates for such treatment. Ostensibly, they lived in an unreal world in which they could not understand who and what they really were. I do hope that I may be forgiven for treating this elitist cant as unworthy of attention. If a social class acts against its own apparent collective interest, then the historian should at least provisionally assume a rational basis for its action, rather than trying to force it into a posthumous encounter session in consciousness-raising.

The most attractive general interpretation of the loyalty of the nonslaveholders to the regime has stressed the commitment of the white South to racial supremacy. This is, of course, an old argument—which is no reason to slight it, especially since George Frederickson has recently repackaged it so nicely as "Herrenvolk Democracy" and introduced considerably more sophistication into the discussion.[2] And, in fact, one would have to be mad to discount or to try to minimize the extraordinary power of racism as an ideological force for political and social cohesion. But there are at least two difficulties with the Herrenvolk thesis.

First, it is not at all obvious that the nonslaveholders took the equation of slavery and racial subordination for granted. If they had felt sufficient reason to oppose slavery on the grounds taken by men like Henry Ruffner, Cassius Clay, and Hinton Helper, the argument that slavery was indispensable to racial dictatorship would have appeared as dubious as it eventually proved to be. Yet, such questions could not even be discussed during the late antebellum decades outside certain privileged border-state sanctuaries. To be sure, the silence in the Lower South and in much of the Upper South as well can in part be attributed to a subtle and not-so-subtle reign of terror, as Clement Eaton has so forcefully demonstrated.[3] But, again, the nonslaveholders were not political and moral marshmallows. Their easy acquiescence in an enforced consensus itself requires an explanation that takes full account of their toughness, pride, and strong sense of being men with rights equal to those of the richest planter.

The second difficulty with the Herrenvolk thesis is that it bypasses

[2] George M. Frederickson, *The Black Image in the White Mind: The Debate on Afro-American Character and Destiny* (New York: Harper and Row, 1971), esp. chap. 2.

[3] Clement Eaton, *The Freedom-of-Thought Struggle in the Old South* (New York: Harper and Row, 1964).

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:01:04 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.17 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Genovese, Eugene D. "Yeomen Farmers in a Slaveholders' Democracy." *Agricultural History* 49, no. 2 (1975): 331–342. https://www.jstor.org/stable/3741274.

Footnote citation

Eugene D. Genovese, "Yeomen Farmers in a Slaveholders' Democracy," *Agricultural History* 49, no. 2 (1975): 331–332, https://www.jstor.org/stable/3741274.

Shortened citation

Genovese, "Yeomen Farmers," 331–332.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 331-332. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Eugene D. Genovese - Yeomen Farmers in a Slaveholders' Democracy.pdf
SHA-256	9b55c73cbb045e5527a161f6e673ae7537628b64e0ff42cce4ed0893908469fa
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3741274

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.18 - Louisa Maxwell Cocke: An Evangelical Plantation Mistress in the Antebellum South

Louis B. Gimelli

ARTICLE	Louisa Maxwell Cocke: An Evangelical Plantation Mistress in the Antebellum South
JOURNAL	Journal of the Early Republic 9, no. 1 (1989)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 53-54
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3123524

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 53-54

LOUISA MAXWELL COCKE: AN EVANGELICAL PLANTATION MISTRESS IN THE ANTEBELLUM SOUTH

Louis B. Gimelli

In recent years, scholars have turned their attention to many previously neglected topics dealing with the roles of women in American history. The results have been enlightening, adding new dimensions to our perceptions of traditional subjects. This is certainly true of recent research dealing with the antebellum South. Anne Firor Scott, in her study of the southern lady, has made us aware of both the myth and the reality of the lives of upper- and middle-class antebellum southern white women. Catherine Clinton has presented us with a general study of the plantation mistress that contains absorbing accounts of the subordination of the mistress to the master, the tedium of her work routine, and the infirmities she endured. Both works provide us with a better grasp of slavery in terms of its impact on the interpersonal relations among white women, masters, black men, and black women.[1]

While much has been accomplished, more remains to be done. Neither of the above mentioned works deals directly with the interaction between evangelical white women and slavery. They do not tell us if or how evangelical women were able to reconcile their expecta-

---

Mr. Gimelli is a member of the Department of History at Eastern Michigan University, Ypsilanti, Michigan.

[1] Anne Firor Scott, *The Southern Lady: From Pedestal to Politics, 1830-1930* (Chicago 1970); Catherine Clinton, *The Plantation Mistress: Woman's World in the Old South* (New York 1982). The reader should also consult William R. Taylor, *Cavalier & Yankee: The Old South and American National Character* (New York 1964).

JOURNAL OF THE EARLY REPUBLIC, 9 (Spring 1989). © 1989 Society for Historians of the Early American Republic.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:04:24 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

tions for salvation with their constant associations with slavery, an institution that some defined as contrary to God's law. These and other subjects pertaining to women, slavery, and evangelical religion beg to be confronted. Some will be addressed in this essay, which deals with one evangelical woman: Louisa Maxwell Cocke.[2]

Louisa and John Hartwell Cocke were mistress and master of Bremo plantation in Fluvanna County, Virginia, during the antebellum years.[3] At a time when slave codes were becoming more rigid and many southerners were defending slavery on racial, religious, and sociological grounds, the Cockes were deploring its existence, regarding slaveholding as a sin, and criticizing their fellow slaveholders' defense of the institution.[4] They worked to ameliorate the lot of their slaves by providing for their education, offering them religious instruction, urging them to abstain from using alcohol, and allowing a few to settle in Liberia under the auspices of the American Colonization Society.[5] Divorced from their associations with Evangelical Prot-

---

[2] Jean E. Friedman recognizes the influence evangelical religion had on southern women. However, she does not deal with evangelical women who reacted to slavery as did Louisa Maxwell Cocke. See *The Enclosed Garden: Women and Community in the Evangelical South, 1830-1900* (Chapel Hill 1985), esp. 3-91.

[3] At the time of their marriage, Bremo consisted of three plantations, Upper and Lower Bremo and Bremo Recess. Each contained about 1,000 acres. The family residence was at Upper Bremo. John Hartwell Cocke at one time owned two plantations in Greene County, Alabama. Randall M. Miller, ed., *"Dear Master": Letters of a Slave Family* (Ithaca, N.Y. 1978), 20.

[4] Proslavery thought is adequately covered in Eric L. McKitrick, ed., *Slavery Defended: The Views of the Old South* (Englewood Cliffs, N. J. 1963), and in Drew Gilpin Faust, *The Ideology of Slavery: Proslavery Thought in the Antebellum South 1830-1860* (Baton Rouge 1981). The reader should also consult David W. Blight, "Perceptions of Southern Intransigence and the Rise of Radical Antislavery Thought, 1816-1830," *Journal of the Early Republic*, 3 (Summer 1983), 139-163, and Anne C. Loveland, *Southern Evangelicals and the Social Order, 1800-1860* (Baton Rouge 1980). The Cockes can best be viewed as members of that element described by Carl Degler as "the Other South," an important dissenting minority in the broader antebellum southern society. See Degler, *The Other South: Southern Dissenters in the Nineteenth Century* (New York 1974), 13-96. For general treatments of the spectrum of opinion expressed by evangelicals in the antebellum years on slaves, slavery, and the responsibilities of slaveholders to their slaves, see Loveland, *Southern Evangelicals and the Social Order*, Donald G. Mathews, *Religion in the Old South* (Chicago 1977), 136-184, Andrew E. Murray, *Presbyterians and the Negro—A History* (Philadelphia 1966), and Ernest Trice Thompson, *Presbyterians in the South* (3 vols., Richmond 1963-1973), I, 323-349.

[5] For colonizationist thought and the activities of the American Colonization Society, see P.J. Staudenraus, *The African Colonization Movement, 1816-1865* (New York 1961), Lawrence J. Friedman, *Inventors of the Promised Land* (New York 1975),

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:04:24 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.18 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Gimelli, Louis B. "Louisa Maxwell Cocke: An Evangelical Plantation Mistress in the Antebellum South." *Journal of the Early Republic* 9, no. 1 (1989): 53–71. https://www.jstor.org/stable/3123524.

Footnote citation

Louis B. Gimelli, "Louisa Maxwell Cocke: An Evangelical Plantation Mistress in the Antebellum South," *Journal of the Early Republic* 9, no. 1 (1989): 53–54, https://www.jstor.org/stable/3123524.

Shortened citation

Gimelli, "Louisa Maxwell Cocke," 53–54.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 53-54. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Louis B. Gimelli - Louisa Maxwell Cocke — An Evangelical Plantation Mistress in the Antebellum South.pdf
SHA-256	7047387f5245f815fe567a47750369f6bcd4cf20929c262927332abc4fd07b2c
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3123524

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.19 - The Use of the New Testament in the American Slave Controversy: A Case History in the Hermeneutical Tension between Biblical Criticism and Christian Moral Debate

J. Albert Harrill

ARTICLE	The Use of the New Testament in the American Slave Controversy: A Case History in the Hermeneutical Tension between Biblical Criticism and Christian Moral Debate
JOURNAL	Religion and American Culture: A Journal of Interpretation 10, no. 2 (2000)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 149-150
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/1123945

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 149-150

The Use of the New Testament in the American Slave Controversy: A Case History in the Hermeneutical Tension between Biblical Criticism and Christian Moral Debate

J. Albert Harrill

The study of nineteenth-century U.S. biblical exegesis on the slavery question illumines a fundamental paradox in American religious culture. The relationship between the moral imperative of antislavery and the evolution of biblical criticism resulted in a major paradigm shift away from literalism.[1] This moral imperative fostered an interpretive approach that found conscience to be a more reliable guide to Christian morality than biblical authority. Yet, the political imperative of proslavery nourished a biblicism that long antedated the proslavery argumentation and remains prevalent in American moral preaching. The nineteenth-century desire to resolve this paradox led to important innovations in American interpretations of the Bible.

A variety of cultural forces shaped the nineteenth-century intellectual environment that produced professional biblical studies in American higher education. Deists had already introduced European sources for historical-critical methods that exposed what they took to be Scripture's textual errancy; to them, the Bible was internally inconsistent as well as intrinsically unbelievable in places.[2] The Unitarians of New England were developing a technique of studying the Bible that included careful comparison of all texts relevant to a particular doctrine, linguistic analysis of obscure words in their original Hebrew or Greek, and the elucidation of unclear passages by paraphrases.[3] The natural sciences raised questions about biblical literalism: geologist Charles Lyell's controversial *Principles of Geology* (1830–1833) attacked biblicists as incompetent on the age of the earth; organic chemistry appeared to degrade the biblically affirmed spiritual dignity of life into mere chemicals; and zoologists took renewed interest in polygenism, the ethnographic theory that the white and black human

Religion and American Culture: A Journal of Interpretation, Volume 10, No. 2, pages 149–186.
© 2000 by The Center for the Study of Religion and American Culture. All rights reserved.
Send requests for permission to reprint to: Rights and Permissions, University of California Press, Journals Division, 2000 Center St., Ste. 303, Berkeley, CA 94704-1223.
ISSN: 1052-1151

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:58:30 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

races sprang from distinct geographical origins and thereby constituted separate species, this in direct contradiction to the creation account of Adam and Eve in Genesis.[4] In addition, American literary studies, undergoing professionalization, was moving toward a critical hermeneutics (influential on biblical studies) that not only aimed at recovery of the author's intended meaning as a norm for validating conflicting readings of a text but also aimed to complete and develop what the author had only sketched and suggested—a task that inevitably carried the critic beyond the author's intention into a hermeneutics of moral intuition.[5]

Scholars have neglected, however, another significant ingredient in this cultural mix. The antislavery and abolitionist interpretations of the New Testament during the American slave controversy also pushed biblical exegetes toward a critical hermeneutics, preparing the way for the eventual reception in this country of German higher criticism. When biblical studies emerged as a professional academic discipline in U.S. colleges, seminaries, and divinity schools, it thus had more than one precedent.[6] Educated Americans were already accustomed to a more sophisticated kind of biblical criticism if they had followed the literature of antislavery and abolitionism.

Antislavery/Abolitionist Theology and Exegesis

Antislavery and abolitionist crusaders ransacked Scripture for texts condemning slavery, but the New Testament proved a particularly thorny place for them to look. Two primary problems demanded detailed exegetical solution: first, the disturbing silence of Jesus Christ on slavery; and second, the perhaps more disturbing outspokenness of the Apostle Paul. To be sure, abolitionists themselves frankly admitted, Christ never once denounced slavery as a sin in so many words, not even in his most important ethical speech, the Sermon on the Mount. But this silence proved nothing, in their view, since Christ also never condemned sodomy, polygamy, infanticide, idolatry, or blasphemy, each of which was clearly a sin.[7] Christ, therefore it was reasoned, did not have to repeat prohibitions which the abolitionists saw outlawed in other passages of Scripture.

A second solution to the problematic silence of Christ was historical and semantic. Making use of a golden-age historiography, antislavery and abolitionist writers claimed that Christ never spoke of slaves because his land, ancient Palestine, contained none. Only after the ministry of Jesus did pagan slaves, brought by the Romans, arrive in Palestine. The Jews of Jesus' era, presumably the only inhabitants of Roman Judea, did not own slaves because they obeyed the Mosaic

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:58:30 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.19 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Harrill, J. Albert. "The Use of the New Testament in the American Slave Controversy: A Case History in the Hermeneutical Tension between Biblical Criticism and Christian Moral Debate." *Religion and American Culture: A Journal of Interpretation* 10, no. 2 (2000): 149–186. https://www.jstor.org/stable/1123945.

Footnote citation

J. Albert Harrill, "The Use of the New Testament in the American Slave Controversy: A Case History in the Hermeneutical Tension between Biblical Criticism and Christian Moral Debate," *Religion and American Culture: A Journal of Interpretation* 10, no. 2 (2000): 149–150, https://www.jstor.org/stable/1123945.

Shortened citation

Harrill, "Use of the New," 149–150.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 149-150. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	J. Albert Harrill - The Use of the New Testament in the American Slave Controversy.pdf
SHA-256	e4153c4957b553e3055adf7ec8bf6d477617dc07525d7bbbd3bce6775fe325c5
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/1123945

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.20 - Damnifying Growth in the Antebellum South

Thomas F. Huertas

ARTICLE	Damnifying Growth in the Antebellum South
JOURNAL	The Journal of Economic History 39, no. 1 (1979)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 87-88
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2118912

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 87-88

Damnifying Growth in the Antebellum South

THOMAS F. HUERTAS

The South's failure to industrialize more rapidly in the antebellum period did not lead to its immiserization. The South's terms of trade improved over the antebellum period so that its consumption potential expanded more rapidly than did production. Specialization in cotton production promoted a favorable movement of relative prices facing Southern producers. A customs union analysis shows that the South might have industrialized to a greater extent and might have raised its consumption potential further had it been able to impose an independent tariff on imports from all areas, including the rest of the United States.

THE analysis of antebellum U.S. economic growth and development owes much to Douglass North's model of regional specialization and export-led growth based on a simple and traditional division of the nation into three regions.[1] North emphasized the positive benefits for the nation that emanated from regional specialization, but both he and a number of other scholars have stressed the adverse consequences for the South of its concentration on the production of export staples, particularly cotton. Although the expansion of world demand for cotton ensured that the south-

Journal of Economic History, Vol. XXXIX, No. 1 (March 1979). © The Economic History Association. All rights reserved. ISSN 0022–0507.

The author is Assistant Vice President, Citibank, New York. He would like to thank Steve Easton, Stanley Engerman, Robert Fogel, Jorge Marquez-Ruarte, Donald McCloskey and Richard Steckel for their comments on an earlier draft of this paper. Initial research was funded through NSF grants GS–27262 and GS–3262. Altheia Courtenay and Kathleen Stephansen provided superb assistance. The author lays claim to any and all remaining errors. Space constraints precluded publication of the Technical Appendix; it is available on request from the author.

[1] Douglass C. North, in *The Economic Growth of the United States, 1790–1860* (New York, 1961) develops the earlier work of Louis B. Schmidt, "Internal Commerce and the Development of the National Economy Before 1860," *Journal of Political Economy*, 47 (1939), 798–822 and of Guy S. Callender, "The Rise of International Commerce," ch. 7 in his *Selections from the Economic History of the United States* (Boston, 1909). In North's model the growth of southern export staples stimulated the economic growth of the entire nation through interregional trade linkages. North's hypothesis concerns the years before 1843 and is not tested here. It should be noted that recent research has undermined the staple model and exposed the absence of significant trade along the West-South axis. For a critical review of this literature, see Lloyd J. Mercer, "Antebellum Trade Reconsidered," paper presented at the meetings of the Western Economics Association, Honolulu, June 1978. Robert E. Gallman, "Self-Sufficiency in the Cotton Economy of the Antebellum South," in William N. Parker, ed., *The Structure of the Cotton Economy of the Antebellum South* (Washington, D.C., 1970), pp. 5–24, and Diane Lindstrom, "Southern Dependence on Interregional Grain Supplies: A Review of the Trade Flows, 1840–1860," ibid., pp. 101–14 have refuted the hypothesis that the South imported significant quantities of foodstuffs from the West during the late antebellum period. Paul Uselding, "A Note on the Interregional Trade in Manufactures in 1840," this JOURNAL, 36 (June 1976), 428–35 has revived that part of the North hypothesis dealing with North-South trade after it had been called into question by Lawrence Herbst, "Interregional Commodity Trade from the North to the South and American Economic Development in the Antebellum Period," this JOURNAL, 35 (Mar. 1975), 266–67 and by Diane Lindstrom, "Demand, Markets, and Eastern Economic Development: Philadelphia, 1815–1840," this JOURNAL, 35 (Mar. 1975), 273.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:59:25 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

ern economy advanced during the antebellum period at a pace at least as rapid as that of the rest of the nation, some scholars contend that specialization in cotton ossified the South's economic structure and hindered the region's post-bellum transition to modern economic growth and industrialization.[2]

Much of the controversy among both antebellum politicians and economic historians concerning the rate and pattern of early nineteenth-century growth in the United States hinges on the extent to which distortions affected the determination of relative prices in the South. This paper examines in some detail one of the principal distortions: the difference between domestic and international relative prices due to the antebellum tariff. It distinguishes between the effects of southern relative prices on the structure of production in the South and the welfare effects of changes in international relative prices. In so doing, it links the debate concerning the failure of the South to industrialize with the discussion of the effects of the antebellum tariff. In conclusion it offers some perspectives on the relationship between relative prices and economic growth.

I

Although the South is frequently described as the Cotton Economy, the extent and development of its specialization on export staples is still not completely known. Census data have furnished scholars with the raw material for decadal snapshots of the southern economy, and the nation's foreign trade statistics have helped fill in the void between the census years. But the overall picture of southern trade and production remains incomplete. One of the most important missing elements has been data on interregional trade flows. Some estimates for selected years exist, but they provide neither a continuous series nor information concerning the real value of trade.[3]

Table 1 begins to fill in this gap. During the period 1844–1860 the volume of southern trade expanded at an annual rate of 4.5 percent in real terms, about the same rate of growth as that of total income for the South during the period 1840–1860.[4] Somewhat surprising is the relatively low

[2] This hypothesis is most clearly stated by Gavin Wright, "Slavery and the Cotton Boom," *Explorations in Economic History,* 12 (Oct. 1975), 450.

[3] Previous estimates include those of Albert Fishlow, "Antebellum Interregional Trade Reconsidered," *American Economic Review,* 54 (May 1964), 352–64 and his Technical Appendix, mimeo (1964); Herbst, "Interregional Commodity Trade; and Uselding, "Note."

[4] Robert W. Fogel and Stanley L. Engerman, *Time on the Cross* (Boston, 1974), Vol. 1, p. 248, estimate per capita real income growth in the South to have been 1.7 percent per annum for the period 1840 to 1860. They define the South to exclude the slave states of Missouri, Maryland, and Delaware. Population growth for these states from 1840 to 1860 was 2.4 percent per year, so that total real income grew at 4.1 percent per annum for the period. Texas population interpolated from data in Lewis W. Newton and Herbert P. Gambrell, *A Social and Political History of Texas,* (Dallas, 1932), p. 280.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:59:25 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.20 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Huertas, Thomas F. "Damnifying Growth in the Antebellum South." *The Journal of Economic History* 39, no. 1 (1979): 87–100. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2118912.

Footnote citation

Thomas F. Huertas, "Damnifying Growth in the Antebellum South," *The Journal of Economic History* 39, no. 1 (1979): 87–88, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2118912.

Shortened citation

Huertas, "Damnifying Growth," 87–88.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 87-88. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Thomas F. Huertas - Damnifying Growth in the Antebellum South.pdf
SHA-256	8eb3e1c039b102a2b250d163ba6a2e6c16a2731b5d4bee931a0348fad36fc78b
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2118912

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.21 - Property Rights in Slavery and the Coming of the Civil War

James L. Huston

ARTICLE	Property Rights in Slavery and the Coming of the Civil War
JOURNAL	The Journal of Southern History 65, no. 2 (1999)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 249-250
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2587364

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 249-250

Property Rights in Slavery and the Coming of the Civil War

By JAMES L. HUSTON

CERTAIN HISTORICAL QUESTIONS NEVER SEEM TO BE SATISFACTORILY answered. Such is the case with inquiries regarding the origins of the American Civil War, meaning specifically what forces tore the nation apart—as opposed to what particular circumstances led to armed conflict. One set of interpretations focuses on ideological forces that produced secession: antislavery convictions, a northern free labor ideology, and a southern adherence to neoclassical republicanism.[1] Another set deals with political factors: a manipulable federal political system, ambitious and blundering politicians, northern paranoia concerning the "slave power," southern fear of a "free soil conspiracy," northern lust for national consolidation, and—the leading contender—failure of the second party system to handle immigration and religious diversity, which enabled a new sectional division of parties to arise.[2]

[1] Emphasis on antislavery convictions can be located in David M. Potter, *The Impending Crisis, 1848–1861,* edited by Don E. Fehrenbacher (New York, 1976), 328–55; and Richard J. Carwardine, *Evangelicals and Politics in Antebellum America* (New Haven, 1993), 323. The theme of free labor and southern republicanism is elaborated by Eric Foner, *Free Soil, Free Labor, Free Men: The Ideology of the Republican Party before the Civil War* (2d ed.; New York and Oxford, 1995), Chap. 1. On republicanism see Lacy K. Ford Jr., *Origins of Southern Radicalism: The South Carolina Upcountry, 1800–1860* (New York, 1988), 121–25, 138, 351–54, and 372; Kenneth S. Greenberg, *Masters and Statesmen: The Political Culture of American Slavery* (Baltimore, 1985), ix–x, 3–14, and 125–35; and Michael A. Morrison, *Slavery and the American West: The Eclipse of Manifest Destiny and the Coming of the Civil War* (Chapel Hill, 1997), 7–8. Another strain of ideological explanation involves the rise of southern nationalism, usually seen as an ideology created to defend slavery; John McCardell, *The Idea of a Southern Nation: Southern Nationalists and Southern Nationalism, 1830–1860* (New York, 1979), 3–4 and 336–37; and Drew Gilpin Faust, *The Creation of Confederate Nationalism: Ideology and Identity in the Civil War South* (Baton Rouge, 1988), 10 and 59–61.

I am indebted to Vernon Volpe, the late Bill Cecil-Fronsman, Peter Knupfer, James Chase, and George McJimsey for their comments on papers that I have given relating to this topic at various meetings of the Mid-America Conference on History.

[2] Lee Benson, *Toward the Scientific Study of History: Selected Essays* (Philadelphia, 1972), 307–26; John H. Aldrich, *Why Parties? The Origin and Transformation of Political Parties in America* (Chicago, 1995), Chap. 5; William E. Gienapp, "The Republican Party and the Slave Power," in Robert H. Abzug and Stephen E. Maizlish, eds., *New Perspectives on Race and*

MR. HUSTON is a professor of history at Oklahoma State University.

THE JOURNAL OF SOUTHERN HISTORY
Volume LXV, No. 2, May 1999

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 01:5:39 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

The progressive historians fashioned the most enduring economic explanation for the Civil War: It was caused by the struggle between southern plantation masters and northern industrialists for control of the federal government.[3] A special form of this argument holds that the slaveholding class was prebourgeois and incapable of amicable relations with a dynamic northern bourgeois class.[4] Economic historians have added to this explanation the southern interest in preserving capital gains obtained from slaveholding and the fear of loss of property in slaves—arguments insufficiently heeded by historians.[5]

The development of the new social history in the mid-twentieth century has greatly expanded the interpretations about the war's origins. Much of what social historians write about the Civil War derives directly or indirectly from modernization theory. The North was developing industrially and commercially, and the South remained mired in agrarian ways, producing a tension that somehow touched off the conflict.[6] From that base have sprung a number of theories employing some variant of class analysis.[7] Social historians have promoted as causative agents the ideas of the South as an "honor" society that reacted violently to northern criticisms, the power of the race question in thwarting peaceful solutions, the different ethnic makeup of the

---

Slavery in America: Essays in Honor of Kenneth M. Stampp (Lexington, 1986), 51–78; J. Mills Thornton III, *Politics and Power in a Slave Society: Alabama, 1800–1860* (Baton Rouge, 1978), 204–27; and William B. Hesseltine, *Sections and Politics: Selected Essays,* edited by Richard N. Current (Madison, 1968), 101–13. The discussion of the collapse of the second party system by Michael F. Holt is generally considered to be the prime explanation for the war. See Holt, *The Political Crisis of the 1850s* (New York, 1978).

[3] Charles A. Beard and Mary R. Beard, *The Rise of American Civilization* (New York, 1927), II, 3–10, 28–31, 50–51, and 99–115; and Louis M. Hacker, *The Triumph of American Capitalism: The Development of Forces in American History to the End of the Nineteenth Century* (New York, 1940), 322–24 and 339–42.

[4] Eugene D. Genovese, *The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South* (New York, 1965), 3–10 and 243–74; and Genovese, *The World the Slaveholders Made: Two Essays in Interpretation* (New York, 1969), 95–102 and 118–31.

[5] Gavin Wright, *The Political Economy of the Cotton South: Households, Markets, and Wealth in the Nineteenth Century* (New York, 1978), 129–30, and 140–57; Gerald Gunderson, "The Origin of the American Civil War," *Journal of Economic History,* XXXIV (December 1974), 915–950; and Roger L. Ransom, *Conflict and Compromise: The Political Economy of Slavery, Emancipation, and the American Civil War* (Cambridge, Eng., 1989), 10–16, 41–72, and 101–2. It is fair to state that these authors have heavily influenced my ideas on the subject and that this article is built upon their powerful conclusions, although I am not sure that any would find the structure I create worthy of their foundations.

[6] Richard D. Brown, *Modernization: The Transformation of American Life, 1600–1865* (New York, 1976), 3–22 and 159–76. For a direct application, see James M. McPherson, *Ordeal by Fire: The Civil War and Reconstruction* (2d ed.; New York, 1992), 5–25.

[7] Bruce Levine, *Half Slave and Half Free: The Roots of Civil War* (New York, 1992), Chaps. 2, 3, 5; Michael P. Johnson, *Toward a Patriarchal Republic: The Secession of Georgia* (Baton Rouge, 1977), xviii–xxi; John Ashworth, *Slavery, Capitalism, and Politics in the Antebellum Republic.* Vol. I: *Commerce and Compromise, 1820–1850* (Cambridge, Eng., 1995), ix–x, 149, and 157–66.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 01:5:39 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.21 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Huston, James L. "Property Rights in Slavery and the Coming of the Civil War." *The Journal of Southern History* 65, no. 2 (1999): 249–286. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2587364.

Footnote citation

James L. Huston, "Property Rights in Slavery and the Coming of the Civil War," *The Journal of Southern History* 65, no. 2 (1999): 249–250, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2587364.

Shortened citation

Huston, "Property Rights in Slavery," 249–250.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 249-250. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	James L. Huston - Property Rights in Slavery and the Coming of the Civil War.pdf
SHA-256	917e56354d11f2d5dc6777deb915fd95dfeccccfa44bb9c400ba84deee9c95ef
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2587364

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.22 - Plain Folk Reconsidered: Historiographical Ambiguity in Search of Definition

Samuel C. Hyde Jr.

ARTICLE	Plain Folk Reconsidered: Historiographical Ambiguity in Search of Definition
JOURNAL	The Journal of Southern History 71, no. 4 (2005)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 803-804
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/27648905

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 803-804

Plain Folk Reconsidered: Historiographical Ambiguity in Search of Definition

By Samuel C. Hyde Jr.

Students of southern history are familiar with the terms *planter*, *plain folk*, and *poor white*. Most will acknowledge an understanding of who enjoyed status as a planter and who was a poor white, but the characteristics of plain folk are neither as clearly defined nor as well understood. This article examines the ambiguity surrounding the term *plain folk*, considers the reasons that its precise definition has remained elusive, and analyzes the historiographical usage that has perpetuated the imprecision. Then, after demonstrating the persistence of ambiguity and imprecision, the article employs statistical data derived from the 1850 census to suggest a precise definition of *plain folk*, a definition designed to advance the research on social groupings in the antebellum South.

Many historians resist the idea that class is a useful category of analysis for the history of the United States and the American South. For the South in particular, race is often assumed to trump class as a marker of group identity. Scores of southern historians, inspired by such studies as Edmund S. Morgan's groundbreaking *American Slavery, American Freedom,* identify events like Nathaniel Bacon's 1676 rebellion in Virginia as critical determinants in the departure from old-world class identity to new-world racial divisions. While Morgan's perspective on the dominance of race among social characteristics remains open to debate, few would dispute that class differences among antebellum white southerners were muted by the presence of African slaves.[1]

Racism was the flux that melded rich and poor whites together into

[1] Edmund S. Morgan, *American Slavery, American Freedom: The Ordeal of Colonial Virginia* (New York, 1975).

Mr. Hyde is an associate professor of history and holds the Leon Ford Endowed Chair in Regional Studies at Southeastern Louisiana University.

The Journal of Southern History
Volume LXXI, No. 4, November 2005

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:36 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

a classless blend defined by their common whiteness. More than sixty years ago W. J. Cash labeled this racial affinity the "proto-Dorian" bond. As Cash interpreted it, proto-Dorian pride provided the white elite with reliable allies in the effort to subjugate and exploit blacks, while, in turn, the common man became an extension of the ruling class simply because his skin was white. According to Cash, "The grand outcome was the almost complete disappearance of economic and social focus on the part of the masses."[2] Such conditions, augmented by the non-elite white's "blindness to his real interests, his lack of class feeling and of social and economic focus," led, in Cash's view, to a "solid South" where "farmer and white-trash were welded into an extraordinary and positive unity of passion and purpose with the planter . . . ."[3]

These observations help to explain not only the forces motivating the average Confederate soldier but also the resistance to social change common in much of the twentieth-century South. However, these assertions of a solid South obfuscate the social and economic complexities present in the antebellum South. Racially inspired unity did not contribute to the emergence of a homogeneous identity among antebellum white southerners. But emphasis on white racial unity has ensured that social distinctions among white southerners were only a secondary focus of scholarship. This study neither seeks to qualify the power of racial solidarity as a social determinant nor claims that something other than race-based polemics forged the southern political character. Instead, it focuses on identity among antebellum white southerners, suggesting that, even if class divisions were muted, social and economic distinctions were real and are now imprecisely defined for a variety of reasons. The difficulties of social identitification—whether in reference to class, culture, or political condition—focus on the middling group of southerners.

"So, who were the plain folk?" asked a member of the audience during a session on southern plain folk at a recent meeting of the Southern Historical Association. The question clearly challenged those assembled; the blunt query virtually silenced the panelists and aroused only a few speculations from the large audience. This meager response

[2] Wilbur J. Cash, *The Mind of the South* (New York, 1941), 40; Daniel W. Crofts, "Politics in the Antebellum South," in John B. Boles, ed., *A Companion to the American South* (Oxford, Eng., 2002), 176–78; Paul D. Escott, *Many Excellent People: Power and Privilege in North Carolina, 1850–1900* (Chapel Hill, 1985); David R. Roediger, *The Wages of Whiteness: Race and the Making of the American Working Class* (New York, 1991).

[3] Cash, *Mind of the South*, 40 (first quotation), 69 (other quotations).

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:36 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.22 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Hyde, Samuel C., Jr. "Plain Folk Reconsidered: Historiographical Ambiguity in Search of Definition." *The Journal of Southern History* 71, no. 4 (2005): 803–830. https://www.jstor.org/stable/27648905.

Footnote citation

Samuel C. Hyde Jr., "Plain Folk Reconsidered: Historiographical Ambiguity in Search of Definition," *The Journal of Southern History* 71, no. 4 (2005): 803–804, https://www.jstor.org/stable/27648905.

Shortened citation

Hyde, "Plain Folk Reconsidered," 803–804.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 803-804. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Samuel C. Hyde Jr. - Plain Folk Reconsidered — Historiographical Ambiguity in Search of Definition.pdf
SHA-256	894350ee874eae366c79bbdb121272fb0e490e10a8713690cd126244f6ef70fa
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/27648905

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.23 - 'A Delusive Clothing': Christian Conversion in the Antebellum Slave Community

William Courtland Johnson

ARTICLE	'A Delusive Clothing': Christian Conversion in the Antebellum Slave Community
JOURNAL	The Journal of Negro History 82, no. 3 (1997)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 295-296
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2717674

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 295-296

"A DELUSIVE CLOTHING": CHRISTIAN CONVERSION IN THE ANTEBELLUM SLAVE COMMUNITY

By
William Courtland Johnson*

Citing church membership figures accounting for fewer than twenty percent of the antebellum slave population, a number of revisionist historians have recently challenged the widespread view that Christianity was embraced by millions of slaves hungering for its message of love, hope, and salvation.[1] And although revisionist critics have responded that such statistics provide a far from accurate gauge of just how deeply Christianity permeated the slave population,[2] the question remains as to whether or not the mass conversion of as many as four million slaves within a single generation ever occurred, given that the vast majority had little or no exposure to Christian teaching prior to the Jacksonian period.[3]

Despite such controversy, nearly all interpretations of slave religion maintain that after about 1830, Southern planters, motivated by a desire for social control as well as sincere concern for the salvation of bondsmen, successfully introduced Christianity to the spiritually starved slave community. And even though support for this conclusion rests heavily on supposition and interpolation, it has nonetheless been presented in a number of the modern era's most influential studies of slave religion. For example, Eugene Genovese's seminal work, *Roll Jordan Roll*, maintains that after 1831 Southern planters successfully overcame initial qualms over introducing religion to slaves and that, in the end, the conversion effort "generally . . . succeeded."[4] Consistent with this interpretation, Lawrence W. Levine's highly regarded study, *Black Culture and Black Consciousness*, insists that a "widespread conversion of slaves to Christianity" occurred "by the time of the Civil War." In particular, Levine points to the slaves' spiritual songs as proof of widespread conversion.[5]

By far the most comprehensive treatment of antebellum slave spirituality is Albert J. Raboteau's *Slave Religion*. Agreeing with most scholars that slaves "remained only minimally touched by Christianity by the second decade of the 19th century," Raboteau argues that the conversion process began in earnest in the 1830s, overcoming considerable slave resistance, so that "by the eve of the Civil War, Christianity had pervaded the slave community."[6] Discounting church membership figures as misleading, he maintains further that even though "not all slaves were Christian, nor were all those who accepted Christianity members of a church," nonetheless "the doctrines, symbols, and vision of life preached by Christianity were familiar to most."[7]

---

* William Courtland Johnson is a Visiting Instructor of History at Claremont McKenna College, California.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:03:53 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

There is, of course, little question but that a comprehensive conversion effort was indeed undertaken by a number of antebellum Protestant denominations. Spearheaded by such notable religious leaders as William Capers, Charles Cotesworth Pinckney, and Charles Colcock Jones, advocates of religious instruction labored tirelessly to overcome entrenched planter opposition and galvanize moral and financial support behind the program.[8] Hampered by legal restrictions on slave literacy, limited funding, and a shortage of manpower, the Methodist program alone grew to include some 83 stations and 95 missionaries by 1845, and to 329 missions and 327 workers in 1861.[9] In addition to itinerate missionaries, local preachers were encouraged to minister to nearby plantations and, in regions lacking sufficient clergy, slaveholders, themselves, were urged to hold prayer meetings among bondsmen.[10] Also, many churches invited slaves to join their congregations, often partitioning off separate areas such as balconies to enable them to worship alongside whites. Taken as a whole, then, it is difficult to deny that Christianity played an important role in at least some quarters of the slave community after 1830.

The problem for the historian is determining the true extent of Christianity's impact, and whether the religious *weltanschauung* or worldview of the antebellum slave can most accurately be characterized as Christian, African, or a syncretic marriage of both influences. In making this determination, mainstream historians have too often overlooked evidence which not only challenges the mass conversion thesis, but also its assumption that slaves exposed to Christianity embraced enthusiastically the religion of their oppressors.

Itinerant plantation missionaries comprised the most visible element of the slave conversion effort. Most historical treatments, however, fail to explore in detail the many obstacles that stood in their path, the most obvious of which was geographic. With nearly fifty percent of Southern slaves living on sizeable estates well removed from urban settings, missionaries clearly spent a major portion of their time traveling between widely scattered plantations.[11] Especially in sparsely settled regions of the Gulf states and Southwest, they were forced to endure extended periods of withering heat, bothersome insects, few lodging facilities, poorly maintained roads, high expenses, and sheer boredom while covering long distances between plantations.

Little imagination is required to envision how isolated and lonely such journeys must have been, as suggested in this 1851 journal entry: "In company with Mr. Hill and Griswold I left St. Marys to visit the plantation of General Clinch, who resides about 27 miles from here upon the Satilla River. . . . Our route lay through the pine barrens so common in the low country of Georgia. And we were astonished at the extreme sparseness of the population."[12] Covering even this modest distance often required close to a day or more, with 35-40 miles per day on horseback being a commonly cited norm under the best of conditions.[13]

For many travellers, as Sir Charles Lyell's experience in Alabama reflects, the pace was much slower: "We travelled in a carriage with 2 horses, and could advance but a few miles a day, so execrable and often dangerous was the state of the roads."[14] Lyell relates further that this gradual pace was anything but restful:

> We were often called upon, on a sudden, to throw our weight first on the right, and then on the left side, to balance the vehicle and prevent an upset. . . Sometimes all the gentlemen were ordered to get out in the dark and walk in the wet and muddy road. The coachman would then whip his steeds

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:03:53 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.23 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Johnson, William Courtland. "'A Delusive Clothing': Christian Conversion in the Antebellum Slave Community." *The Journal of Negro History* 82, no. 3 (1997): 295–311. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2717674.

Footnote citation

William Courtland Johnson, "'A Delusive Clothing': Christian Conversion in the Antebellum Slave Community," *The Journal of Negro History* 82, no. 3 (1997): 295–296, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2717674.

Shortened citation

Johnson, "'A Delusive Clothing,'" 295–296.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 295-296. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	William Courtland Johnson - A Delusive Clothing — Christian Conversion in the Antebellum Slave Community.pdf
SHA-256	40ab01b18e8c37b539148ea32dbe3d63ba666dbe8e9b2b1275f05e7b8fe3b6b7
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2717674

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.24 - The Slave Trader, the White Slave, and the Politics of Racial Determination in the 1850s

Walter Johnson

ARTICLE	The Slave Trader, the White Slave, and the Politics of Racial Determination in the 1850s
JOURNAL	The Journal of American History 87, no. 1 (2000)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 13-14
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2567914

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 13-14

The Slave Trader, the White Slave, and the Politics of Racial Determination in the 1850s

Walter Johnson

In January of 1857 Jane Morrison was sold in the slave market in New Orleans. The man who bought her was James White, a longtime New Orleans slave trader, who had recently sold his slave pen and bought land just up the river from New Orleans, in Jefferson Parish, Louisiana.[1] Morrison, apparently, was to be one of his last speculations as a trader or one of his first investments as a planter. Sometime shortly after her sale, however, Morrison ran away. By the time White saw her again, in October 1857, they were in a courtroom in Jefferson Parish where Morrison had filed suit against him. Before it was settled, that suit would be considered by three different juries, be put before the Louisiana Supreme Court twice, and leave a lasting record of the complicated politics of race and slavery in the South of the 1850s. The reason for the stir would have been obvious to anyone who saw Morrison sitting in court that day: the fifteen-year-old girl whom White claimed as his slave had blond hair and blue eyes.

Morrison began her petition to the Third District Court by asking that William Dennison, the Jefferson Parish jailer, be appointed her legal representative and that she be sequestered in the parish prison to keep White from seizing and selling her.

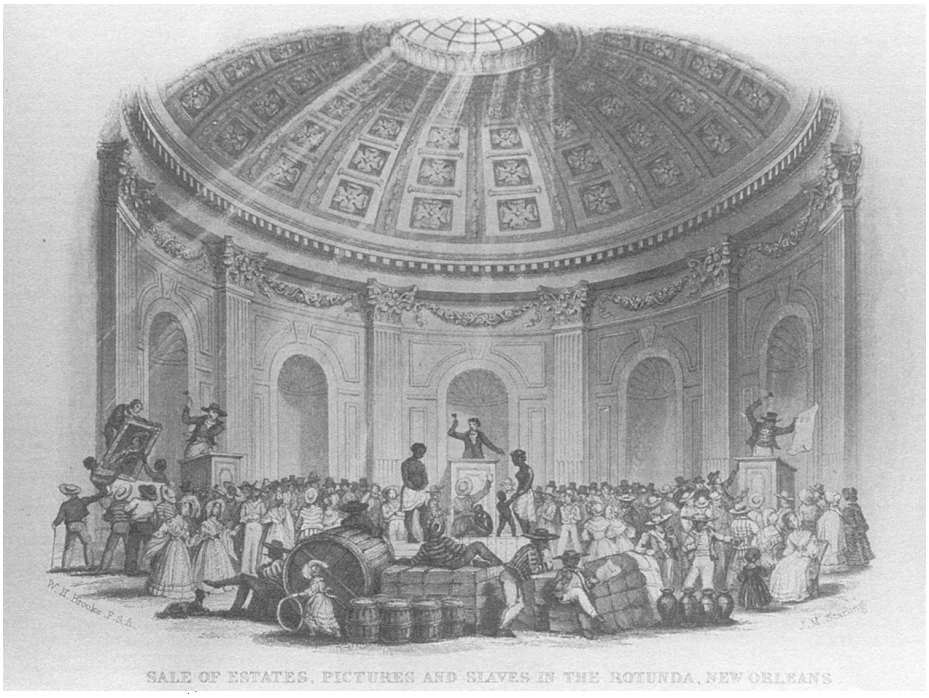
Walter Johnson is assistant professor of history of New York University.

I have benefited greatly from the material and intellectual assistance of Susan Armeny, Sharon Block, Mia Bay, Kathleen Brown, Joyce Chaplin, Patricia Cline Cohen, Wayne Everard, Ada Ferrer, Monique Guillory, Cheryl D. Hicks, Martha Hodes, Matthew Frye Jacobson, Janet R. Jakobsen, Stephen Kantrowitz, Robin D. G. Kelley, Maria Grazia Lolla, Molly Mitchell, Nell Irvin Painter, David Reimers, David Roediger, Tricia Rose, Jeffrey T. Sammons, David Thelen, the anonymous readers for the *Journal of American History,* and audiences at the 1996 Berkshire Conference on the History of Women, the 1997 meeting of the Social Science History Association, the 1997 meeting of the Collegium for African American Research, the Department of History at the University of California, Los Angeles, the Center for the Humanities at Wesleyan University, the American Civilization Seminar at Columbia University, and the African American Studies Works in Progress series at Princeton University.

Readers may contact Johnson at walter.johnson@nyu.edu.

[1] The first of the many questions of identity raised by the *Morrison* case concerns the slave trader whom she sued. He was originally identified in the case as John Rucker White, a slave trader from Howard County, Missouri. Testimony and documents introduced in the case, however, prove that he was James White from Georgia, who owned a slave pen in New Orleans in the 1850s. I take the original mistake to be evidence both of how Alexina Morrison first identified herself when she escaped and of a general local knowledge of the slave trade: She must have identified herself as having run from "Negro trader White," and when she did, people thought they knew whom she was talking about.

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Thu, 15 Oct 2026 06:14:05 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms



Slave sales—whether public auctions in the rotunda of one of a city's grand hotels, like this one, or exchanges made behind the high walls of the traders' pens, like the sale that transferred Alexina Morrison to James White—were public events, part of the process by which ideas about race and mastery were daily given material shape in the antebellum South.
Courtesy the Historic New Orleans Collection, Acc. No. 1953.149.

In her petition, Morrison asked that she be declared legally free and white and added a request that the court award her ten thousand dollars damages for the wrong that White had done her by holding her as a slave. She based her case on the claim that her real name was Alexina, not Jane, that she was from Arkansas, and that she had "been born free and of white parentage," or, as she put it in a later affidavit, "that she is of white blood and free and entitled to her freedom and that *on view this is manifest.*" Essentially, Alexina Morrison claimed that she was white because she looked that way.[2]

[2] William Dennison later testified that Morrison had been brought to the prison by "the Officer of the Town of Carrollton" to whom she had "given herself up." Meeting Dennison, she had "placed herself under him for protection" and he "took her to be a white person and took her to his house." Testimony of William Dennison, June 19, 1858, *Morrison v. White,* Louisiana Supreme Court case 442, 16 La. Ann. 100 (1861), Supreme Court of Louisiana Collection (Earl K. Long Library, University of New Orleans, New Orleans, La.). To locate the manuscript record of a case in the Supreme Court of Louisiana Collection, one must know how the reported decision is cited. Thus, in this article, in initial citations to cases in that collection, the standard legal citation (such as 16 La. Ann. 100 [1861]) appears just before the collection name. Plaintiff's Petition, Oct. 19, 1857, *ibid.*; Answer, Nov. 22, 1857, *ibid.*; Petitioner's Affidavit, Oct. 19, 1857, *ibid.* Emphasis added.

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Thu, 15 Oct 2026 06:14:05 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.24 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Johnson, Walter. "The Slave Trader, the White Slave, and the Politics of Racial Determination in the 1850s." *The Journal of American History* 87, no. 1 (2000): 13–38. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2567914.

Footnote citation

Walter Johnson, "The Slave Trader, the White Slave, and the Politics of Racial Determination in the 1850s," *The Journal of American History* 87, no. 1 (2000): 13–14, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2567914.

Shortened citation

Johnson, "Slave Trader, the White," 13–14.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 13-14. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Walter Johnson - The Slave Trader, the White Slave, and the Politics of Racial Determination in the 1850s.pdf
SHA-256	4857fac8b37c628c71dcd90d3e567113ad9d708f50154d1a7cdcd7ca1149f82f
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2567914

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.25 - 'My Mother Was Much of a Woman': Black Women, Work, and the Family under Slavery

Jacqueline Jones

ARTICLE	'My Mother Was Much of a Woman': Black Women, Work, and the Family under Slavery
JOURNAL	Feminist Studies 8, no. 2 (1982)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 235-236
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3177562

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 235-236

"MY MOTHER WAS MUCH OF A WOMAN": BLACK WOMEN, WORK, AND THE FAMILY UNDER SLAVERY

JACQUELINE JONES

"Ah was born back due in slavery," says Nanny to her granddaughter in Zora Neale Hurston's novel, *Their Eyes Were Watching God,* "so it wasn't for me to fulfill my dreams of whut a woman oughta be and to do." Nanny had never confused the degrading regimen of slavery with her own desires as they related to work, love, and motherhood: "Ah didn't want to be used for a work-ox and a brood-sow and Ah didn't want mah daughter used dat way neither. It sho wasn't mah will for things to happen lak they did." Throughout her life, she had sustained a silent faith in herself and her sisters that was permitted no expression within the spiritual void of bondage: "Ah wanted to preach a great sermon about colored women sittin' on high, but they wasn't no pulpit for me," she grieved.[1]

Nanny's lament offers a challenge to the historian who seeks to understand American slave women — their unfulfilled dreams as well as their day-in, day-out experiences. Despite recent scholarly interest in the relationship between women's work and family life on the one hand and Afro-American culture on the other, a systematic analysis of the roles of slave women is lacking. In her pioneering article entitled "Reflections on the Black Woman's Role in the Community of Slaves" (published over a decade ago), Angela Davis made a crucial distinction between the work that women were forced to perform for a master and the domestic labor that they provided for their own families. But her emphasis on the political implications of nurturing under slavery has not received the in-depth consideration it deserves.[2]

For example, a few scholars have explored the roles of the bondwoman as devoted wife and mother, physically powerful

Feminist Studies 8, no. 2 (Summer 1982). © 1982 by Feminist Studies, Inc.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 02:04:01 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

fieldworker, and rebellious servant. Herbert G. Gutman has illuminated the strength of kin ties within the slave community, and Eugene D. Genovese has furthered our understanding of black-white, male-female relations on the antebellum plantation. However, most historians continue to rely on the gender-neutral term ''slave'' — which invariably connotes ''male'' — and race supersedes sex as the focal point of their discussions. Consequently, questions related to the sexual division of labor under slavery and the way in which task assignments in the fields, the ''Big House,'' and the slave quarters shaped the experiences of black women have largely gone unanswered — and unasked.[3]

Moreover, historians primarily concerned with the status of American women have examined the effects of patriarchy on various classes and ethnic groups over time; in the process they have highlighted variations on the theme of women's distinctive work patterns as determined by changing economic conditions, combined with traditional cultural assumptions about women's domestic responsibilities. Yet within the context of current feminist scholarship, slave women as a group remain for the most part neglected, perhaps because they existed outside the mainstream of the industrial revolution and (together with their menfolk) had few opportunities to put into practice their own ideas about appropriate work for women and men. According to this view, slave women were something of a historical aberration, a ''special case'' that has little relevance to current theoretical and methodological perspectives on women's work.[4]

The purpose of this article is to suggest that the burdens shouldered by slave women actually represented in extreme form the dual nature of all women's labor within a patriarchal, capitalist society: the production of goods and services and the reproduction and care of members of a future work force. The antebellum plantation brought into focus the interaction between notions of women *qua* ''equal'' workers and women *qua* unequal reproducers; hence a slaveowner just as ''naturally'' put his bondwomen to work chopping cotton as washing, ironing, or cooking. Furthermore, in seeking to maximize the productivity of his entire labor force while reserving certain domestic tasks for women exclusively, the master demonstrated how patriarchal and capitalist assumptions concerning women's work could reinforce one another. The ''peculiar institution'' thus involved forms of oppression against women that were unique manifestations of a more universal condition. The following discussion focuses on

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 02:04:01 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.25 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Jones, Jacqueline. "'My Mother Was Much of a Woman': Black Women, Work, and the Family under Slavery." *Feminist Studies* 8, no. 2 (1982): 235–269. https://www.jstor.org/stable/3177562.

Footnote citation

Jacqueline Jones, "'My Mother Was Much of a Woman': Black Women, Work, and the Family under Slavery," *Feminist Studies* 8, no. 2 (1982): 235–236, https://www.jstor.org/stable/3177562.

Shortened citation

Jones, "'My Mother Was Much,'" 235–236.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 235-236. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Jacqueline Jones - My Mother Was Much of a Woman — Black Women, Work, and the Family under Slavery.pdf
SHA-256	1246efad1829b90fca56d19dc6a1bb3b3974c37f37ebf0c32c19d4b83f6b93d5
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3177562

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.26 - The Second Slavery: Modernity in the Nineteenth-Century South and the Atlantic World

Anthony E. Kaye

ARTICLE	The Second Slavery: Modernity in the Nineteenth-Century South and the Atlantic World
JOURNAL	The Journal of Southern History 75, no. 3 (2009)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 627-628
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/27779029

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 627-628

The Second Slavery: Modernity in the Nineteenth-Century South and the Atlantic World

By Anthony E. Kaye

During the nineteenth century, the expansion of slavery transformed not only the U.S. South but also political economies across the Americas. The "second slavery," as Dale W. Tomich calls this historic departure, was distinguished from colonial slavery by new commodities, produced in unprecedented quantities, in regions formerly marginal to the Atlantic economy, in reconfigured polities. At the outset of the Haitian Revolution in 1791, Saint Domingue was the leading producer of coffee as well as sugar, the most valuable tropical commodity in the Atlantic world. The fledgling United States, like Cuba and Brazil, was still a marginal player in the European market for American staples. Brazil, the leading producer of sugar from about 1580 to 1640, had stagnated during the eighteenth century. In Cuba, planters began a shift from sugar production for local markets to sugar as a staple crop during the Seven Years' War, but tobacco remained a mainstay. The Chesapeake was, since 1710, the largest exporter of tobacco, while the Lowcountry exported rice to England and to the British West Indies to feed slaves on sugar plantations. Planters entered the cotton market during the 1770s, but North American exports to England in 1790 were but a fraction of those from the British Caribbean. The South was, at best, a primary producer of secondary staples. After 1790, slavery expanded onto new ground, slaves tended new crops and new machinery, and the planter classes gained dominance in rising world markets and acquired new powers from reconstituted states in Cuba, Brazil, and the South. Profits reaped from sugar, coffee, and cotton derived, in part, from burgeoning industrial production in two ways. First, upturns in output met increased demand from the growing populations of industrial workers. The transition of tropical commodities from elite luxuries to common necessities reached midcourse around 1800 and was completed during the nineteenth century. Second, planters integrated industrial machines with slave labor. In the new techniques and increased scale

Mr. Kaye is an associate professor of history at Pennsylvania State University.

The Journal of Southern History
Volume LXXV, No. 3, August 2009

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:57:59 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

of production and the sheer mobility and adaptability of slave labor, the second slavery was, in a word, modern.[1]

Although southern historians have yet to write in terms of the second slavery, we could begin by building on connections in several directions already made in recent work. This project requires breaking out of the confines of "antebellum slavery," which point the field headlong toward the Civil War, draw its parameters along the Mason-Dixon Line, and cast the history of the Old South as a nation-building project. Since the 1970s, historians have crossed such temporal boundaries in studies of slave kinship, labor, property, and politics encompassing the antebellum and postbellum periods. Explaining the second slavery in the South requires crossing the divide on the earlier side to connect the antebellum period to the early republic. Scholars of slavery in colonial North America have sallied forth into the Atlantic world, but historians of the nineteenth-century South have some catching up to do.[2] Fortunately, two related themes prominent in recent historiography on antebellum slavery have lessened the conceptual gap with historiography on the Atlantic world. The long debate about whether the Old South was an anachronistic, seignorial society or a variant on modern capitalism is approaching a consensus around the latter.[3] This is a revealing outlook on southern

[1] Dale W. Tomich, *Through the Prism of Slavery: Labor, Capital, and World Economy* (Lanham, Md., 2004), esp. 56–71; Tomich and Michael Zeuske, eds., "The Second Slavery: Mass Slavery, World-Economy, and Comparative Microhistories, Part I" [special issue], *Review: A Journal of the Fernand Braudel Center*, 31 (No. 2, 2008). See also Tomich, *Slavery in the Circuit of Sugar: Martinique and the World Economy, 1830–1848* (Baltimore, 1990). This essay is much improved thanks to generous readings and helpful suggestions by Matthew Restall and Adam Rothman.

[2] Ira Berlin, *Generations of Captivity: A History of African-American Slaves* (Cambridge, Mass., 2003); Herbert G. Gutman, *The Black Family in Slavery and Freedom, 1750–1925* (New York, 1976); Barbara Jeanne Fields, *Slavery and Freedom on the Middle Ground: Maryland during the Nineteenth Century* (New Haven, 1985); Julie Saville, *The Work of Reconstruction: From Slave to Wage Laborer in South Carolina, 1860–1870* (New York, 1994); Dylan C. Penningroth, *The Claims of Kinfolk: African American Property and Community in the Nineteenth-Century South* (Chapel Hill, 2003); Steven Hahn, *A Nation under Our Feet: Black Political Struggles in the Rural South from Slavery to the Great Migration* (Cambridge, Mass., 2003); Wilma A. Dunaway, *The African-American Family in Slavery and Emancipation* (New York, 2003); Thavolia Glymph, *Out of the House of Bondage: The Transformation of the Plantation Household* (New York, 2008); Philip D. Morgan and Jack P. Greene, "Introduction: The Present State of Atlantic History," in Greene and Morgan, eds., *Atlantic History: A Critical Appraisal* (New York, 2009), 21.

[3] Joyce E. Chaplin, *An Anxious Pursuit: Agricultural Innovation and Modernity in the Lower South, 1730–1815* (Chapel Hill, 1993); Mark M. Smith, "Time, Slavery and Plantation Capitalism in the Ante-Bellum American South," *Past and Present*, no. 150 (February 1996), 142–68; William Dusinberre, *Them Dark Days: Slavery in the American Rice Swamps* (New York, 1996); Walter Johnson, *Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market* (Cambridge, Mass., 1999); Jeffrey Robert Young, *Domesticating Slavery: The Master Class in Georgia and South Carolina, 1670–1837* (Chapel Hill, 1999); Edward E. Baptist, *Creating an Old South: Middle Florida's Plantation Frontier before the Civil War* (Chapel Hill, 2002); David L. Carlton and Peter A. Coclanis, *The South, the Nation, and the World: Perspectives on Southern Economic Development* (Charlottesville, 2003); Wilma A. Dunaway, *Slavery in the American Mountain South* (New York,

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:57:59 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.26 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Kaye, Anthony E. "The Second Slavery: Modernity in the Nineteenth-Century South and the Atlantic World." *The Journal of Southern History* 75, no. 3 (2009): 627–650. https://www.jstor.org/stable/27779029.

Footnote citation

Anthony E. Kaye, "The Second Slavery: Modernity in the Nineteenth-Century South and the Atlantic World," *The Journal of Southern History* 75, no. 3 (2009): 627–628, https://www.jstor.org/stable/27779029.

Shortened citation

Kaye, "The Second Slavery," 627–628.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 627-628. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Anthony E. Kaye - The Second Slavery — Modernity in the Nineteenth-Century South and the Atlantic World.pdf
SHA-256	b077c32a67b40cb55f5929e101e423c84a6f836961fbeb0bc4e7f6eba765a0d2
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/27779029

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.27 - Woman's Piety within Patriarchy: The Religious Life of Martha Hancock Wheat of Bedford County

Cynthia A. Kierner

ARTICLE	Woman's Piety within Patriarchy: The Religious Life of Martha Hancock Wheat of Bedford County
JOURNAL	The Virginia Magazine of History and Biography 100, no. 1 (1992)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 79-80
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/4249260

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 79-80

WOMAN'S PIETY WITHIN PATRIARCHY

The Religious Life of Martha Hancock Wheat of Bedford County

by CYNTHIA A. KIERNER*

MARTHA HANCOCK WHEAT was one of many antebellum women who heeded the call of evangelical preachers and found in their own religious faith a source of autonomy and power. Nineteenth-century Americans esteemed piety as a mark of true womanhood, and, like many of her contemporaries, Wheat exploited conventional ideas about woman's religious devotion to assert her own moral authority both at home and within the larger community.[1] Unlike their urban counterparts, however, rural women like Martha Wheat pursued their Christian agendas as individuals, without the organizational and moral support provided by women's associations and collective activities.

Dispersed settlement inhibited the development of an autonomous women's culture in the rural South, though the extent to which men controlled women's lives is a matter of scholarly controversy. Historians have found that an ideology of "separate spheres" shaped gender relations in the antebellum North; this ideology, assuming a gender-based division of labor, gave woman primacy within the domestic sphere

* Cynthia A. Kierner is an assistant professor at the University of North Carolina at Charlotte. She wishes to thank Joanna Bowen Gillespie and Elizabeth Hayes Turner, as well as this journal's outside referees, for their helpful suggestions and comments. She is especially grateful to Ann Butz, who introduced her to Martha Wheat by lending her the diary.

[1] In antebellum America, this ideal reflected reality insofar as women made up the majority of church members and evangelical converts. See, for instance, Nancy F. Cott, *The Bonds of Womanhood: "Woman's Sphere" in New England, 1780–1835* (New Haven and London, 1977), chap. 4; Whitney R. Cross, *The Burned-Over District: A Social and Intellectual History of Enthusiastic Religion in Western New York, 1800–1850* (Ithaca, N.Y., and London, 1950), pp. 37–38, 84–89; Ann Douglas, *The Feminization of American Culture* (New York, 1977), esp. pp. 97–117; Donald G. Mathews, *Religion in the Old South*, Chicago History of American Religion (Chicago and London, 1977), pp. 47, 102–20; Mary P. Ryan, *Cradle of the Middle Class: The Family in Oneida County, New York, 1790–1865*, Interdisciplinary Perspectives on Modern History (Cambridge and New York, 1981), chap. 2; Barbara Welter, "The Cult of True Womanhood, 1820–1860," *American Quarterly* 18 (1966): 151–74; and Barbara Welter, "The Feminization of American Religion, 1800–1860," in Mary S. Hartman and Lois Banner, eds., *Clio's Consciousness Raised: New Perspectives on the History of Women* (New York, 1974), pp. 137–57.

THE VIRGINIA MAGAZINE OF HISTORY AND BIOGRAPHY
Vol. 100 No. 1 (January 1992)

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:04:16 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

and celebrated her superior virtue and piety.[2] By contrast, some historians of the Old South maintain that a more traditional patriarchal model governed gender relations in the slaveholding states. Although patriarchal values also recognized a gender-based division of labor, patriarchy, unlike the northern ideology of separate spheres, gave men absolute authority. According to this interpretation of antebellum society and culture, southern men enjoyed dominion both inside and outside their households. Thus, patriarchy idealized women as utterly subservient, powerless, and devoid of personal authority.[3]

Although some antebellum southerners clearly embraced this patriarchal ideal, for many southern women—especially for those outside the planter elite—that ideal did not dictate social reality. Scholars have shown that some southern women enjoyed authority in their domestic sphere and that domestic relations in these families resembled those of their northern contemporaries.[4] In the urban South, women founded benevolent and reform associations similar to those established by women in northern cities. Even in rural areas some southern women participated in church-related fund-raising and benevolent activities during the antebellum era.[5]

[2] See, for instance, Cott, *Bonds of Womanhood*, esp. pp. 197–206; Ryan, *Cradle of the Middle Class*, esp. pp. 186–98; Kathryn Kish Sklar, *Catharine Beecher: A Study in American Domesticity* (New Haven and London, 1973), esp. chap. 11; Welter, "Cult of True Womanhood." A recent synthesis of the pertinent literature can be found in Sara Evans, *Born for Liberty: A History of Women in America* (New York, 1989), chaps. 3–5.

[3] Elizabeth Fox-Genovese, *Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South*, Gender and American Culture Series (Chapel Hill and London, 1988), chap. 1, pp. 232–35; Anne Firor Scott, *The Southern Lady: From Pedestal to Politics, 1830–1930* (Chicago and London, 1970), chap. 1; Jean E. Friedman, *The Enclosed Garden: Women and Community in the Evangelical South, 1830–1900*, The Fred W. Morrison Series in Southern Studies (Chapel Hill and London, 1985), chap. 1. Fox-Genovese makes the strongest case for patriarchy as a social ideal in the Old South, though she presents little evidence of the influence of this ideal outside the planter elite. Friedman concedes that southern women did have occasional opportunities for self-expression and collective activity but maintains that the South's "rural, kin-oriented, church-related society," along with a gender-based "double standard," prevented women from enjoying genuine authority or autonomy. See also Jean E. Friedman, "Women's History and the Revision of Southern History," in Joanne V. Hawks and Sheila L. Skemp, eds., *Sex, Race, and the Role of Women in the South* (Jackson, Miss., 1983), pp. 3–12, esp. pp. 6–8.

[4] See, for instance, Jane Turner Censer, *North Carolina Planters and Their Children, 1800–1860* (Baton Rouge and London, 1984), esp. pp. 62–64, 150–54; George C. Rable, *Civil Wars: Women and the Crisis of Southern Nationalism*, Women in American History Series (Urbana and Chicago, 1989), chap. 1.

[5] See, for instance, Suzanne Lebsock, *The Free Women of Petersburg: Status and Culture in a Southern Town, 1784–1860* (New York and London, 1984), chap. 7; Elizabeth Hayes Turner, "Women's Culture and Community: Religion and Reform in Galveston, 1880–1920" (Ph.D. diss., Rice University, 1990), esp. p. 96; Anne C. Loveland, *Southern Evangelicals and the Social Order, 1800–1860* (Baton Rouge and London, 1980), pp. 167–71; Rable, *Civil Wars*, pp. 14–15. Scholars who study southern cities have been most skeptical of the existence of patriarchy, as well as most likely to assert that southern women, like their northern contemporaries, created an autonomous women's culture. See Lebsock, *Free Women of Petersburg*, and Turner, "Women's

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:04:16 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.27 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Kierner, Cynthia A. "Woman's Piety within Patriarchy: The Religious Life of Martha Hancock Wheat of Bedford County." *The Virginia Magazine of History and Biography* 100, no. 1 (1992): 79–98. https://www.jstor.org/stable/4249260.

Footnote citation

Cynthia A. Kierner, "Woman's Piety within Patriarchy: The Religious Life of Martha Hancock Wheat of Bedford County," *The Virginia Magazine of History and Biography* 100, no. 1 (1992): 79–80, https://www.jstor.org/stable/4249260.

Shortened citation

Kierner, "Woman's Piety within Patriarchy," 79–80.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 79-80. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Cynthia A. Kierner - Woman's Piety within Patriarchy — The Religious Life of Martha Hancock Wheat of Bedford County.pdf
SHA-256	abd337832f7866c6820994d8933b8f83a8b3b1adfdd8b8bf8aea6a456e388bd3
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/4249260

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.28 - Towards Freedom: An Analysis of Slave Revolts in the United States

Marion D. deB. Kilson

ARTICLE	Towards Freedom: An Analysis of Slave Revolts in the United States
JOURNAL	Phylon 25, no. 2 (1964)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 175-176
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/273653

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 175-176

By MARION D.deB. KILSON

Towards Freedom: An Analysis of Slave Revolts in the United States

THROUGHOUT THE HISTORY of slavery in the United States there occurred a variety of more or less subtle expressions of opposition to the slave system by the enslaved. Opposition took many forms, ranging from individual attempts to thwart the system through negligence in work to mass endeavors to overthrow the system. One class of opposition to the status of servitude is represented by slave revolts, which may be defined minimally as attempts to achieve freedom by groups of slaves. Although the data on slave revolts are fragmentary, three types may be distinguished on the basis of sixty-five cases meeting this minimal definition. These are Systematic or Rational Revolts, Unsystematic or Vandalistic Revolts, and Situational or Opportunistic Revolts. The analysis of the characteristics of each of these types of revolt, of their distribution in time and space, of their leadership, and of their repercussions is the concern of this paper.

The three types of slave revolt differ in form, purpose, salient attributes, territorial extent, and participants. Variable aspects of these categories are expressed in Tables 1, 2, and 3. While each table summarizes the available evidence on revolts of a particular type, further elaboration of the content and implications of these categories is necessary.

The Type I or Systematic Revolt, of which the prototypes are the conspiracies of Gabriel Prosser and Denmark Vesey, is oriented towards overthrowing the slave system itself and establishing a Negro state. It is characterized, therefore, by careful planning and organization which necessitate a considerable period of preparation. Careful planning is evidenced by the means decided upon to realize the establishment of the Negro state. Both Prosser and Vesey planned initially to gain control of a city and thereafter to extend their operations into the surrounding area. Such a plan involves the systematic allocation of tasks to various groups and individuals and the calculation of the numbers of insurgents upon whom reliance could be placed. Further evidence of the rational conception of these uprisings is found in the facts that Gabriel Prosser intended to spare certain sympathetic groups of whites and hoped for aid from poor whites and Indians, and that Vesey hoped to have exter-

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:42:19 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

nal aid from the West Indies and Africa to maintain his state after its establishment.[1] One corollary of such systematic planning is a long period of preparation which, in turn, increases the likelihood of discovery by the slavocracy; it is not surprising, therefore, that of the seventeen Type I Revolts[2] which have been distinguished, only one went beyond the planning phase. A second corollary of such rational planning is that it is likely to involve the recruitment of a large number of insurgents from a number of counties.

Two aspects of Type I Revolts merit further comment: the urban factor and armed conflict with the slavocracy. The urban factor is significant in 71 percent of the Type I Revolts, five of them occurring within an urban complex and seven others initially oriented towards gaining control of a city. The urban factor appears to have been significant as a source both of more cosmopolitan ideas and of greater role differentiation for Negroes. This does not imply that Type I Revolts are necessarily urban inspired. While Vesey was a resident of Charleston, South Carolina, Prosser lived six miles outside of Richmond, Virginia. Moreover, 29 percent of the Type I Revolts were not urban oriented. Thus the urban factor seems to facilitate rather than to determine the development of Type I Revolts. The second noteworthy aspect of Type I Revolts is that while the achievement of their ultimate goals necessitates armed conflict with members of the slavocracy potentially leading to bloodshed and property destruction, this is a secondary phenomenon rather than a primary goal.

By contrast, the Type II or Vandalistic Revolt, of which the prototype is Nat Turner's insurrection, represents a haphazard expression of opposition to the slave system aimed at the destruction of slave holders and their property. It lacks systematic preparation but may be either of lengthy or of virtually spontaneous conception. Its unsystematic character and potential spontaneity imply both that it has a greater likelihood of reaching the activist stage[3] than Type I Revolts and that reliance upon the gathering of recruits as the revolt gains momentum is of more importance than in the Type I Revolt. For example, deciding one Sunday afternoon to begin his long contemplated revolt that night, Turner set out with a handful of fellow insurgents whose numbers swelled to seventy during the course of the rising.[4] A further implication of the unsystematic nature of the Type II Revolt is that it tends to be localized within a single county and to be a rural rather than an urban-oriented phenomenon.[5] Moreover, lacking any well-defined goals

[1] Herbert Aptheker, *American Negro Slave Revolts* (New York, 1943), pp. 101-02, 220, 225; 272, 98, 269. Joseph Cephas Carroll, *Slave Insurrections in the United States 1800-1865* (Boston, 1938), p. 50.
[2] Table 1 summarizes the evidence for Type I Revolts.
[3] Of the fourteen Type II Revolts, 59 percent succeeded in achieving this stage.
[4] Aptheker, *op. cit.*, pp. 297-98.
[5] Table 2 summarizes the data on Type II Revolts.

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:42:19 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.28 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Kilson, Marion D. deB. "Towards Freedom: An Analysis of Slave Revolts in the United States." *Phylon* 25, no. 2 (1964): 175–187. https://www.jstor.org/stable/273653.

Footnote citation

Marion D. deB. Kilson, "Towards Freedom: An Analysis of Slave Revolts in the United States," *Phylon* 25, no. 2 (1964): 175–176, https://www.jstor.org/stable/273653.

Shortened citation

Kilson, "Towards Freedom," 175–176.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 175-176. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Marion D. deB. Kilson - Towards Freedom — An Analysis of Slave Revolts in the United States.pdf
SHA-256	cebef086f5ebb8c29fc9967b3d4905fc75da8ab8487d01967320cd6482d496f1
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/273653

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.29 - Reevaluating the Antebellum Slave Community: A Comparative Perspective

Peter Kolchin

ARTICLE	Reevaluating the Antebellum Slave Community: A Comparative Perspective
JOURNAL	The Journal of American History 70, no. 3 (1983)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 579-580
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/1903484

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 579-580

Reevaluating the Antebellum Slave Community: A Comparative Perspective

Peter Kolchin

During the 1970s a huge outpouring of revisionist works drastically altered our understanding of antebellum slavery in the Unites States South. Despite differences in approach and emphasis, most of these works shared a common thrust: the accentuation of slave culture and community. Beginning at least in part as an effort to refute Stanley M. Elkins's thesis that southern slavery left its victims depersonalized, docile "Samboes," slavery revisionism soon widened its focus to deal with the slaves' folklore, religion, family lives, community organization, and resistance.[1] Relying heavily on previously little-used black sources such as slave autobiographies, interviews, folktales, and songs, historians came to see southern blacks as subjects in their own right rather than simply as objects of white oppression.[2] A common recognition spread that the slaves' lives were by no means entirely prescribed by their masters. As George P. Rawick puts it, "While from sunup to sundown the American slave worked for another and was harshly exploited, from sundown to sunup he lived for himelf and created the behavioral and institutional basis which prevented him from becoming the absolute victim."[3]

Peter Kolchin is associate professor of history at the University of New Mexico.

[1] Stanley M. Elkins, *Slavery: A Problem in American Institutional and Intellectual Life* (Chicago, 1959), 81–139. For a collection of critical essays on the Elkins thesis, see Ann J. Lane, ed., *The Debate over Slavery: Stanley Elkins and His Critics* (Urbana, 1971).

[2] For differing evaluations of these sources, see C. Vann Woodward, "History from Slave Sources," *American Historical Review*, 79 (April 1974), 470–81; John W. Blassingame, "Using the Testimony of Ex-Slaves: Approaches and Problems," *Journal of Southern History*, 41 (Nov. 1975), 473–92; David Thomas Bailey, "A Divided Prism: Two Sources of Black Testimony on Slavery," *ibid.*, 46 (Aug. 1980), 381–404; George P. Rawick, "General Introduction," in *The American Slave: A Composite Autobiography, Supplement Series 1*, ed. George P. Rawick (12 vols., Westport, Conn., 1977), I, ix–li; and Paul D. Escott, *Slavery Remembered: A Record of Twentieth-Century Slave Narratives* (Chapel Hill, 1979), 3–17.

[3] George P. Rawick, *From Sundown to Sunup: The Making of the Black Community* (Westport, Conn., 1972), xix. Also among the most important revisionist works are John W. Blassingame, *The Slave Community: Plantation Life in the Antebellum South* (New York, 1972); Eugene D. Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made* (New York, 1974); Robert William Fogel and Stanley L. Engerman, *Time on the Cross: The Economics of American Negro Slavery* (2 vols.,

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:02:19 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A second, subsidiary theme of recent studies has been a comparative approach to slavery and race relations. Beginning in 1946 with Frank Tannenbaum's pathbreaking *Slave and Citizen* and stimulated by Elkins's controversial *Slavery*, an increasing number of scholars realized that slavery was not an institution peculiar to the United States South and turned to compare southern slavery and race relations with those of Latin America and, to a lesser extent, with those of other regions. Through comparison, historians could show developments to have a significance that in isolation might not appear—for example, the unique natural growth of the United States slave population—and could distinguish particular features of specific slave societies from elements common to slavery in general. In the process, they helped rid the study of antebellum slavery of the parochialism that had for so long engulfed it.[4]

Despite its promise, however, the comparative approach to slavery has been less productive than has been the focus on the slave community. The number of comparative studies peaked in the late 1960s and very early 1970s, and diminished sharply thereafter, precisely when community studies were burgeoning.[5] While there are a number of possible explanations for this decline, one of the most striking is the curious difference between the subject matter of most of the comparative works and that of other recent research on slavery: whereas the main focus of slavery research in the 1970s was on the lives of the slaves themselves, the comparative studies dealt largely with the slaveowners, owner ideology, and race relations. With the exception of some attention to demography, little comparative work on the slave experience has appeared. It is almost as if two distinct groups of historians have been working on slavery,

Boston, 1974); Herbert G. Gutman, *The Black Family in Slavery and Freedom, 1750–1925* (New York, 1976); and Lawrence W. Levine, *Black Culture and Black Consciousness: Afro-American Folk Thought from Slavery to Freedom* (New York, 1977).

[4] See, for example, Frank Tannenbaum, *Slave and Citizen: The Negro in the Americas* (New York, 1946); Elkins, *Slavery*, 27–80; Herbert S. Klein, *Slavery in the Americas: A Comparative Study of Virginia and Cuba* (Chicago, 1967); Eugene D. Genovese, *The World the Slaveholders Made: Two Essays in Interpretation* (New York, 1969), 3–113; Philip D. Curtin, *The Atlantic Slave Trade: A Census* (Madison, 1969); Carl N. Degler, *Neither Black nor White: Slavery and Race Relations in Brazil and the United States* (New York, 1971); C. Vann Woodward, "Southern Slaves in the World of Thomas Malthus," in C. Vann Woodward, *American Counterpoint: Slavery and Racism in the North-South Dialogue* (Boston, 1971), 78–106; and Richard S. Dunn, "A Tale of Two Plantations: Slave Life at Mesopotamia in Jamaica and Mount Airy in Virginia, 1799 to 1828," *William and Mary Quarterly*, 34 (Jan. 1977), 40–64.

[5] Tentative signs, however, point to renewed interest in comparative studies of slavery. During the past five years a number of important works have appeared, many of which for the first time widen the comparative focus beyond the Western Hemisphere. See, for example, George M. Fredrickson, *White Supremacy: A Comparative Study in American and South African History* (New York, 1981); Orlando Patterson, *Slavery and Social Death: A Comparative Study* (Cambridge, Mass., 1982); William McKee Evans, "From the Land of Canaan to the Land of Guinea: The Strange Odyssey of the 'Sons of Ham,'" *American Historical Review*, 85 (Feb. 1980), 15–43; Shearer Davis Bowman, "Antebellum Planters and *Vormärz* Junkers in Comparative Perspective," *ibid.* (Oct. 1980), 779–808; Peter Kolchin, "In Defense of Servitude: American Proslavery and Russian Proserfdom Arguments, 1760–1860," *ibid.*, 809–27; and Peter Kolchin, "The Process of Confrontation: Patterns of Resistance to Bondage in Nineteenth-Century Russia and the United States," *Journal of Social History*, 11 (Summer 1978), 457–90.

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:02:19 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.29 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Kolchin, Peter. "Reevaluating the Antebellum Slave Community: A Comparative Perspective." *The Journal of American History* 70, no. 3 (1983): 579–601. https://www.jstor.org/stable/1903484.

Footnote citation

Peter Kolchin, "Reevaluating the Antebellum Slave Community: A Comparative Perspective," *The Journal of American History* 70, no. 3 (1983): 579–580, https://www.jstor.org/stable/1903484.

Shortened citation

Kolchin, "Reevaluating the Antebellum Slave Community," 579–580.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 579-580. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Peter Kolchin - Reevaluating the Antebellum Slave Community — A Comparative Perspective.pdf
SHA-256	07fb436308b1b9685f2838bf065c1142e92be5c9a78525f49994f8829c2dac1d
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/1903484

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.30 - The Slave-Breeding Hypothesis: A Demographic Comment on the 'Buying' and 'Selling' States

Richard G. Lowe and Randolph B. Campbell

ARTICLE	The Slave-Breeding Hypothesis: A Demographic Comment on the 'Buying' and 'Selling' States
JOURNAL	The Journal of Southern History 42, no. 3 (1976)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 401-402
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2207159

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 401-402

Notes and Documents

The Slave-Breeding Hypothesis: A Demographic Comment on the "Buying" and "Selling" States

By Richard G. Lowe and Randolph B. Campbell

The idea that slaveholders of the upper South deliberately produced slaves for sale to the developing lower South is common to many treatments of the antebellum South's "peculiar institution." Contemporary observers of slavery and present-day historians alike have emphasized this concept. John Elliott Cairnes, the nineteenth-century British economist and abolitionist, although admitting that upper South slaveholders may not have *deliberately* bred slaves, did contend that "The old states . . . undertook the part of breeding and rearing slaves till they attained to physical vigour, and the new that of using up in the development of their virgin resources the physical vigour which had been thus attained."[1] Among twentieth-century scholars this idea has found expression in the works of Frederic Bancroft, Kenneth M. Stampp, and Alfred H. Conrad and John R. Meyer among others. Most recently, it has been emphatically restated and painstakingly supported by Richard C. Sutch in a quantitative study entitled "The Breeding of Slaves for Sale and the Westward Expansion of Slavery, 1850–1860."[2]

On the other hand, several important new investigations of the economics of slavery and closely related issues such as the slave trade have suggested that there was little if any deliberate breeding

[1] Cairnes, *The Slave Power: Its Character, Career and Probable Designs* (2d ed., London, 1863), 127–28.

[2] Bancroft, *Slave-Trading in the Old South* (Baltimore, 1931), 67–68; Conrad and Meyer, "The Economics of Slavery in the Ante Bellum South," *Journal of Political Economy*, LXVI (April 1958), 112–14; Stampp, *The Peculiar Institution: Slavery in the Ante-Bellum South* (New York, 1956), 246; Sutch, "The Breeding of Slaves for Sale and the Westward Expansion of Slavery, 1850–1860," in Stanley L. Engerman and Eugene D. Genovese, eds., *Race and Slavery in the Western Hemisphere: Quantitative Studies* (Princeton, 1975), 173–210.

Messrs. Lowe and Campbell are associate professors of history at North Texas State University.

The Journal of Southern History
Vol. XLII, No. 3, August 1976

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:02:40 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

and selling of slaves from the upper to the lower South. William Calderhead in an examination of the border-state slave trade found that "Maryland's share was a great deal less than has always been assumed . . ." and that the intensity of the slave trade in the other border states may have also been overestimated. In his dissertation on the rice coast of South Carolina and Georgia Dale E. Swan demonstrates that this area, usually defined as a selling region by 1860, was actually producing proportionately fewer slave children than the South as a whole. Robert William Fogel and Stanley L. Engerman's controversial work *Time on the Cross* includes a section entitled "The Myth of Slave-Breeding" in which they say "The evidence put forward to support the contention of breeding for the market is meager indeed."[3]

Whatever this very recent historical scholarship may suggest, however, the concept that the upper South produced slaves for sale to the lower South is so pervasive that it is found even in the popular literature on slavery. And undoubtedly it will not die quickly. William Styron, in his best-selling novel *The Confessions of Nat Turner*, has one of his characters, Judge Jeremiah Cobb, describe Virginia as "A monstrous breeding farm" to supply "Little black infants by the score, the hundreds, the thousands, the tens of thousands! The fairest state of them all, this tranquil and beloved domain—what has it now become? A *nursery* for Mississippi, Alabama, Arkansas." In the controversy surrounding Styron's novel, a leading black critic, Mike Thelwell of the University of Massachusetts, referred to Virginia landholders as "enlightened aristocrats" who bred "black men and women like animals for the purpose of supplying the labor markets of the Deep South."[4]

Did slaveholders actually disregard all considerations of humanity and deliberately breed slaves as they might have bred their horses? This idea implies conscious interference in the marital and sex lives of bondsmen in order to increase the production of slave children. There is little or no direct, documentary evidence of such

[3] Calderhead, "How Extensive Was the Border State Slave Trade? A New Look," *Civil War History*, XVIII (March 1972), 54–55; Swan, "The Structure and Profitability of the Antebellum Rice Industry: 1859," in "Summaries of Doctoral Dissertations," *Journal of Economic History*, XXXIII (March 1973), 324; Fogel and Engerman, *Time on the Cross: The Economics of American Negro Slavery* (Boston, 1974), 78–86 (quotation on p. 78). Although Fogel and Engerman doubt the existence of slave breeding, they do not present a full demographic analysis based on data from the census returns. Instead, their conclusion is based largely on other kinds of evidence. Engerman also provides specific criticisms of Sutch's essay on slave breeding in Engerman and Genovese, eds., *Race and Slavery*, 512–14, 527–30.

[4] Styron, *The Confessions of Nat Turner* (Signet Books ed., New York, 1968), 77; John H. Clarke, ed., *William Styron's Nat Turner: Ten Black Writers Respond* (Boston, 1968), 84.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:02:40 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.30 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Lowe, Richard G., and Randolph B. Campbell. "The Slave-Breeding Hypothesis: A Demographic Comment on the 'Buying' and 'Selling' States." *The Journal of Southern History* 42, no. 3 (1976): 401–412. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2207159.

Footnote citation

Richard G. Lowe and Randolph B. Campbell, "The Slave-Breeding Hypothesis: A Demographic Comment on the 'Buying' and 'Selling' States," *The Journal of Southern History* 42, no. 3 (1976): 401–402, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2207159.

Shortened citation

Lowe and Campbell, "The Slave-Breeding Hypothesis," 401–402.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 401-402. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Richard G. Lowe and Randolph B. Campbell - The Slave-Breeding Hypothesis — A Demographic Comment on the Buying and Selling States.pdf
SHA-256	df87d3eb49d0167098948923dead31e6dfe0a857c240c509338b208a5fa3a5f7
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2207159

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.31 - The Second Slavery, Capitalism, and Emancipation in Civil War America

Erik Mathisen

ARTICLE	The Second Slavery, Capitalism, and Emancipation in Civil War America
JOURNAL	Journal of the Civil War Era 8, no. 4 (2018)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 677-678
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/26520991

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 677-678

REVIEW ESSAY

The Second Slavery, Capitalism, and Emancipation in Civil War America

ERIK MATHISEN

The historiography of slavery in the nineteenth century has undergone a dramatic shift over the past few years. The "second slavery" as well as work on the relationship between American slavery and capitalism, have altered some of the basic paradigms which have propped up thinking about the institution in the history of the United States. This essay surveys the intellectual origins and development of both projects. It offers a critique of the assumptions which undergird this new work, while at the same time pointing up how these two projects might engage with and be challenged by the history and historiography of American emancipation. In particular, a history of coerced labor in the United States and around the world in the nineteenth century, counters the often insular way in which the story of emancipation and Reconstruction is traditionally cast.

Over the past two decades, historians of slavery have undertaken a thorough renovation of their field. Two interlocking research projects—boldly conceived, conceptually sophisticated—contend that slave systems all over the Americas changed radically over the course of the nineteenth century and that slavery stood at the center of a political and economic transformation of global proportions. For scholars of the "second slavery," as well as those who study the history of slavery and its importance to the development of capitalism in the United States, the institution was hardly retrograde or a holdover from an earlier era. By their lights, it was also anything but an impediment to the onrush of modernity. Rather, in the hands of a new generation of historians, nineteenth-century slave systems became engines of capitalist innovation and sat at the furious leading edge of modern systems of labor exploitation that have come to dominate much of the globe in the twenty-first century.

The forcefulness of this new literature has transformed American historiography. Scholars have long recognized that southern cotton and

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:57:27 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

the slaves who grew it helped fuel the Industrial Revolution. But historians of the second slavery and the history of American capitalism have undermined foundational assumptions about southern backwardness and northern modernity in U.S. history. Older narratives of sectional difference may no longer hold as much water. The national reach of the institution seems clearer now than ever before. Southern planters now look more like forward-thinking, confident entrepreneurs at the forefront of a brutal global capitalist order. By turns, slaves remain critical in this new literature but appear less able to overcome a system bent on sustaining their bondage. If this interpretation is swallowed whole, members of a new generation of scholars now offer a glimpse at a history of the United States both jarringly different from earlier, venerable paradigms and a vision of the period that bristles with interpretive possibilities.

The impact of this new work has forced scholars to rethink the period up to the Civil War era, but there are a lot of unanswered questions for those interested in the war and emancipation as well. The depth of emancipation's impact, the limits of freedpeoples' ability to determine the course of their lives following the war, the national focus of the Reconstruction narrative, and the basic relationship between human action and broader economic change are all cast in a different light. To set these questions of emancipation against a broader historiographical backdrop, this essay surveys the origins and development of this new work on slavery and its development over the nineteenth century. This essay will then lay out some of the interpretive implications for historians of emancipation who choose to respond to the intellectual prompts of this new research project.

In making this connection, this essay suggests that this new literature on second slavery and the history of capitalism poses some direct challenges to the way historians have written about and theorized not only emancipation but the broader history of Reconstruction as well. Some of these challenges dovetail with questions that scholars in the field are already asking. In many respects, though, the implications of this more recent literature take this effort much further. Notions of freedom, the limits of agency and political mobilization, the international context of economic change, and the insular narrative of Reconstruction itself all demand further exploration and interrogation. Put simply, if this new work holds any promise of disturbing some of the reigning assumptions about how slave systems developed, it will also force us to reconsider slavery's aftermath in an emancipating United States.

■ The new work on the history of slavery in the nineteenth century stands in sharpest contrast to the traditional way historians have written about the

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:57:27 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.31 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Mathisen, Erik. "The Second Slavery, Capitalism, and Emancipation in Civil War America." *Journal of the Civil War Era* 8, no. 4 (2018): 677–699. https://www.jstor.org/stable/26520991.

Footnote citation

Erik Mathisen, "The Second Slavery, Capitalism, and Emancipation in Civil War America," *Journal of the Civil War Era* 8, no. 4 (2018): 677–678, https://www.jstor.org/stable/26520991.

Shortened citation

Mathisen, "Second Slavery, Capitalism," 677–678.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 677-678. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Erik Mathisen - The Second Slavery, Capitalism, and Emancipation in Civil War America.pdf
SHA-256	8a02a30316de4e64838fcb91b2cba1bd327b9a9e6c6bcffc22de7a22b463b43e
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/26520991

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.32 - The Two Faces of Republicanism: Gender and Proslavery Politics in Antebellum South Carolina

Stephanie McCurry

ARTICLE	The Two Faces of Republicanism: Gender and Proslavery Politics in Antebellum South Carolina
JOURNAL	The Journal of American History 78, no. 4 (1992)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 1245-1246
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2079342

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 1245-1246

The Two Faces of Republicanism: Gender and Proslavery Politics in Antebellum South Carolina

Stephanie McCurry

Prompted by theories about the complexities of power in modern society, a number of historians, feminists most prominent among them, have joined the recent debate over the proper definition and boundaries of "the political." The stakes are high. As one feminist philosopher put it, "this question about the limits of the political is precisely a political question."[1] In advocating an expanded approach to political history that transgresses the limits of formal politics and confounds conventional distinctions between public and private spheres, Joan Scott and others have raised the intriguing possibility of a gendered history of politics.[2]

The history of republican political ideology and culture in the antebellum South may seem a long way from the concerns of contemporary theorists, but it is not so far, perhaps, as it appears at first glance. After all, theories of government and citizenship, in modern republics as in ancient ones, have been grounded in assumptions about the relation of public and private spheres, or civic sphere and household. In Aristotle's *Politics,* for example, according to Jürgen Habermas, "Status in the *polis* was . . . based upon status as the unlimited master of an *oikos*. Moveable

Stephanie McCurry is assistant professor of history at the University of California, San Diego.

Earlier versions of this essay were presented to the history department of the University of Western Ontario (January 1991), to the University of California Graduate Seminar in Southern History (San Diego, January 1991), and to the Southern Historical Association (New Orleans, November 1990).

For their invaluable readings I would like to thank Drew G. Faust, Christine Stansell, Steven Stowe, and the anonymous referees for the *Journal of American History,* Craig Simpson, Elizabeth Colwill, Edward Ayers, Nancy Hewitt, Dan Schiller, and my colleagues Steven Hahn, Michael Johnson, Rachel Klein, Michael Meranze, and Julie Saville.

[1] Nancy Fraser, *Unruly Practices: Power, Discourse and Gender in Contemporary Social Theory* (Minneapolis, 1989), 6. Michel Foucault, Jürgen Habermas, and Jacques Derrida are among the most influential of these theorists. For a helpful discussion and critique of their work, see *ibid.*

[2] Joan Wallach Scott, *Gender and the Politics of History* (New York, 1988), esp. 28–67. Scott's advocacy of post-structuralist language theory has inspired a passionate critical debate. See Joan Wallach Scott, "On Language, Gender, and Working-Class History," *International Labor and Working Class History,* 31 (Spring 1987), 1–13; Bryan Palmer, "Response to Joan Scott," *ibid.,* 14–23; Christine Stansell, "A Response to Joan Scott," *ibid.,* 24–29; Anson Rabinbach, "Rationalism and Utopia as Language of Nature: A Note," *ibid.,* 30–36; and Joan Wallach Scott, "A Reply to Criticism," *ibid.* (Fall 1987), 39–45. Studies that exemplify gender analysis of political history include Linda K. Kerber, *Women of the Republic: Intellect and Ideology in Revolutionary America* (New York, 1980); Christine Stansell, *City of Women: Sex and Class in New York, 1789–1860* (New York, 1986), esp. 19–37; Mary P. Ryan, *Women in Public: Between Banners and Ballots, 1825–1880* (Baltimore, 1990); and Joan B. Landes, *Women and the Public Sphere in the Age of the French Revolution* (Ithaca, 1988).

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:51 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

wealth and control over labor power were no substitute for being the master of a household and of a family."[3]

In the antebellum South, where the defense of domestic institutions and relations were matters of the utmost political significance, one finds even more compelling reason to eschew conventional historiographical boundaries, and particularly those that separate the public from the private sphere and the history of women and gender relations from that of "high" politics. In the Old South, "high" politics *was* the politics of the household, and all relations of power in what we would call the "private sphere," including those of men and women, were inevitably politicized. Indeed, the gender and class relations contained in southern households were the distinctive social conditions to which proslavery politicians pointed as permitting the South, and the South alone, to retain the proper political arrangements of republican government.

The slave South was commonly represented as the last republic loyal to the principle of government by an exclusive citizen body of independent and equal men. However inadvertently, that portrait revealed the two faces of republicanism in the antebellum South. The first gazed outward on the public sphere and countenanced a purportedly egalitarian community of enfranchised men. This is the familiar face of slavery republicanism privileged by antebellum politicans and, for the most part, by historians. But to view the political edifice solely from that perspective is to remain captive to the designs of its proslavery architects. For southern men, like other republicans, established their independence and status as citizens in the public sphere through the command of dependents in their households. The modern slave republic was defined above all else, as its defenders never tired of saying, by the boundary that separated the independent and enfranchised minority from the majority of dependent and excluded others. Republicanism had another, more conservative face that gazed inward on the private sphere and countenanced inequality and relations of power between masters and their dependents: slaves, women, and children.

Any assessment of antebellum southern political culture, and especially of the yeoman-planter relations on which it hinged, must confront the republican edifice whole. This broader perspective is most pressing with respect to the politics of the yeoman majority. As independent proprietors, yeoman farmers were (and knew themselves to be) empowered by the exclusionary boundaries of the public sphere. Their republicanism, no less than that of the planters, was centrally configured

[3] Jürgen Habermas, *The Structural Transformation of the Public Sphere: An Inquiry into a Category of Bourgeois Society,* trans. Thomas Burger and Frederick Lawrence (Cambridge, Mass., 1989), 3. J. G. A. Pocock makes the same point in *The Machiavellian Moment: Florentine Political Thought and the Atlantic Republican Tradition* (Princeton, 1975), 68. Some of these themes have been pursued by Hannah Pitkin, *Fortune is a Woman: Gender and Politics in the Thought of Niccolò Machiavelli* (Berkeley, 1984); and Carol Pateman, *The Sexual Contract* (Stanford, 1988), esp. x. The debate over the republican or liberal character of nineteenth-century American political ideology rages on; for the briefest introduction, see Drew McCoy, *The Elusive Republic: Political Economy in Jeffersonian Virginia* (Chapel Hill, 1980); Joyce Appleby, *Capitalism and a New Social Order: The Republican Vision of the 1790s* (New York, 1984); and Lance Banning, "Jeffersonian Ideology Revisited: Liberal and Classical Ideas in the New American Republic," *William and Mary Quarterly,* 43 (Jan. 1986), 3–19.

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:51 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.32 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

McCurry, Stephanie. "The Two Faces of Republicanism: Gender and Proslavery Politics in Antebellum South Carolina." *The Journal of American History* 78, no. 4 (1992): 1245–1264. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2079342.

Footnote citation

Stephanie McCurry, "The Two Faces of Republicanism: Gender and Proslavery Politics in Antebellum South Carolina," *The Journal of American History* 78, no. 4 (1992): 1245–1246, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2079342.

Shortened citation

McCurry, "The Two Faces of Republicanism," 1245–1246.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 1245-1246. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Stephanie McCurry - The Two Faces of Republicanism — Gender and Proslavery Politics in Antebellum South Carolina.pdf
SHA-256	17584cc3476eac1c5ad222e9a407bc85648121498c5076654cb849f9274b88c4
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2079342

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.33 - Southern Baptists and Southern Men: Evangelical Perceptions of Manhood in Nineteenth-Century Georgia

David T. Moon Jr.

ARTICLE	Southern Baptists and Southern Men: Evangelical Perceptions of Manhood in Nineteenth-Century Georgia
JOURNAL	The Journal of Southern History 81, no. 3 (2015)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 563-564
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/43918400

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 563-564

Southern Baptists and Southern Men: Evangelical Perceptions of Manhood in Nineteenth-Century Georgia

By David T. Moon Jr.

On a balmy August morning in 1837, congregants of Zion Baptist Church in Newton County, Georgia, filed into a weathered clapboard meetinghouse for their monthly Saturday conference. An undoubtedly restless couple sat in the midst of the assembly as a lengthy deposition was read. Elias Hale and his wife, both church members, together stood accused of "Quarling and Disputeing each others word," but Brother Hale was singled out "for attempting to shoot W. Thrasher," "for Drawing his knife on D. Thrasher [and] R. Harper," "for gathering a rock and threatning to mash W. Thrashers or some of his familys brains Out," "also for Drawing his knife on T. Thrasher," "for abuseing Sister Hale by puling hur about and spitting Ambeer [tobacco juice] in hur Eyes," and "for sw[e]aring." Sister Hale had amassed her own list of arresting offenses: "being thick [intimate] with [her husband's] brother and other Men and reports say Other Ca[l]ler[s]," and "Saying if she were a man she would brew hur hands in D. Thrashers blood and Also for Calling him a sonofabitch." The Hales neither denied the charges nor "gave satisfaction" for their malfeasance, so they found themselves excommunicated from the fellowship of the church.[1]

[1] Zion Baptist Church, Newton County, Ga., Minutes, August 12, 1837, Georgia Baptist Church Records (Georgia Baptist History Depository, Special Collections, Jack Tarver Library, Mercer University, Macon, Ga.; hereinafter cited as MU), microfilm, reel 315. *Excommunicated*, *expelled*, and *excluded*, along with *withdrew fellowship from*, are terms used interchangeably in church records and in this study. On the purpose and proceedings of nineteenth-century Baptist church conferences, see S. G. Hillyer, *Reminiscences of Georgia Baptists* (Atlanta, 1902), 173–75. The author's professors and mentors at Georgia State University, namely, Wendy Venet, Glenn Eskew, and Clifford Kuhn—along with Krystyn Moon and Christine Lutz, who are now at other institutions—are owed much for their encouragement. Earlier versions of this article were presented at the 2011 annual meetings of the Georgia Association of Historians (GAH) in Savannah and the Baptist History and Heritage Society (BHHS) in Dallas, Texas. The author wishes to thank fellow GAH panelists Michael Price, John Ellisor, and David Parker, along with

David T. Moon Jr. is an assistant professor of history at Georgia Perimeter College.

The Journal of Southern History
Volume LXXXI, No. 3, August 2015

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:28 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

The prosecution of this fractious pair calls attention to the gendered complexity of southern evangelicalism.[2] Upholding standards of piety, humility, and sobriety, the South's Baptists, Methodists, and Presbyterians regularly condemned the brawling, cussing, and drinking of rough-and-tumble men as well as the dueling, horseracing, and gallanting of elite planters. Southerners linked some of these vicious, vulgar, and occasionally fatal rituals to intangible ideas like honor, forming a nexus between white manhood and violent aggression that Sister Hale unwittingly embodied when she swore with ferocity, "if she were a man."[3] The furrowed brows of the faithful surely indicated their displeasure at such rude, unchristian spectacles. The frictional language of contrasts, centered on categories like *elect* and *damned*, *saved* and *lost*, or *sacred* and *secular*, held a privileged place in evangelical discourse, but such dichotomies have also deeply influenced the historical narrative. Historians tend to see the interactions of southern white men and evangelical Christianity through similar either-or lenses, for in much of the historiography an initially anemic (and sometimes feminized) evangelical culture clashes with an aggressively

---

panel discussant Jonathan Bryant, for their insightful critiques. BHHS presenter Andrew Smith and panel chair Bill Sumners also offered helpful commentary. A later draft was read by the Social Science Faculty Colloquium at Georgia Perimeter College and benefited greatly from the comments of Robert Woodrum, Randy Finley, William Simson, Dana Wiggins, John Damico, Amanda Damarin, and Tamra Ortgies-Young. Finally, the author is especially indebted to the anonymous referees of the *Journal of Southern History*.

[2] The terms *evangelical* and *evangelicalism* in this article refer to the Protestant Christian perspective adhered to by Baptists, Methodists, Presbyterians, and other denominations where the individual possesses a personal relationship with God; experiences salvation, "rebirth," or "new birth" through the mysterious workings of the Holy Ghost and acceptance of the sacrifice of Jesus Christ; and desires to convert others through evangelism and proselytization. See Donald G. Mathews, *Religion in the Old South* (Chicago, 1977), xvi–xvii; Mark A. Noll, *The Rise of Evangelicalism: The Age of Edwards, Whitefield and the Wesleys* (Downers Grove, Ill., 2003), 15–21; and D. W. Bebbington, *Evangelicalism in Modern Britain: A History from the 1730s to the 1980s* (London, 1989), 2–17.

[3] The most influential studies on such rituals performed by white men as part of masculine culture in the South include Bertram Wyatt-Brown, *Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South* (New York, 1982); Elliott J. Gorn, "'Gouge and Bite, Pull Hair and Scratch': The Social Significance of Fighting in the Southern Backcountry," *American Historical Review*, 90 (February 1985), 18–43; Bruce Collins, *White Society in the Antebellum South* (London, 1985), esp. chap. 9; Grady McWhiney, *Cracker Culture: Celtic Ways in the Old South* (Tuscaloosa, 1988); Bill Cecil-Fronsman, *Common Whites: Class and Culture in Antebellum North Carolina* (Lexington, Ky., 1992), 170–79; and Ted Ownby, *Subduing Satan: Religion, Recreation, and Manhood in the Rural South, 1865–1920* (Chapel Hill, 1990). On the violence that pervaded southern culture, see Sheldon Hackney, "Southern Violence," *American Historical Review*, 74 (February 1969), 906–25; Dickson D. Bruce Jr., *Violence and Culture in the Antebellum South* (Austin, 1979); and Richard E. Nisbett and Dov Cohen, *Culture of Honor: The Psychology of Violence in the South* (Boulder, Colo., 1996). Wyatt-Brown's classic study *Southern Honor* especially blazed new trails. For Wyatt-Brown's influence on the historiography of southern white men, see Lisa Tendrich Frank and Daniel Kilbride, eds., *Southern Character: Essays in Honor of Bertram Wyatt-Brown* (Gainesville, Fla., 2011), x–xi.

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:28 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.33 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Moon, David T., Jr. "Southern Baptists and Southern Men: Evangelical Perceptions of Manhood in Nineteenth-Century Georgia." *The Journal of Southern History* 81, no. 3 (2015): 563–606. https://www.jstor.org/stable/43918400.

Footnote citation

David T. Moon Jr., "Southern Baptists and Southern Men: Evangelical Perceptions of Manhood in Nineteenth-Century Georgia," *The Journal of Southern History* 81, no. 3 (2015): 563–564, https://www.jstor.org/stable/43918400.

Shortened citation

Moon, "Southern Baptists and Southern Men," 563–564.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 563-564. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	David T. Moon Jr. - Southern Baptists and Southern Men — Evangelical Perceptions of Manhood in Nineteenth-Century Georgia.pdf
SHA-256	60d17e8aeedcd241403a69f8508d719c5f3a3fee0731a21a5ee53c23c5a0a120
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/43918400

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.34 - The Articulation of Two Worlds: The Master-Slave Relationship Reconsidered

Christopher Morris

ARTICLE	The Articulation of Two Worlds: The Master-Slave Relationship Reconsidered
JOURNAL	The Journal of American History 85, no. 3 (1998)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 982-983
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2567218

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 982-983

The Articulation of Two Worlds: The Master-Slave Relationship Reconsidered

Christopher Morris

In 1830 or thereabouts Edmund Covington concluded that his hilly Mississippi land was not well suited to cultivating cotton. He therefore turned his plantation into what he described as a "slave breeding" business, not primarily with the intention of selling slaves, but to increase the capital holdings and assets of the plantation. By increasing allotments of food and clothing, providing "comfortable dwellings," and reducing the work loads of women between the ages of fifteen and forty, he succeeded in helping his plantation's slave population achieve a crude birthrate of 12 percent, double the national average for slaves.[1] As Covington shifted his energies from raising cotton to raising people, the Manigault family in coastal Georgia sacrificed people for profits from rice. By minimizing expenditures on food and health care and increasing the work loads of female and child laborers to the point of exhaustion, the family lost 90 percent of all children born on the plantation, a horrendously high rate of child mortality even for a coastal rice plantation. Over a twenty-five-year period the Manigaults averaged a healthy 9 to 15 percent rate of return on total investment.[2]

These contrasting stories add fuel to the ongoing debate over the nature of slavery. Both cases seem to support the view, associated most frequently with the work of Robert William Fogel and Stanley L. Engerman, especially *Time on the Cross,* that slave owners were profit-maximizing capitalists. The apparent brutality of the Manigaults, however, is inconsistent with Fogel and Engerman's representation of slave owners as plantation managers who generally preferred positive incentives to encourage good worker morale and efficiency. The Manigault plantation better reflects the

Christopher Morris is associate professor of history at the University of Texas at Arlington.

For their helpful comments on earlier drafts, I would like to thank Stephanie Cole, Michael Fellman, Larry Hudson, Bertram Wyatt-Brown, Robert Olwell, and the Atlantic Labor History Seminar at the University of Texas at Austin.

[1] *Roberts v. Wailes* (1839), pp. 66, 67, 69, 74, Probate Court Minutes Book F (Chancery Clerk's Office, Warren County Courthouse, Vicksburg, Miss.); Estate of E. H. Covington, Probate File 301, *ibid.* The crude birthrate for slaves in 1820–1850 was 6 births per year per 100 slaves. See Robert William Fogel, *Without Consent or Contract: The Rise and Fall of American Slavery* (New York, 1989), 126. On the Covington plantation, see Christopher Morris, *Becoming Southern: The Evolution of a Way of Life, Warren County and Vicksburg, Mississippi, 1770–1860* (New York, 1995), 70–72.

[2] William Dusinberre, *Them Dark Days: Slavery in the American Rice Swamps* (New York, 1996), 17, 51.

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:01:58 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

violence of slavery emphasized most memorably by Kenneth M. Stampp in *The Peculiar Institution.* Conflict was of a different, more subtle nature on the Covington plantation, where the master, although certainly mindful of profits, learned to adapt his business interests to the human interests of the slaves. But in the allotment of "comfortable" dwellings and extra food we might see the beginning of the paternalistic relationship described by Eugene D. Genovese in *Roll, Jordan, Roll.* On both plantations we can discern the irrepressible will of the slaves to form families and raise children, which Herbert G. Gutman in *The Black Family in Slavery and Freedom* considered central to the slaves' experience. For Gutman, however, the black family became a vital institution of resistance. On the Manigault plantation resistance was almost futile. On the Covington plantation it is hard to see how slave families and children crossed purposes with their master. Clearly, slavery was not the same everywhere. This paper suggests a way of reframing the problem of whether the master-slave relationship in the antebellum United States was based more on conflict, as Stampp and Gutman maintained, or compromise, as Genovese and Fogel and Engerman argued, by considering the structures of the master-slave relationship that shaped both conflict and compromise.[3]

Earlier generations of historians tended to produce big books about the whole system of slavery or broad aspects of it as if it were monolithic from the Chesapeake Bay region to Texas. Since the early 1980s we have seen a greater number of tightly focused articles, monographs, and collections of essays based on tedious, empirical, often heavily quantitative research. This scholarship has shown a particular sensitivity to change over time and to the peculiarities of local context. It includes the work of Richard H. Steckel on slave demography, Philip D. Morgan on the task system in the South Carolina Low Country, Ann Patton Malone and Larry E. Hudson Jr. on the slave family, and Roderick A. McDonald, John Campbell, Loren Schweninger, and many others on the slaves' internal economy and studies of specific plantations, such as that by William Dusinberre, and of single counties and districts, by Orville Vernon Burton, Charles Joyner, Brenda E. Stevenson, and myself.[4]

What has emerged is a better picture of slavery in the nineteenth century as an evolving process. If earlier historians debated the extent to which the institution was es-

[3] Robert William Fogel and Stanley L. Engerman, *Time on the Cross: The Economics of American Negro Slavery* (2 vols., Boston, 1974); Kenneth M. Stampp, *The Peculiar Institution: Slavery in the Ante-Bellum South* (New York, 1956); Eugene D. Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made* (New York, 1974); Herbert G. Gutman, *The Black Family in Slavery and Freedom, 1750–1925* (New York, 1976).

[4] Richard H. Steckel, "A Dreadful Childhood: The Excess Mortality of American Slaves," *Social Science History,* 10 (Winter 1986), 427–65; Philip D. Morgan, "Work and Culture: The Task System and the World of Lowcountry Blacks, 1700 to 1880," *William and Mary Quarterly,* 39 (Oct. 1982), 563–99; Ann Patton Malone, *Sweet Chariot: Slave Family and Household Structure in Nineteenth-Century Louisiana* (Chapel Hill, 1992); Larry E. Hudson Jr., *To Have and to Hold: Slave Work and Family Life in Antebellum South Carolina* (Athens, Ga., 1997); Roderick A. McDonald, *The Economy and Material Culture of Slaves: Goods and Chattels on the Sugar Plantations of Jamaica and Louisiana* (Baton Rouge, 1993); John Campbell, "As 'a Kind of Freeman'?: Slaves' Market-Related Activities in the South Carolina Upcountry, 1800–1860," *Slavery & Abolition* (London), 12 (May 1991), 131–69; Loren Schweninger, "The Underside of Slavery: Internal Economy, Self-Hire, and Quasi-Freedom in Virginia, 1750–1865," *ibid.* (Sept. 1991), 1–22; Dusinberre, *Them Dark Days;* Orville Vernon Burton, *In My Father's House Are Many Mansions: Family and Community in Edgefield, South Carolina* (Chapel Hill, 1985); Charles Joyner, *Down by the Riverside: A South Carolina Slave Community* (Urbana, 1984); Brenda E. Stevenson, *Life in Black and White: Family and Community in the Slave South* (New York, 1996); Morris, *Becoming Southern.*

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:01:58 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.34 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Morris, Christopher. "The Articulation of Two Worlds: The Master-Slave Relationship Reconsidered." *The Journal of American History* 85, no. 3 (1998): 982–1007. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2567218.

Footnote citation

Christopher Morris, "The Articulation of Two Worlds: The Master-Slave Relationship Reconsidered," *The Journal of American History* 85, no. 3 (1998): 982–983, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2567218.

Shortened citation

Morris, "The Articulation of Two Worlds," 982–983.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 982-983. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Christopher Morris - The Articulation of Two Worlds — The Master-Slave Relationship Reconsidered.pdf
SHA-256	92fe732191ee4a01b5a457663b56a1311257c988c57cd591664b57fe1d50f47b
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2567218

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.35 - Bosses and Broomsticks: Ritual and Authority in Antebellum Slave Weddings

Patrick W. O'Neil

ARTICLE	Bosses and Broomsticks: Ritual and Authority in Antebellum Slave Weddings
JOURNAL	The Journal of Southern History 75, no. 1 (2009)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 29-30
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/27650401

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 29-30

Bosses and Broomsticks: Ritual and Authority in Antebellum Slave Weddings

By Patrick W. O'Neil

In December 1861 a woman witnessed a wedding that to some eyes would have been indistinguishable from the weddings of white slaveholders. The ceremony took place in a plantation church in Camden, South Carolina, and was performed by a white minister who doubtless had celebrated many an elite white union. The guests appeared "respectable" and greeted the occasion with almost "unbroken solemnity," and the bridesmaids arrayed themselves in "white swiss muslin."[1]

Mary Chesnut's eyes, however, were more discriminating. As she committed her memory of the ceremony to her diary, Chesnut spared even paternalistic praise for the similarities that this wedding, between two of her family's slaves, bore to the rites enacted by her own class. Her sentiments toward African Americans mingled disgust, condescension, and fear, and these emotions shine forth in her full account:

> Oh! the bridal party—all as black as the ace of spades. The bride and her bridesmaids in white swiss muslin, the gayest of sashes—and bonnets too wonderful to be described. They had on red blanket shawls, which they removed as they entered the aisle and seemed loath to put on when the time came to go out—so proud were they of their finery. But it grew colder and colder—every window and door wide open, sharp December wind.
>
> Gibbes Carter arose amidst the ceremony and threw a red shawl over the head of the congregation, to a shivering bridesmaid. The shawl fell short and wrapped

[1] C. Vann Woodward, ed., *Mary Chesnut's Civil War* (New Haven, 1981), 259–60 (quotations on 259). The author wishes to acknowledge the assistance of the University of North Carolina History Department and the North Caroliniana Society and to thank archivists at the Southern Historical Collection, the North Carolina State Archives, and the Library Company of Philadelphia. Harry L. Watson's advice was enduringly helpful, while Genna Rae McNeil saw the project through its early stages. Cypriane Williams, Kim Hill, Jessica Grady Heard, and several anonymous reviewers made numerous improvements, while Alan and Rosemary Neary generously allowed the author a room in their home. Greg Kaliss's kind and critical editing was a curative in stressful moments; Robert and Sara O'Neil were unstinting in their support; and Gina Difino was, as always, the best.

Mr. O'Neil is a Ph.D. student in history at the University of North Carolina at Chapel Hill.

The Journal of Southern History
Volume LXXV, No. 1, February 2009

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:01:20 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

> itself about the head of a sable dame comfortably asleep. She waked with a snort, struggled to get it off her head, with queer little cries. "Lord ha' mussy! What dish er here now." There was for a moment a decided tendency to snigger—but they were too well-bred to misbehave in church, and soon it was unbroken solemnity. I know that I shook with silent laughter long after every dusky face was long and respectable.
>
> The bride's gloves were white, and the bridegroom's shirt bosom was a snowy expanse fearfully like Johnny's Paris garments, which he says disappear by the dozen. This one had neat little frills and a mock diamond of great size in the middle. Miss Sally Chesnut said, "Those frills marked it Camden or homemade."[2]

In this description, Chesnut displayed the condescension Kenneth M. Stampp so eloquently ascribed to whites at slave weddings: "The white family," he wrote in 1956, "found it a pure delight to watch a bride and groom move awkwardly through the wedding ceremony, to hear a solemn preacher mispronounce and misuse polysyllabic words, or to witness the incredible maneuvers and gyrations of a 'shakedown' [a dance]." Certainly Chesnut's painstaking characterization of the sleeping slave woman represents the finest currency in arch disdain. In literary terms, the shawl thrown by Chesnut's friend onto the woman's head could well symbolize an artifact of civilization settling briefly but awkwardly upon the head of a savage. That the woman responded to the disturbance with animalistic noises and a semiconscious outburst of dialect made clear just how far she and her enslaved sisters remained from the diarist's own role of urbane sophisticate. Further, Chesnut's repeated emphasis on the color of the slaves' skin—describing "a sable dame," bridesmaids "all as black as the ace of spades," and the "dusky face[s]" in the crowd—and her sister-in-law Sally Chesnut's suggestion that the slaves had stolen their masters' clothing underscored the disjuncture between the ritual in its ideal (that is, elite white) form and the African American perversion thereof. Mary Chesnut aimed particularly piercing barbs at the women in the party: as an incisive critic of gender conventions, she knew just how to cut pretenders to the southern lady's mastery of aesthetic expression. In this context, Chesnut rendered the idea that a slave wedding might be solemn and "respectable" every bit as laughable as the clownish woman's waking snort.[3]

[2] *Ibid*., 259–60.

[3] Kenneth M. Stampp, *The Peculiar Institution: Slavery in the Ante-Bellum South* (New York, 1956), 329 (first and second quotations); Woodward, ed., *Mary Chesnut's Civil War*, 259–60 (third through sixth quotations on 259). Elizabeth Fox-Genovese has observed that "[f]ashion articulated class position . . . . A lady . . . had to manifest in her person a restrained elegance that simultaneously betokened internalized self-control and solid male protection." Fox-Genovese, *Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South* (Chapel Hill, 1988), 213.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:01:20 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.35 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

O'Neil, Patrick W. "Bosses and Broomsticks: Ritual and Authority in Antebellum Slave Weddings." *The Journal of Southern History* 75, no. 1 (2009): 29–48. https://www.jstor.org/stable/27650401.

Footnote citation

Patrick W. O'Neil, "Bosses and Broomsticks: Ritual and Authority in Antebellum Slave Weddings," *The Journal of Southern History* 75, no. 1 (2009): 29–30, https://www.jstor.org/stable/27650401.

Shortened citation

O'Neil, "Bosses and Broomsticks," 29–30.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 29-30. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Patrick W. O'Neil - Bosses and Broomsticks — Ritual and Authority in Antebellum Slave Weddings.pdf
SHA-256	786e3270550a656f7be850e91b55483eaa6547ce9fa9928f091393547d6a508d
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/27650401

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.36 - Married in Slavery Time: Jumping the Broom in Atlantic Perspective

Tyler D. Parry

ARTICLE	Married in Slavery Time: Jumping the Broom in Atlantic Perspective
JOURNAL	The Journal of Southern History 81, no. 2 (2015)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 273-274
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/43917911

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 273-274

Married in Slavery Time: Jumping the Broom in Atlantic Perspective

By Tyler D. Parry

In 1839 Mary Ashton Rice accepted a position as a schoolteacher on a Virginia plantation. As a Boston native, Rice had not been previously exposed to chattel slavery, but during her three-year tenure on the plantation she became intimately familiar with the brutality of the institution and the resilience of the enslaved people trapped within it.[1] In her memoir of this period, she noted she was filled with mixed emotions, as she felt ill-equipped to understand how slaves could find happiness under such oppressive circumstances. Those thoughts became especially pertinent during her attendance at a slave marriage, when the entire slave community gathered in one of the cabins to witness the "broomstick wedding" of Pompey and Susan. The ceremony was led by an elderly slave called Uncle Aaron, a man everyone knew was endowed with supernatural gifts of healing and conjure. Rice carefully detailed the peculiar ritual, describing how Uncle Aaron emphasized that the ceremony was "as solem' as a buryin'" and how he expected all present to observe the importance of the occasion. As two friends of the couple held the broom off the ground, Uncle Aaron asked God to have mercy on their souls and counted to three before imploring Pompey and Susan to jump. After they successfully leaped over the broomstick, Uncle Aaron invited the newlyweds to enjoy their first meal together at his residence, with dancing

[1] On Mary Ashton Rice Livermore, see Patricia M. Shields, "Mary Livermore: A Legacy of Caring and Cooperative Womanhood in Service to the State," in Claire L. Felbinger and Wendy A. Haynes, eds., *Outstanding Women in Public Administration: Leaders, Mentors and Pioneers* (Armonk, N.Y., 2004), 49–64; and Wendy Hamand Venet, *A Strong-Minded Woman: The Life of Mary Livermore* (Amherst, Mass., 2005). I would like to thank the following individuals for their perceptive critiques and suggestions in the development of this project: Daniel C. Littlefield, Matt D. Childs, Kevin Dawson, Thavolia Glymph, Charlton Yingling, Andrew Kettler, Robert Greene II, Neal Polhemus, and the three anonymous reviewers for the *Journal*. The following institutions provided valuable financial assistance in gathering this material: the Institute for African American Research at the University of South Carolina, the Bilinski Educational Foundation, and the John Hope Franklin Center at Duke University.

Tyler D. Parry is an assistant professor of African American studies at California State University, Fullerton.

The Journal of Southern History
Volume LXXXI, No. 2, May 2015

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:02:47 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

and music, followed by "a good send-off" to the cabin where the couple established their family.[2]

As a white northerner who found herself increasingly inclined toward abolitionism, Rice interpreted the ceremony as a frivolous gesture. Since slave marriages held no legal standing in American law and could be severed at the master's whim, she concluded that the event was a futile effort to bring solemnity to an institution made inaccessible to the enslaved. However, Rice documented a pertinent statement from Uncle Aaron that holds value in interpreting how the enslaved viewed the ritual from their own perspectives and how the matrimonial rite of jumping the broom became associated with slave identity and culture in the antebellum South. As Rice recorded, Uncle Aaron stated, "De fiel' han's am willin' t' jump de broomstick, but when de house sarvans gwine t' marry, dey wants a white preacher; . . . but de broomstick's jess as bindin' as de preacher."[3] This revelation suggests that slaves defined their social stratifications as did their antebellum white counterparts, in that the pomp and display of their social gatherings denoted their position within the society. However, why slaves in the antebellum South used broom-jumping for matrimony remains unanswered by this passage. Why did these slaves jump a broom to seal their nuptials? Was it a trait unique to their own cultural preferences, or did matrimonial precedents exist in other communities in both the U.S. South and the wider Atlantic world? If the custom did have origins outside the slave community, one wonders how it was distributed through the migrations of various cultural groups throughout the early modern period. By broadening the analysis beyond the geographical and chronological boundaries of the antebellum South, this article explores the origins of the broomstick ritual and the reasons for its significant popularity among various free and enslaved communities connected by the Atlantic world.

Despite its frequent appearance in the recent historiography of southern slavery, we still understand very little of the cultural significance that the broomstick held to slaves and other oppressed groups throughout the Atlantic world. The broomstick wedding was highlighted most extensively by American historians during the civil rights era. Writing against a historiography that rendered slaves cultureless, dormant, and submissive, these scholars sought to emphasize the cultural

[2] Mary A. Livermore, *The Story of My Life; or, The Sunshine and Sorrow of Seventy Years* (Hartford, Conn., 1897), 253–58 (first quotation on 253; second and third quotations on 256).
[3] *Ibid.*, 256.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:02:47 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.36 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Parry, Tyler D. "Married in Slavery Time: Jumping the Broom in Atlantic Perspective." *The Journal of Southern History* 81, no. 2 (2015): 273–312. https://www.jstor.org/stable/43917911.

Footnote citation

Tyler D. Parry, "Married in Slavery Time: Jumping the Broom in Atlantic Perspective," *The Journal of Southern History* 81, no. 2 (2015): 273–274, https://www.jstor.org/stable/43917911.

Shortened citation

Parry, "Married in Slavery Time," 273–274.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 273-274. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Tyler D. Parry - Married in Slavery Time — Jumping the Broom in Atlantic Perspective.pdf
SHA-256	8c95222d83b5a0c9bc91aed76885f5c7b3be33f04120e877049c205f31073f8b
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/43917911

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.37 - Slavery, Slaves, and Cash in a Georgia Village, 1825-1865

David E. Paterson

ARTICLE	Slavery, Slaves, and Cash in a Georgia Village, 1825-1865
JOURNAL	The Journal of Southern History 75, no. 4 (2009)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 879-880
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/27779118

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 879-880

Slavery, Slaves, and Cash in a Georgia Village, 1825–1865

By David E. Paterson

By 1859, Phil, a forty-five-year-old Georgia bondman, was as familiar with the village stables, shops, and houses of Thomaston, Upson County, as he was with many cotton fields and slave quarters in the surrounding countryside. He had been bought and sold at least four times by planters and villagers. In the early 1840s Phil had worked on Amos Rose's Upson plantation, until Rose fled to Alabama in 1842 to escape prosecution for mayhem. Probably to raise cash for his journey, Rose sold Phil to Rose's Thomaston lawyer, who quickly disposed of the slave to planter William Spivey. Spivey lived in Thomaston but operated a five-hundred-acre plantation a mile and a half northeast of the village, where his slaves cultivated cotton, corn, and wheat and raised swine and cattle. While working on the plantation, Phil was probably not the only one of Spivey's bondpeople who also traded his own produce to village residents—Mary Shackelford, the postmaster's wife, recalled that she had bought fruit from Phil on at least one occasion, paying for it with meat and meal (but he claimed she owed him twenty-five cents cash). After fourteen years Spivey sold Phil to Thomas L. Walker, a Thomaston dry goods merchant. Before absconding to Texas under a cloud of debt, Walker hired Phil out as a stable hand for Thomas Cauthorn's hotel. Phil and a fellow stable hand, Calvin, could come and go at will during their evenings, as long as one of them was there to answer the hotel bell that summoned a hand to take a customer's horse to the stable. Calvin said that Phil always left early, because Phil usually slept at Judah's house on William Spivey's farm. Judah testified that Phil was the father of her six children, and "when he goes to Judge Spivey's plantation, he stays at no place but [my] house, & keeps his clothes at [my] house." Although Phil was working at Cauthorn's stable in Thomaston on April 1, 1859, the night he allegedly shot Dr. Ansel T. Shackelford, Phil's double-barreled

Mr. Paterson is an independent scholar in Norfolk, Virginia.

The Journal of Southern History
Volume LXXV, No. 4, November 2009

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:58:14 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

pistol and ammunition were later found above the door lintel of Judah's house.[1]

Like many Upson County slaves, Phil routinely traveled between village and plantation, either in coerced changes of residence and occupation or as a willing transient between these urban and rural places. Even though Phil and Judah belonged to different masters, his home was Judah's house, where he kept his possessions and to which he commuted whenever possible—an arrangement typical for enslaved couples in similar situations.[2] Phil was both actor and object in market transactions that were integral parts of the experiences of slaves in the nineteenth-century American South. As a commodity for sale in the formal economy—brokered by a town lawyer, perhaps exposed to public auction on the Upson County Courthouse steps—Phil's body stood beside Spivey's cotton, corn, wheat, pork, and butter in the public market. Phil's labor was likewise packaged as a commodity for hire to hotelier Thomas Cauthorn. For merchant Thomas Walker, slaves were both property and valued customers with whom he routinely and openly traded at his Thomaston store. And not least significant, Phil participated autonomously in the local economy when he marketed his own commodities in the village.

With its cotton culture furiously worked into early maturity on land fresh from frontier infancy, Upson County was nestled at the center of the antebellum South within the overlap of two contrasting geographies that Ira Berlin calls the Seaboard South (the old upper South states and border slave states) and the expanding Southern Interior (western

[1]Phil's history is reconstructed from Upson County Deed Book F, 124 (Thomaston-Upson Archives, Thomaston, Ga.; hereinafter TUA); and testimony in *State v. Phil, a Slave*, in Upson County Superior Court Minute Book E, TUA, 25, 29 (quotation), 30. Information on William Spivey is from Manuscript Census Returns, Eighth Census of the United States, 1860, Upson County, Georgia, Schedule 1, Free Population (hereinafter cited as 1860 U.S. Census, Upson County, Ga., Free Pop.), dwelling-house 15, National Archives Microfilm Series M-653, reel 139 (hereinafter cited as NAMS M-653); Manuscript Census Returns, Eighth Census of the United States, 1860, Upson County, Georgia, Schedule 2, Slave Population (hereinafter cited as 1860 U.S. Census, Upson County, Ga., Slave Pop.), p. 3, NAMS M-653, reel 153; and Manuscript Census Returns, Eighth Census of the United States, 1860, Upson County, Georgia, Schedule 4, Productions of Agriculture (hereinafter cited as 1860 U.S. Census, Upson County, Ga., Agriculture), pp. 1–2, National Archives Microfilm Series T-1137, reel 6 (hereinafter cited as NAMS T-1137). Reports on Thomas L. Walker are in Georgia, Vol. 33, p. 249, R. G. Dun & Co. Collection (Baker Library Historical Collections, Harvard Business School, Harvard University, Boston, Mass.). I am grateful to the anonymous readers of earlier drafts of this article, whose detailed critiques and insightful suggestions pointed me in fresh directions that completely reshaped and sharpened this narrative and analysis. George Ellenberg, along with other encouragement, cured me of excessive semicolons.

[2]Dylan C. Penningroth, *The Claims of Kinfolk: African American Property and Community in the Nineteenth-Century South* (Chapel Hill, 2003), 103–4.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:58:14 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.37 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Paterson, David E. "Slavery, Slaves, and Cash in a Georgia Village, 1825-1865." *The Journal of Southern History* 75, no. 4 (2009): 879–930. https://www.jstor.org/stable/27779118.

Footnote citation

David E. Paterson, "Slavery, Slaves, and Cash in a Georgia Village, 1825-1865," *The Journal of Southern History* 75, no. 4 (2009): 879–880, https://www.jstor.org/stable/27779118.

Shortened citation

Paterson, "Slavery, Slaves, and Cash," 879–880.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 879-880. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	David E. Paterson - Slavery, Slaves, and Cash in a Georgia Village, 1825-1865.pdf
SHA-256	4a7570efecfc55ff2a35dd9b3f7d71f86ed52935297056 73a9c42a8f0a0d3a10
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/27779118

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.38 - The Claims of Slaves and Ex-Slaves to Family and Property: A Transatlantic Comparison

Dylan C. Penningroth

ARTICLE	The Claims of Slaves and Ex-Slaves to Family and Property: A Transatlantic Comparison
JOURNAL	The American Historical Review 112, no. 4 (2007)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 1039-1040
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/40008443

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 1039-1040

The Claims of Slaves and Ex-Slaves to Family and Property: A Transatlantic Comparison

DYLAN C. PENNINGROTH

In 1924, a farmer named Kwadjo Agbanyamane and his mother borrowed £20 from a neighbor to buy some land near Peki, in the Gold Coast region of what is now Ghana. In return, Kwadjo "gave" the neighbor his six-year-old brother Kwamin, "to serve for the debt until" he could pay for the land. As the chief who judged the case put it, Kwamin's labor was "to wash out the interest."[1] In 1904, in Alabama, another farmer, Hayes Shaw, hired out his nineteen-year-old son Nate to work. "Truthful to God," Nate Shaw said later, "I got one suit of clothes out of my labor that year . . . and my daddy collectin the balance of it. Well, that was just like slavery with me."[2]

Neither Shaw nor Kwamin was a slave, but the subordination and vulnerability they experienced had roots in the era of slavery. Slavery was practiced in the Gold Coast region long before Europeans began buying and shipping people across the Atlantic to provide labor for plantation colonies in the Americas and the Caribbean. In what became the southern United States, slavery flourished for nearly 250 years.[3] Although Britain finally banned the transatlantic slave trade in 1807, slavery remained a vital legal category in both Gold Coast and the United States for most of

This essay has greatly benefited from critical readings by Sara Berry, Adrienne Davis, Laura Edwards, Jonathon Glassman, Dirk Hartog, Michael Johnson, Walter Johnson, Greg Mann, Richard Roberts, David Schoenbrun, Butch Ware, Richard White, and the anonymous readers for the *AHR*. Research and writing were supported by Northwestern University, the Newberry Library/NEH, and the expert staffs of the Melville J. Herskovits Library at Northwestern University, the Public Records and Archives Administration of Ghana, and the United States National Archives and Records Administration. Earlier versions were presented in the history departments at Johns Hopkins University, Penn State University, and Stanford University, and at Columbia Law School, the American Society for Legal History, the American Bar Foundation, the Northwestern University Program of African Studies, and the University of Illinois at Urbana-Champaign.

[1] *Kwadjo v. Ayimah*, August 31, 1927, Civil Court Record Book, Konor's Tribunal, Acc. no. 2024/1963, Ghana Public Records and Archives Administration Department at Accra [hereafter PRAAD, and formerly named National Archives of Ghana] ("gave" and "serve"); cross-examination of respondent by Konor, ibid. ("wash out the interest"). This article focuses on the largely Akan area around the coastal towns of Cape Coast and Elmina, and, to an extent, the culturally diverse area around the southeastern towns of Accra, Akuse, and Peki. By "Akan," I mean the broad linguistic/cultural group that occupied large parts of what are today Ghana and Côte d'Ivoire, including Asante (the most prominent Akan state in this period) and large parts of the culturally complex region between Asante and the Atlantic Ocean. Parts of this region came under Asante rule at various points in the 1800s; the coastal area was officially declared a British colony in 1874, leaving the interior area (south of Asante) as a "protectorate" until 1902. By "Africa" and "African," I mean sub-Saharan Africa excluding the settler societies of southern Africa.

[2] Theodore Rosengarten, *All God's Dangers: The Life of Nate Shaw* (New York, 1989), 37.

[3] The slave systems that Europeans built on the backs of African workers supplanted older systems of slavery among Native Americans in this region.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:01:35 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

the nineteenth century, and left a legacy that lasted well into the twentieth. In both regions, the economics and ideology of slavery knit together notions of family and property. People in both places asserted powerful claims over members of their families—to "work em," hire them out, "turn [them] over" to someone else, or even "give" them away.[4] And although Shaw chafed at his father's "bossin" and Kwamin eventually ran away, no one seriously questioned their relatives' right to dispose of them, not even the boys themselves. Indeed, what bothered Shaw was simply that he "thought [he] was a little too old to be treated that way."[5]

A limited comparison of the southern United States and southern Gold Coast during the nineteenth century reveals that claims about family and property were rooted in a complex history of change in the two regions, including internal mass migrations of slaves, the rise of large new slave-based economies, and an intensified focus on kinship as a key component of the masters' ideology of slavery. Masters and slaves struggled over claims to resources—including claims to people—and the social identities that underpinned them. In significant ways, the histories of both regions were shaped by debates about the claims that slaves and their descendants made to kinship and to the products of their labor. Those debates drew substance from—and in turn helped influence—the meanings of property, slavery, and social membership for all people, not just slaves.[6] And as the stories of Nate Shaw and Kwamin suggest, the links among kinship, property, and slavery remained potent long after slavery itself was officially over.

Comparison has been an undercurrent in writings on slavery since the 1840s, but rarely do the histories of slavery in the United States and Africa come in for direct, sustained scholarly comparison.[7] Instead, the dominant mode has been diaspora. It was once common for U.S. historians to include a portrait of "traditional" African culture as a baseline for sketching the development of African American culture, and American slavery has long been a foil for studies of slavery in Africa. But those portraits frequently lacked the attention to specific places and changes over time that would make them useful.[8] Recent work in the Atlantic, or diasporic, school has opened more sophisticated routes between African and African American history,

[4] Rosengarten, *All God's Dangers*, 37, 54 ("hire them out" and—speaking of his plans for his own half-brothers—"work em," "turn [them] over"); *Ayoler v. Yomley et al.*, April 3, 1946, Civil Court Record Book, Konor's Tribunal, Acc. no. 2024/1963, PRAAD (deeding away a child "as gift").

[5] Rosengarten, *All God's Dangers*, 54 ("bossin"), 37 ("too old").

[6] A pair of 1874 laws in Gold Coast banned slave-trading and abolished the "legal status" of slavery, but only within the colony and protectorate. The laws were written so narrowly, moreover, that slaveholding and pawnholding (discussed below at note 31) remained legal until 1908. Governor George Strahan's 1874 proclamation of "legal status" abolition was different from, yet usefully comparable to, President Abraham Lincoln's Emancipation Proclamation. While it did not take place during a civil war, it drew from some of the same ideological assumptions, was aimed at an old and well-established system of slavery, was imposed on slaveholding populations that mostly did not want it, and, far from resolving "the slavery issue," ushered in massive struggles over defining what would come after.

[7] As Frederick Cooper wrote nearly thirty years ago, "By and large, Africanists and Americanists are studying slavery in isolation from one another, venturing into the others' territory only to make a point about their own." Cooper, "The Problem of Slavery in African Studies," *Journal of African History* 20, no. 1 (1979): 103.

[8] Indeed, one problem was that in their portraits of "traditional" Africa, U.S. historians commonly glossed right over slavery. See, for example, Eugene Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made* (New York, 1972), 197–198, 289, 448–450; Herbert G. Gutman, *The Black Family in Slavery and Freedom, 1750–1925* (New York, 1976), 198–201, 211–212, 222–224, 242, 328–343, 351–352. For the use of American slavery as a foil for slavery in Africa, see Igor Kopytoff and Suzanne Miers, "African

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:01:35 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.38 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Penningroth, Dylan C. "The Claims of Slaves and Ex-Slaves to Family and Property: A Transatlantic Comparison." *The American Historical Review* 112, no. 4 (2007): 1039–1069. https://www.jstor.org/stable/40008443.

Footnote citation

Dylan C. Penningroth, "The Claims of Slaves and Ex-Slaves to Family and Property: A Transatlantic Comparison," *The American Historical Review* 112, no. 4 (2007): 1039–1040, https://www.jstor.org/stable/40008443.

Shortened citation

Penningroth, "Claims of Slaves," 1039–1040.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 1039-1040. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Dylan C. Penningroth - The Claims of Slaves and Ex-Slaves to Family and Property — A Transatlantic Comparison.pdf
SHA-256	62d0a4986df4385cbc29d388778c4a96e3f6957ab69469a5705d42c2843fabd7
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/40008443

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.39 - How Different from Each Other Were the Antebellum North and South?

Edward Pessen

ARTICLE	How Different from Each Other Were the Antebellum North and South?
JOURNAL	The American Historical Review 85, no. 5 (1980)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 1119-1120
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/1853242

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 1119-1120

How Different from Each Other Were the Antebellum North and South?

EDWARD PESSEN

HOW DIFFERENT FROM EACH OTHER were the North and South before the Civil War? Recent work by historians of antebellum America throws interesting new light on this old question. Since some of these studies deal with individual communities,[1] others with single themes of antebellum life, they are in a sense Pirandelloan pieces of evidence in search of an overarching synthesis that will relate them to one another and to earlier findings and interpretations. My modest hope is that the discussion that follows will be useful to historians in pursuit of such a synthesis.

The terms "North" and "South" are, of course, figures of speech that distort and oversimplify a complex reality, implying homogeneity in geographical sections that, in fact, were highly variegated. Each section embraced a variety of regions and communities that were dissimilar in climatic, topographical, demographic, and social characteristics. If, as Bennett H. Wall has written, "there never has been the 'one' South described by many historians,"[2] neither has there been the one North. Historians who have compared the antebellum South and North without referring to the diversity of each have not necessarily been un-

This essay is an expanded version of a paper presented at the Ninety-Fourth Annual Meeting of the American Historical Association held in New York, December 1979. I wish to thank Bertram Wyatt-Brown, chairman of the AHA session, and Herbert G. Gutman, Grady McWhiney, and, above all, Bennett H. Wall, the commentators, for their helpful criticisms and suggestions. I am indebted, too, to Jane H. Pease, Joe Gray Taylor, William H. Pease, John B. Boles, John V. Mering, Barbara Welter, Norman Dain, Phyllis Dain, the late Bell Irwin Wiley, the late T. Harry Williams, John N. Ingham, the late Hans J. Morgenthau, Dr. Karl J. Leone, Myrna Chase, Don Doyle, Thomas R. Frazier, Stanley Buder, Otto Pflanze, and the anonymous referees of the *American Historical Review* for their valuable advice. All deficiences in this essay are my responsibility alone.

[1] I first seriously thought of comparing the North and South after reading three papers by young historians on which I was asked to comment at the meeting of the Southern Historical Association held in Atlanta in November 1976. Whitman H. Ridgway's "The Decline of the Post-Revolutionary Establishment: Maryland Community Elites in the First Party Era," J. Mills Thornton III's "The Growth of Elitism in Alabama Politics, 1840–1860," and Donald De Bats's "Political Elitism in Antebellum Georgia" revealed striking similarities between politics in these Southern communities and in the Northern communities that I had been examining.

[2] Wall, "An Epitaph for Slavery," *Louisiana History*, 16 (1975): 233. Useful recent statements on Southern diversity include D. W. Meinig, "The Continuous Shaping of America: A Prospectus for Geographers and Historians," *AHR*, 83 (1978): 1195; Sam Bowers Hilliard, *Hog Meat and Hoecake: Food Supply in the Old South, 1840–1860* (Carbondale, Ill., 1972); Ralph A. Wooster, *Politicians, Planters, and Plain Folk: Courthouse and Statehouse in the Upper South, 1850–1860* (Knoxville, 1975); Randolph B. Campbell and Richard G. Lowe, *Wealth and Power in Antebellum Texas* (College Station, Texas, 1977); and Gavin Wright, *The Political Economy of the Cotton South: Households, Markets, and Wealth in the Nineteenth Century* (New York, 1978).

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 01:59:16 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

aware of this diversity. Their premise, in speaking of the North and South, is that the Mason-Dixon line divided two distinctive civilizations, the basic similarities within each of which transcended its internal differences.

The modern discussion is a continuation of a scholarly controversy that has engaged some of the giants of the American historical profession. Charles A. Beard, Ulrich B. Phillips, Allan Nevins, David M. Potter, C. Vann Woodward,[3] and other scholars of stature have been drawn to the theme because it is inextricably related to perhaps the most fascinating of all questions in American history: the causes of the Civil War.[4] Many historians attribute that "irrepressible conflict" to the fundamental differences between the two civilizations that were parties to it.[5] Even those scholars who have played down the role of sectional differences in bringing on the war have found themselves unable to avoid comparing the ways of life and thought of the two belligerents.[6]

Unsurprisingly, the discussion has produced a variety of interpretations. Some scholars have emphasized the similarities of the North and South, a much greater number have stressed their dissimilarities, and others have judiciously alluded to their significant likenesses—"commonalities," in Potter's terminology—and unlikenesses.[7] The greater popularity, among scholars and laity alike, of

[3] Beard, *The Rise of American Civilization* (New York, 1927); Phillips, *Life and Labor in the Old South* (Boston, 1929); Nevins, *Ordeal of the Union*, 6 vols. (New York, 1947), esp. vol. 2: *A House Dividing, 1852–1857*; Potter, *The South and the Sectional Conflict* (Baton Rouge, 1968), and *The Impending Crisis, 1848–1861*, ed. Don E. Fehrenbacher (New York, 1976); and C. Vann Woodward, "The Irony of Southern History," *Journal of Southern History* [hereafter, *JSH*], 19 (1953): 3–19, and *American Counterpoint: Slavery and Racism in the North-South Dialogue* (Boston, 1971).

[4] Book-length discussions of the causes of the Civil War include Edwin C. Rozwenc, ed., *The Causes of the American Civil War* (Lexington, Mass., 1972); Thomas J. Pressly, *Americans Interpret Their Civil War* (Princeton, 1954); Howard K. Beale, *What Historians Have Said about the Causes of the Civil War*, Theory and Practice in Historical Study, Social Sciences Research Council (New York, 1946); and Lee Benson, "Explanations of American Civil War Causation: A Critical Assessment and a Modest Proposal to Reorient and Reorganize the Social Sciences," in his *Toward the Scientific Study of History: Selected Essays* (Philadelphia, 1972), 223–333.

[5] According to Allan Nevins, the sectional "schism in culture" created an atmosphere in which "emotions grew feverish, in which every episode became a crisis, every jar a shock"; *Ordeal of the Union*, 2: 554. In Eugene D. Genovese's version, the South's "special civilization built on the relationship of master to slave" was "at the root of the conflict with the North"; Genovese, *The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and the Society of the Slave South* (New York, 1965), 35. Carl N. Degler has recently written that, "because of those differences" between the sections, "which clustered around the existence of slavery in the South, eleven states broke away to form the Confederate States of America"; Degler, *Place over Time: The Continuity of Southern Distinctiveness* (Baton Rouge, 1977). Also see Arthur C. Cole, *The Irrepressible Conflict, 1850–1865* (New York, 1934); and Heywood Fleisig, "Slavery, the Supply of Agricultural Labor, and the Industrialization of the South," *Journal of Economic History* [hereafter, *JEH*], 36 (1976): 592. For my own thoughts concerning the relationship between sectional differences and the outbreak of the war, see pages 1148–49, below.

[6] For critics of what David Potter described as the "school of historical thought" that "sees the [Civil War] as a clash of profoundly dissimilar cultures," whose people ostensibly "were at odds because they lived in different cultural worlds," see Potter, *The Impending Crisis, 1848–1861*, 30–31, and *The South and Sectional Conflict*, 76–78; James G. Randall, "The Blundering Generation," *Mississippi Valley Historical Review*, 27 (1940): 3–28; and Francis B. Simkins, *The Everlasting South* (Baton Rouge, 1963), 38.

[7] Carl N. Degler's work contains interpretations that emphasize both differences and similarities between North and South; Degler, *The Other South: Southern Dissenters in the Nineteenth Century* (New York, 1974), and *Place over Time*. To the writings of Potter and Woodward, about which the same can be said, can be added James G. Randall and David Donald, *The Civil War and Reconstruction* (Boston, 1969); T. Harry Williams, *Romance and Realism in Southern Politics* (Athens, Ga., 1961); Charles G. Sellers, ed., *The Southerner as American* (Chapel Hill, 1960); and Grady McWhiney, *Southerners and Other Americans* (New York, 1973). A particularly strong, if not entirely persuasive, assertion of the essential similarity of the two sections over the entire course of American history is Howard Zinn, *The Southern Mystique* (New York, 1964), a work that is present-minded in the extreme. Thomas P. Govan has answered his title question pithily and bitingly in the negative; Govan, "Was the Old South Different?" *JSH*, 21 (1955): 447–55. Works that emphasize sectional differences include Nevins, *Ordeal of*

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 01:59:16 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.39 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Pessen, Edward. "How Different from Each Other Were the Antebellum North and South?" *The American Historical Review* 85, no. 5 (1980): 1119–1149. https://www.jstor.org/stable/1853242.

Footnote citation

Edward Pessen, "How Different from Each Other Were the Antebellum North and South?" *The American Historical Review* 85, no. 5 (1980): 1119–1120, https://www.jstor.org/stable/1853242.

Shortened citation

Pessen, "How Different from Each," 1119–1120.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 1119-1120. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Edward Pessen - How Different from Each Other Were the Antebellum North and South.pdf
SHA-256	120fd6dbc33bdac6fd86cf0c1cb0c4968496700545eb6129da1f7832f2a65df7
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/1853242

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.40 - 'Slavery Cannot Be Covered up with Broadcloth or a Bandanna': The Evolution of White Abolitionist Attacks on the 'Patriarchal Institution'

Michael D. Pierson

ARTICLE	'Slavery Cannot Be Covered up with Broadcloth or a Bandanna': The Evolution of White Abolitionist Attacks on the 'Patriarchal Institution'
JOURNAL	Journal of the Early Republic 25, no. 3 (2005)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 383-384
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/30043336

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 383-384

"Slavery Cannot Be Covered Up with Broadcloth or a Bandanna"

The Evolution of White Abolitionist Attacks on the "Patriarchal Institution"

MICHAEL D. PIERSON

Beginning in the early 1830s, white abolitionists attempted to prove that American slaves suffered physically, emotionally, and spiritually at the hands of those who claimed ownership over them. They felt that they needed to convince the American public that slaves were badly treated. Time and again they argued the basic facts of southern plantation life: slaveholders divided families, legalized rape, and did not recognize slave marriages as legitimate.[1] Masters beat slaves, denied them food and rest, and kept them from schools and churches. The most famous works of American abolitionist literature argue these ideas with passion,

Michael D. Pierson is an associate professor in the Department of History at the University of Massachusetts, Lowell. He would like to thank Laura Barefield and the anonymous readers of the *Journal of the Early Republic* for their valuable and constructive comments. He is also grateful to Roderick A. McDonald and James Brewer Stewart for their timely words of encouragement.

1. For material about abolitionists and their critique of slavery's familial and sexual practices, see Ronald G. Walters, *The Antislavery Appeal: American Abolitionism after 1830* (Baltimore, MD, 1976); Walters, "The Erotic South: Civilization and Sexuality in American Abolitionism," *American Quarterly*, 25 (May 1973), 177–201; Karen Sanchez-Eppler, *Touching Liberty: Abolition, Feminism and the Politics of the Body* (Berkeley, CA, 1993); Marc M. Arkin, "The Federalist Trope: Power and Passion in Abolitionist Rhetoric," *Journal of American History*, 88 (June 2001), 75–98. For a broader intellectual context, see Karen Halttunen, "Humanitarianism and the Pornography of Pain in Anglo-American Culture," *American Historical Review*, 100 (Apr. 1995), 303–34.

Journal of the Early Republic, 25 (Fall 2005)
Copyright © 2005 Society for Historians of the Early American Republic. All rights reserved.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:01:42 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

finding new ways to prove their points and to retell the stories of abuse over and over again.

Viewed against this rhetorical history, J. Elizabeth "Lizzie" Jones's speech at the 1860 anniversary meeting of the American Anti-Slavery Society indicates a new trend in abolitionist rhetoric. Rather than rehash how poorly slaves were treated, Jones proclaimed that such discussions—indeed the entire argument of the previous thirty years over whether slaves were ill or kindly treated by their masters—mattered not one bit. "We are told [by pro-slavery people] that the slaves are well fed and well clothed," she began.

> That is nothing to our argument. But they are happy! So much the worse for the master. If he has obliterated the line between the man and the brute, I should rather not stand in his place when he goes to judgment. Slavery cannot be covered up with broadcloth or a bandanna. It cannot be made respectable, not even with the cast-off clothing of the master. Gilt buttons and gold chains don't help it.

Jones continued with a philosophical statement about what she saw as slavery's true crime: "The question is not what he eats, or how much money shall be spent upon him," she said, "but it is this, Shall he be recognized as a man?" According to Jones, slavery "tears away the crown of manhood, and brands the human being a brute." Her dismissal of the debate about the material conditions of slave life is dramatic and complete. Ultimately she argued that all the representations of slaves as "fat and sleek, contented and happy, fall to the ground. They have no bearing upon the question."[2] With this claim she signaled a willingness to abandon an established line of abolitionist attack in favor of the philosophical proposition that human beings need independence and freedom in order to retain their claim to the favored place above animals granted by God. Jones was not alone in labeling any form of dependence as unacceptable. By the late 1850s, many abolitionists attacked slavery because it enforced dependence upon slaves, not for the material conditions in which the slaves lived.

This essay explores the reasons for this shift in abolitionist rhetoric, paying particular attention to how white abolitionists wrote about gender

2. Jones's speech appears in the New York *National Anti-Slavery Standard*, May 26, 1860.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:01:42 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.40 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Pierson, Michael D. "'Slavery Cannot Be Covered up with Broadcloth or a Bandanna': The Evolution of White Abolitionist Attacks on the 'Patriarchal Institution.'" *Journal of the Early Republic* 25, no. 3 (2005): 383–415. https://www.jstor.org/stable/30043336.

Footnote citation

Michael D. Pierson, "'Slavery Cannot Be Covered up with Broadcloth or a Bandanna': The Evolution of White Abolitionist Attacks on the 'Patriarchal Institution,'" *Journal of the Early Republic* 25, no. 3 (2005): 383–384, https://www.jstor.org/stable/30043336.

Shortened citation

Pierson, "'Slavery Cannot Be Covered,'" 383–384.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 383-384. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Michael D. Pierson - Slavery Cannot Be Covered up with Broadcloth or a Bandanna — The Evolution of White Abolitionist Attacks on the Patriarchal Insti.pdf
SHA-256	65dde236b7f867f3f66f37f8686f8643aa34d2015b4d6a789bf55363322f58be
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/30043336

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.41 - Capitalists without Capital: The Burden of Slavery and the Impact of Emancipation

Roger Ransom and Richard Sutch

ARTICLE	Capitalists without Capital: The Burden of Slavery and the Impact of Emancipation
JOURNAL	Agricultural History 62, no. 3 (1988)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 133-134
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3743211

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 133-134

Capitalists Without Capital: The Burden of Slavery and the Impact of Emancipation

ROGER RANSOM
RICHARD SUTCH

> Where the capitalist outlook prevails, as on American plantations, this entire surplus value [of slave labor] is regarded as profit. . . . The price paid for a slave is nothing but the anticipated and capitalised surplus-value or profit to be wrung out of the slave.
>
> *Karl Marx, Capital*[1]

Karl Marx recognized the capitalist nature of American slavery long before American historians. The historians, of course, had always known that the essential economic feature of American slavery was that human labor had been capitalized. Black men and women were owned. They could be bought and sold, moved anywhere within the South at their owner's will, and put to any work their owner commanded.[2] But, what Marx also understood was that the slave holding existed to make a profit for the owner. The entire labor product of the slave family, above whatever provision for food and other necessities the owner cared to make, was expropriated. That residual was the owner's profit and the expectation of a continued flow of such returns made slave property an earning asset. The price paid for a slave reflected the consensus of the buyer and seller concerning the potential value of the continuous stream

ROGER RANSOM is Professor of History, University of California, Riverside. RICHARD SUTCH is Professor of Economics, University of California, Berkeley.

1. Karl Marx, *Capital: A Critique of Political Economy,* Vol. 3, "The Process of Capitalist Production as a Whole," Frederick Engles, ed. (London: 1894), 804.

2. For an extended discussion of these points see Richard Sutch, "The Treatment Received by American Slaves: A Critical Review of the Evidence Presented in *Time on the Cross," Explorations in Economic History* 12 (October 1975): 335–438.

agricultural history volume 62 ● number 3 ● 1988. © agricultural history society.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:59:09 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

of profits that could be extracted from the slave and, in the case of a female, from her descendants as well.

Today, Marx would find no disagreement with American historians on these points.[3] However, this is because there has been a change of view. Until about thirty years ago, American historians denied that there was profit in slave ownership and rejected the idea that a capitalist outlook could have characterized plantation owners. American slavery was instead viewed as a vestige or throwback to feudalism and slaveholders were depicted as proud, even noble, paternalistic landlords tragically out of place in capitalist America.[4] What changed this perception was a successful demonstration based on a sizable collection of quantitative data that slavery was profitable.

Almost three quarters of a century after the publication of volume three of *Capital,* Alfred Conrad and John Meyer explained that the slave system was able to flourish in the midst of a capitalist market economy because it was itself a form of capitalism.[5] The southern plantation system, though, was an unusual species of capitalism in which the capital assets were land and slaves rather than physical or financial capital. Conrad and Meyer argued that slaves were viewed as an alternative to railroad bonds, agricultural land, textile factories, or other manufactories as an outlet for the investment funds of American capitalists. Since slaves were capital, the

3. See the thoughtful discussion of capitalism and slavery by Gavin Wright "Capitalism and Slavery on the Islands: A Lesson from the Mainland," *Journal of Interdisciplinary History* 17 (Spring 1987): 851–70. Even the attackers of the new orthodoxy, Robert Fogel and Stanley Engerman, agree that the slave plantation was a capitalist business enterprise organized for profit [*Time on the Cross,* Two Volumes, (Boston: Little Brown, 1974)]. Fogel and Engerman disagree with the rest of the profession about the significance of this fact for the treatment of slaves and the technical efficiency of slavery. For a full discussion of these issues see Paul David, Herbert Gutman, Richard Sutch, Peter Temin, and Gavin Wright, *Reckoning with Slavery: A Critical Study in the Quantitative History of American Negro Slavery* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1976).

4. See the writings of Ulrich B. Phillips, particularly his book, *American Negro Slavery: A Survey of the Supply, Employment and Control of Negro Labor as Determined by the Plantation Regime* (D. Appleton and Company, 1918). The American historians who have been most influenced by Marx's class analysis have generally stood away from the emerging consensus about the capitalist nature of slavery and tended to support Phillips' view. In this regard they differ with both Marx himself and most economic historians outside the Marxist tradition as well. See Eugene Genovese, *The Political Economic of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South* (Pantheon Books, 1965).

5. Alfred Conrad and John Meyer, "The Economics of Slavery in the Ante Bellum South," *Journal of Political Economy* 66 (April 1958). Every subsequent empirical study of American slavery has concluded that slave labor produced a significant surplus for the slave owner. In addition to Conrad and Meyer see Richard Sutch, "The Profitability of Slavery—Revisited," *Southern Economic Journal* 31 (April 1965): 365–77; Roger L. Ransom and Richard Sutch, *One Kind of Freedom: The Economic Consequences of Emancipation* (New York and London: Cambridge University Press, 1977), Appendix A; and Gavin Wright, *The Political Economy of the Cotton South: Households, Markets, and Wealth in the Nineteenth Century* (W.W. Norton, 1978), Chapter 3.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:59:09 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.41 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Ransom, Roger, and Richard Sutch. "Capitalists without Capital: The Burden of Slavery and the Impact of Emancipation." *Agricultural History* 62, no. 3 (1988): 133–160. https://www.jstor.org/stable/3743211.

Footnote citation

Roger Ransom and Richard Sutch, "Capitalists without Capital: The Burden of Slavery and the Impact of Emancipation," *Agricultural History* 62, no. 3 (1988): 133–134, https://www.jstor.org/stable/3743211.

Shortened citation

Ransom and Sutch, "Capitalists without Capital," 133–134.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 133-134. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Roger Ransom and Richard Sutch - Capitalists without Capital — The Burden of Slavery and the Impact of Emancipation.pdf
SHA-256	c56a434003101a49990f2c91b0e9e8bf30c492ade0f77351b7f6eb2a0f0ab1b6
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3743211

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.42 - Slave Rebels and Abolitionists: The Black Atlantic and the Coming of the Civil War

Edward B. Rugemer

ARTICLE	Slave Rebels and Abolitionists: The Black Atlantic and the Coming of the Civil War
JOURNAL	Journal of the Civil War Era 2, no. 2 (2012)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 179-180
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/26070222

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 179-180

EDWARD B. RUGEMER

Slave Rebels and Abolitionists The Black Atlantic and the Coming of the Civil War

On November 12, 1860, the Georgia jurist Thomas Cobb delivered a forceful address to his state's legislature advocating secession from the United States. The previous week had seen the election of Abraham Lincoln, and Cobb drew attention to a particular phrase in the preamble to the Constitution that he believed Lincoln's election had undermined. The states had adopted the Constitution, in part, "to ensure domestic tranquility," but in light of the radical abolitionism that he believed Lincoln represented, Cobb argued that the Union could no longer hold. He asked his audience to recall "the trembling hand of a loved wife, as she whispered her fears from the incendiary and the assassin." Cobb was quick to assure his listeners that he did not personally fear violence from the "happy and contented" slaves, but he did fear danger from the "emissaries of Northern Abolitionists." These men had been seen throughout the southern states, and they just might instigate rebellion. Cobb reminded the legislature that only the president had the power to call upon the armed forces to suppress insurrections. Could white southerners trust a "Black Republican Abolitionist" to use this power if necessary? Cobb did not think so. Secession was the only alternative.[1]

Cobb was not the only speaker in Georgia to connect the election of Lincoln to the threat of insurrection. For Robert A. Toombs, the history of the Republican Party was simply the history of abolitionism, and Toombs asserted that for twenty years the abolitionists had been working "to excite our slaves to insurrection." Henry Benning warned that the abolition of slavery was now practically inevitable; when it happened, Benning predicted, a race war would result. The South would become "another Jamaica, or St. Domingo."[2]

Benning's fear that the South might relive a Caribbean history of abolition would have resonated with his audience. Many of the forces operating to tear apart the United States had transatlantic dimensions that historians have only begun to explore. Influenced by the development of

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:03:02 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

Atlantic history, a growing number of scholars are venturing beyond the borders of the United States to tell stories about the coming of the Civil War. Recent surveys by David Brion Davis, Seymour Drescher, and Robin Blackburn situate the coming of the U.S. Civil War within a much longer history of the struggle over slavery in the Atlantic world (and beyond) that stretched back to ancient times. Monographs by Richard J. M. Blackett, myself, Matthew Pratt Guterl, Brian Schoen, Matthew J. Clavin, and Sam W. Haynes have explored various transatlantic dimensions of the Civil War era, and important dissertations by Steven Heath Mitton, W. Caleb McDaniel, Ronald Angelo Johnson, Matthew J. Karp, and Daniel B. Rood promise to continue the development of this branch of the historiography. As this literature explains, the political struggles among slaves, abolitionists, and slaveholders; the expansion of slave-based economies; and the contests between states that fell on opposite sides of the abolition question were all transatlantic phenomena whose past and present had a powerful impact on antebellum Americans.[3]

This is a rich new literature, but we still need to weave transatlantic developments into the antebellum narrative. Classic accounts of the coming of the Civil War tend to focus on that well-known series of events that sectionalized U.S. politics from the 1830s to the secession of the Deep South states in 1861. Gary J. Kornblith has recently described the two principal schools of thought that now predominate in the historiography. On the one hand, "fundamentalists" emphasize the centrality of slavery in the creation of two vitally different and antagonistic societies, North and South, that were bound to clash. On the other hand, the "revisionists" counter with detailed analysis of the antebellum political system that reveal a multitude of factors—not just slavery—that pushed the nation toward political collapse and civil war. Edward L. Ayers has advanced the concept of "deep contingency" as a means of reconciling this historiographical divide. An emphasis on deep contingency focuses on "the connection between structure and event, on the relationships between the long-existing problem of slavery and the immediate world of politics."[4]

This essay employs the concept of the "Black Atlantic" as Paul Gilroy described it to explore some of the transatlantic influences on the coming of the American Civil War. Simply defined, "Black Atlantic" invokes the connections that have historically linked (and continue to link) those societies of the Atlantic world that share a history of racial slavery. My particular focus is on the connections between the United States and the Caribbean, regions long tied together by commerce, culture, and empire. The process of emancipation as it unfolded first in French Saint Domingue during the Haitian Revolution and later in the British Caribbean was

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:03:02 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.42 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Rugemer, Edward B. "Slave Rebels and Abolitionists: The Black Atlantic and the Coming of the Civil War." *Journal of the Civil War Era* 2, no. 2 (2012): 179–202. https://www.jstor.org/stable/26070222.

Footnote citation

Edward B. Rugemer, "Slave Rebels and Abolitionists: The Black Atlantic and the Coming of the Civil War," *Journal of the Civil War Era* 2, no. 2 (2012): 179–180, https://www.jstor.org/stable/26070222.

Shortened citation

Rugemer, "Slave Rebels and Abolitionists," 179–180.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 179-180. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Edward B. Rugemer - Slave Rebels and Abolitionists — The Black Atlantic and the Coming of the Civil War.pdf
SHA-256	5f095b191ad628473556cef98de9e81b97cd482844524eaa017d4554dbb79112
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/26070222

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.43 - New Orleans Slavery in 1850 as Seen in Advertisements

Judith Kelleher Schafer

ARTICLE	New Orleans Slavery in 1850 as Seen in Advertisements
JOURNAL	The Journal of Southern History 47, no. 1 (1981)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 33-34
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2207055

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 33-34

New Orleans Slavery in 1850 as Seen in Advertisements

By Judith Kelleher Schafer

The typical slave in antebellum New Orleans did not, as an old adage has it, get his name in the paper on two occasions, birth and death. Thousands of slaves did make the newspapers, but in the classified section. Slaves were listed for sale and for hire by owners; owners advertised for the return of runaway slaves and described them in detail; and jailers placed notices of captured runaways in the public prints. This article represents a detailed analysis of the several thousand advertisements for bondsmen in the New Orleans newspapers for the year 1850. The resulting picture of labor practices in the Crescent City indicates a booming slave trade in which the equivalent of one in five of the bondsmen in New Orleans were sold annually. Most of the sales were auctions occasioned by a legal procedure, and most sales were of broken lots rather than complete slave families. There were substantial numbers of runaways too. Most slaves ran away to join family members, although most bondsmen chose to run alone. Lighter-skinned slaves tended to be the most likely fugitives, whereas black slaves tended to be more often sold. Women were sold and also became fugitives at an earlier age than men, although there was no seasonal variation for running away among either sex. Rural owners valued their slaves more than did owners in urban areas if the size of the reward can be taken as an indication.

The fragility of the slaves' lives is exemplified over and over by the volume of the slave trade. The fact that a slave could be sold at all was a forceful reminder of his status. The auction block was a compelling symbol of his servitude; it transformed the slave from a person to mere property. As long as any slave sales occurred no normal life was really possible for the bondsman. The chance that an urban black would be sold several times during his life was very great[1] and was dictated by the white family's fluctuating need for

[1] Richard C. Wade, *Slavery in the Cities: The South 1820–1860* (New York, 1964), 197.

Ms. Schafer is a graduate student in history at Tulane University.

The Journal of Southern History
Vol. XLVII, No. 1, February 1981

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:02:27 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

domestic labor. For example, an urban slave who was a child's nurse might be sold when the white children were grown, whereas a rural field hand would always remain useful.

New Orleans was second only to Charleston in the size of its slave trade in 1850; it was unsurpassed in the lower South. In New Orleans the markets and buyers were numerous, money was plentiful, and the profits large. Seven professional slave dealers placed thirteen different classified advertisements in the New Orleans newspapers in 1850. Most of these dealers advertised for sale slaves from Virginia and Maryland.[2] A typical notice stated that a slave dealer had just received "ONE HUNDRED AND THIRTY Negroes, direct from Baltimore" which included "a choice lot of field hands, waiters, cooks . . . blacksmiths, carpenters and a fine engineer . . . ." To encourage prospective buyers, the vendor stated "I am determined to sell low . . . ."[3]

One slave dealer, Elihu Creswell, specialized in "acclimated SLAVES . . . less subject to diseases of the climate . . . than those recently imported into the State."[4] Carman and Ricardo, who owned a slave depot at 15 Perdido Street (which had accommodations for three hundred slaves), claimed theirs was "one of the most commodious and well-ventilated establishments for the purpose in the United States."[5] Since these advertisements rarely give exact numbers of slaves handled by slave dealers, it is impossible to ascertain how many slaves were sold in this way, but the persistence with which these notices appeared in the New Orleans newspapers indicates a large volume and a high profit for the slave traders. Nevertheless, since numbers for these slave sales are unavailable, individual slave sales as indicated in the newspaper advertisements of New Orleans' nine newspapers in 1850 have been analyzed. All subse-

[2] Vernon A. Wegener, "Negro Slavery in New Orleans" (unpublished M.A. thesis, Tulane University, 1935), 28. Often one advertisement was repeated daily for months. By the late 1840s probably three hundred New Orleans residents were engaged in slave trading. Herman C. Woessner III, "New Orleans, 1840–1860: A Study in Urban Slavery" (unpublished M.A. thesis, Louisiana State University, 1967), 34. One historian thinks that New Orleans was the greatest slave-trading center in the entire South by 1850. Robert C. Reinders, "Slavery in New Orleans in the Decade Before the Civil War," *Mid-America,* XLIV (October 1962), 211.

[3] New Orleans *Bee,* October 29, 1850; the French edition is *L'Abeille.* All citations to New Orleans papers will hereinafter omit the city.

[4] *Daily Picayune,* January 26, 1850.

[5] *Daily Delta,* December 19, 1850. A New Orleans ordinance required slave "traders to keep their merchandise in clean, well ventilated buildings at least two stories high . . . ." Kenneth M. Stampp, *The Peculiar Institution: Slavery in the Ante-Bellum South* (New York, 1956), 252. At least twenty-five slave depots were located within one-half mile of the St. Charles Hotel in 1850. Reinders, "Slavery in New Orleans," 212. Quite a few slave depots had facilities for as many as one hundred slaves. Woessner, "New Orleans, 1840–1860," 34.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:02:27 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.43 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Schafer, Judith Kelleher. "New Orleans Slavery in 1850 as Seen in Advertisements." *The Journal of Southern History* 47, no. 1 (1981): 33–56. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2207055.

Footnote citation

Judith Kelleher Schafer, "New Orleans Slavery in 1850 as Seen in Advertisements," *The Journal of Southern History* 47, no. 1 (1981): 33–34, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2207055.

Shortened citation

Schafer, "New Orleans Slavery," 33–34.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 33-34. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Judith Kelleher Schafer - New Orleans Slavery in 1850 as Seen in Advertisements.pdf
SHA-256	4273fa77729b0453deaefae5f800f52afce8dc15055808bd4c01da3644e4df94
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2207055

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.44 - Capitalism's Captives: The Maritime United States Slave Trade, 1807-1850

Calvin Schermerhorn

ARTICLE	Capitalism's Captives: The Maritime United States Slave Trade, 1807-1850
JOURNAL	Journal of Social History 47, no. 4 (2014)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 897-898
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/43308821

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 897-898

CALVIN SCHERMERHORN

Capitalism's Captives: The Maritime United States Slave Trade, 1807–1850

Abstract

The maritime interstate trade in bondspersons illustrates the contours of United States capitalism of the early nineteenth century as it developed between 1807 and midcentury. The saltwater trade between the Chesapeake and New Orleans comprised four stages corresponding to larger economic developments. An incidental slave trade rose in the context of the US ban on imported slaves, embargoes, and the growth of domestic commerce. An essential trade followed, growing in the post-War of 1812 transatlantic market for agricultural staples. It was carried on aboard vessels plying the so-called cotton triangle and also ships carrying regionally-specific goods and commodities between domestic ports. The 1830s witnessed a vertical trade exemplified by one slaving firm that responded to the swift expansion of credit and surging demand. Following the panic of 1837, market fragmentation led to a mechanical trade, which was also dependent on robust exports of slave-produced crops. Financial technologies propelled that development, and the maritime slave trade was nearly seamlessly integrated into the broader coastal trade.

The commercial maritime transport of enslaved people between the Chesapeake and lower Mississippi Valley developed in four stages from the 1810s to 1850s, beginning as an incidental trade. As the market grew for commercial transport of bondspersons following the War of 1812, shipping merchants sought the business of interstate slave traders. As some specialized to accommodate traffic in slaves, consignments of captives became an essential trade, financed in part by merchants and bankers in entrepôt cities. Yet even on slaving passages, captives were transported from port to port alongside of other categories of goods, often on voyages that touched foreign ports. With the rise of interregional slave trading firms in the late 1820s, slave traders became shipping merchants. One firm, Franklin and Armfield, built a small fleet of slaving vessels within its enterprise and innovated in self-finance. Because of that vertical organization, its Alexandria, Virginia, branch siphoned off perhaps the majority of Baltimore's commercial slave transport of the 1830s. During the hard times following the panic of 1837 the benefits of such a business model diminished. The market segmented. Capitalist relations became more mechanistic, and shipping merchants beckoned enslavers to embark captives as cargoes to supplement goods transported from Chesapeake

Journal of Social History vol. 47 no. 4 (2014), pp. 897–921
doi:10.1093/jsh/shu029
© The Author 2014. Published by Oxford University Press. All rights reserved.
For permissions, please e-mail: journals.permissions@oup.com.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:57:43 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

ports to New Orleans. As the coastal slave trade developed, passage by passage and soul by soul, it was nearly seamlessly integrated into a larger commercial network, relying on an international chain of credit and a domestic exchange of debt instruments. The economic geography of slavery's transportation and finance illuminates the contours of capitalism in the early republic.[1]

In some key respects the U.S. maritime slave trade was a continuation of a process of Atlantic capitalist development responsible for the configurations of the eighteenth-century transatlantic slave trade. Using shipping and financial records, this research draws on methods and modes of analysis that historians such as Robert Harms, Joseph C. Miller, and Marcus Rediker have used to illuminate connections between slavery and capitalism. A pernicious and destructive commerce in human beings relied on the most advanced commercial and transportation technologies available, which in turn supported the rise of Great Britain as a world financial and industrial power. That transatlantic context also highlights contrasts with the U.S. domestic slave trade, all of which illustrate the shape of that commerce between 1807 and mid-century, when steam power began to supersede sail and robust expansion changed both the configuration and stakes of interstate slaving.[2]

Slave trading in North America has received much scholarly attention, and historians have productively emphasized market development and captives' mobility. This approach uses particular vessels and firms to explore those broad connections through the business of domestic saltwater slaving. The four stages of that process reflect the changing landscape – or seascape – of American capitalist development. Changes over time in the maritime domestic slave trade have received little focused attention and no categorization. Notable scholarship using shipping records includes Jonathan B. Pritchett and Herman Freudenberger's studies of demographics of captives themselves, Ralph Clayton's survey of the Baltimore-to-New Orleans slave trade, and Richard McMillan's focus on the maritime trade outside of the Chesapeake. Historians of the U.S. domestic slave trade such as Steven Deyle, Robert Gudmestad, and David Lightner have argued that the interstate slave trade was central to the political, social, and economic integration of the American South and that slaving united Americans economically even as it divided them politically. Scholars investigating transatlantic connections between U.S. enslavers and British or European merchants, bankers, and industrialists, such as Edward E. Baptist, Walter Johnson, and Jessica Lepler, have done so via transatlantic cotton markets and credit chains. This research situates the maritime slave trade in those broader discourses with particular attention to context. Commerce in people is generally known as a slave trade, but slaves were made and not merely traded. I follow scholars of maritime slaving elsewhere and designate as captives bondspersons subject to commercial transport at sea. A typical enslaved American had a network of family and neighborhood ties, and many developed "status without rights," as Laura F. Edwards adroitly phrases it. Slaving severed those ties and saltwater slaving isolated or re-isolated captives whom enslavers treated as cargoes.[3]

In the early decades of the nineteenth century, shippers treated individual captives or small consignments of bondspersons as incidental cargoes not unlike specie, which took up little space but required increased security. Such practices had thrived for centuries. Ships plying a trade from the Philippines to New Spain carried captives in that way in the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries, for

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:57:43 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.44 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Schermerhorn, Calvin. "Capitalism's Captives: The Maritime United States Slave Trade, 1807-1850." *Journal of Social History* 47, no. 4 (2014): 897–921. https://www.jstor.org/stable/43308821.

Footnote citation

Calvin Schermerhorn, "Capitalism's Captives: The Maritime United States Slave Trade, 1807-1850," *Journal of Social History* 47, no. 4 (2014): 897–898, https://www.jstor.org/stable/43308821.

Shortened citation

Schermerhorn, "Capitalism's Captives," 897–898.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 897-898. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Calvin Schermerhorn - Capitalism's Captives — The Maritime United States Slave Trade, 1807-1850.pdf
SHA-256	7e2e4c3bd03568229062b6c21946334776478888f8ef22b6d220131d7f6cd6b61
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/43308821

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.45 - Women's Perspective on the Patriarchy in the 1850s

Anne Firor Scott

ARTICLE	Women's Perspective on the Patriarchy in the 1850s
JOURNAL	The Journal of American History 61, no. 1 (1974)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 52-53
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/1918253

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 52-53

Women's Perspective on the Patriarchy in the 1850s

ANNE FIROR SCOTT

SOUTHERN women were scarcely to be seen in the political crisis of the 1850s. Historical works dealing with that crucial decade seldom mention a woman unless it is in a footnote citing a significant letter from a male correspondent. In women's own diaries and letters the burgeoning conflict between the North and South almost never inspired comment before John Brown's raid and rarely even then.

At the same time, women were a crucial part of one southern response to the mounting outside attack on slavery. The response was an ever more vehement elaboration of what has been called the "domestic metaphor," the image of a beautifully articulated, patriarchal society in which every southerner, black or white, male or female, rich or poor, had an appropriate place and was happy in it. "The negro slaves of the South are the happiest, and, in some sense, the freest people in the world," George Fitzhugh wrote, describing the happy plantation on which none were oppressed by care.[1] "Public opinion," he stoutly maintained, "unites with self-interest, domestic affection, and municipal law to protect the slave. The man who maltreats the weak and dependent, who abuses his authority over wife, children, or slaves is universally detested." Slavery, Fitzhugh thought, was an admirable educational system as well as an ideal society.[2]

What Fitzhugh argued in theory many planters tried to make come true in real life. "My people" or "my black and white family" were phrases that rolled easily from their tongues and pens. "I am friend and well wisher both for time and eternity to every one of them . . ." a North Carolinian wrote to his slave overseer upon the death of a slave, expressing

Anne Firor Scott is professor of history in Duke University.

[1] George Fitzhugh, *Cannibals All! or Slaves Without Masters* (Cambridge, Mass., 1960), 18.
[2] *Ibid.*, 25.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 02:04:31 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

sorrow that he could not be present for the funeral.[3] This letter was one in a series of fatherly letters to that particular slave, and the writer, a bachelor, offered similar fatherly guidance to his grown sisters, as he doled out their money to them.

Even as planters tried to make the dream come true, they could not hide their fear and doubt. "It gave me much pleasure to see so much interest manifested," one wrote his wife, reporting that the slaves had inquired about her health and welfare, "and I am convinced that much of it was sincere."[4] Quick panic followed rumors of insurrection, and when the war came many planters took the precaution of moving their slaves as Yankee armies approached. For those who enjoy poetic justice there is plenty to be found in the pained comments of loving patriarchs when their most pampered house servants were the first to depart for Yankee camps.

Women, like slaves, were an intrinsic part of the patriarchal dream. If plantation ladies did not support, sustain, and idealize the patriarch, if they did not believe in and help create the happy plantation, which no rational slave would exchange for the jungle of a free society, who would? If women, consciously or unconsciously, undermined the image designed to convince the doubting world that the abolitionists were all wrong, what then?

Some southern men had doubts about women as well as slaves. This is clear in the nearly paranoid reaction of some of them to the pronouncements and behavior of "strong-minded" women in the North. Southern gentlemen hoped very much that no southern lady would think well of such goings-on, but clearly they were not certain.[5] Their fears had some foundation, for in the privacy of their own rooms southern matrons were reading Margaret Fuller, Madame de Stael, and what one of them described as "decided women's rights novels."[6]

Unlike the slaves, southern women did not threaten open revolt, and when the war came they did not run to the Yankees. Instead they were supportive, as they worked to feed and clothe civilians and the army, nurse the sick, run the plantations, supervise the slaves, and pray for victory. Yet

[3] William Pettigrew to Mose, July 12, 1856, Pettigrew Family Papers, (Southern Historical Collection, University of North Carolina).

[4] Charles Pettigrew to Caroline Pettigrew, Oct. 18, 1857, *ibid.*

[5] Anne Firor Scott, *The Southern Lady: From Pedestal to Politics 1830-1930* (Chicago, 1970), 20-21.

[6] *Corinne*, Madame de Stael's famous feminist novel, appeared often in lists of books read by southern women. Even Mary Wollstonecraft was not entirely unknown in the South. See William R. Taylor, *Cavalier and Yankee: The Old South and the American National Character* (New York, 1961), 162-67, for discussion of a pervasive malaise among antebellum southern women.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 02:04:31 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.45 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Scott, Anne Firor. "Women's Perspective on the Patriarchy in the 1850s." *The Journal of American History* 61, no. 1 (1974): 52–64. https://www.jstor.org/stable/1918253.

Footnote citation

Anne Firor Scott, "Women's Perspective on the Patriarchy in the 1850s," *The Journal of American History* 61, no. 1 (1974): 52–53, https://www.jstor.org/stable/1918253.

Shortened citation

Scott, "Women's Perspective," 52–53.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 52-53. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Anne Firor Scott - Women's Perspective on the Patriarchy in the 1850s.pdf
SHA-256	466fc27b0900591df725b68a752cc16b50fbcd474481eaf86346aae86d773172
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/1918253

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.46 - Race, Class, Slavery, and the Antebellum Southern Mind

Robert E. Shalhope

ARTICLE	Race, Class, Slavery, and the Antebellum Southern Mind
JOURNAL	The Journal of Southern History 37, no. 4 (1971)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 557-558
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2206546

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 557-558

Race, Class, Slavery, and the Antebellum Southern Mind

By Robert E. Shalhope

In an essay written over a decade ago David Donald suggested that Civil War historiography was dead.[1] No longer did scholars fight the battles of causation. One could certainly not make such an observation today. The work of William R. Taylor, Stanley M. Elkins, John L. Thomas, James M. McPherson, Charles G. Sellers, Kenneth M. Stampp, William H. Freehling, Eugene D. Genovese, and a host of others bears witness that if Civil War historiography ever died it certainly has enjoyed a lively resurrection.

Since the historical literature of the last decade is largely composed of articles and monographs which lack the grand scope of the writings of Edward Channing, Ulrich B. Phillips, Avery O. Craven, James G. Randall, and James Ford Rhodes, it might conceivably be criticized for lacking cohesion. However, James M. McPherson in a review essay notes an emerging consensus in the recent scholarship.[2] He believes that once again historians consider slavery to be the basic source of the tension that led to war. He is quick to note, however, that he does not accept Rhodes's simple assertion that slavery was the "single cause" of the war. Instead, McPherson considers the recent attempts to interpret that institution as far more sophisticated efforts to deal with the social and economic complexities of slavery as well as with its vast political and moral consequences.

While there can be little disagreement with McPherson regarding the emergence of this consensus, it should be noted, as he does, that historians still lack a full comprehension both of the social psychology and the political economy of slavery in American society. Thus, while there is general accord that slavery is basic to an understanding of the coming of the war, there is

[1] Donald, "American Historians and the Causes of the Civil War," *South Atlantic Quarterly*, LIX (Summer 1960), 351–55.

[2] McPherson, "Slavery and Race," *Perspectives in American History*, III (1969), 460–73.

Mr. Shalhope is assistant professor of history at the University of Oklahoma.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:01:12 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

no agreement as to exactly how to interpret that institution's effect upon antebellum society. Not only is there disagreement, but at times separate interpretations appear to be working at cross-purposes. This conflict in analysis is best illustrated by noting two of the most prominent strands of thought in the newly emerging consensus. The first, emanating from the work of Eugene D. Genovese, holds that the South was a unique, prebourgeois society fundamentally different from the North. The basis of this society was slavery. Genovese contends that "slavery gave the South a social system and a civilization with a distinct class structure, political community, economy, ideology, and set of psychological patterns and that, as a result, the South increasingly grew away from the rest of the nation and from the rapidly developing sections of the world."[3] He portrays an essentially monolithic commitment on the part of southerners to slavery, since to defend that institution was to defend their way of life. To the planters "slaves were a source of power, pride and prestige, a duty and a responsibility, a privilege and a trust; slavery was the foundation of a special civilization imprinted with their own character." The concluding sentence in *The Political Economy of Slavery* indicates the consequences of Genovese's interpretation for the coming of the Civil War: "When the slaveholders rose in insurrection, they knew what they were about: in the fullest sense, they were fighting for their lives."[4] Thus, secession becomes the reasoned, logical outcome of the planters' thought. Not to secede would have been to surrender their whole way of life, which they considered to be the last great hope for Western civilization.

The second prominent interpretation—described by McPherson as the "Cash-Sellers thesis"—is diametrically opposed to that of Genovese. In an essay, "The Travail of Slavery," Charles G. Sellers, Jr.—building upon a foundation constructed by Wilbur J. Cash—considered southerners to be both ambivalent and guilt ridden with respect to slavery.[5] He maintained that "No picture

[3] Genovese, *The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy & Society of the Slave South* (New York, 1965), 3.

[4] *Ibid.*, 270.

[5] Sellers, "The Travail of Slavery," in Sellers, ed., *The Southerner as American* (Chapel Hill, 1960), 40–71; Cash, *The Mind of the South* (New York, 1941). The term "Cash-Sellers interpretation" as used throughout this essay connotes a manner of viewing the Old South accepted by a good number of historians other than Charles Sellers and Wilbur Cash. For an excellent review of this interpretation see McPherson, "Slavery and Race."

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:01:12 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.46 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Shalhope, Robert E. "Race, Class, Slavery, and the Antebellum Southern Mind." *The Journal of Southern History* 37, no. 4 (1971): 557–574. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2206546.

Footnote citation

Robert E. Shalhope, "Race, Class, Slavery, and the Antebellum Southern Mind," *The Journal of Southern History* 37, no. 4 (1971): 557–558, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2206546.

Shortened citation

Shalhope, "Race, Class, Slavery," 557–558.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 557-558. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Robert E. Shalhope - Race, Class, Slavery, and the Antebellum Southern Mind.pdf
SHA-256	5e65511890e68e5fce359f2929b81cd3852c3bafd4f04c46f410ef2d5aca41fc
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2206546

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.47 - Plausible Stories and Varnished Truths

James Sidbury

ARTICLE	Plausible Stories and Varnished Truths
JOURNAL	The William and Mary Quarterly 59, no. 1 (2002)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 179-180
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3491648

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 179-180

Plausible Stories and Varnished Truths

James Sidbury

MICHAEL P. Johnson's essay can be read as a powerful indictment of more than the specific books that he set out to review or even of the broad scope of scholarship on the Denmark Vesey Conspiracy.[1] He painstakingly reconstructs the history of the sources that tell all that we know about Vesey while asserting that most historians who have written about Vesey have eschewed such a reconstruction in favor of the "more convenient printed testimony" (p. 920). This raises important questions about the role of faith in scholarly research. He convincingly if implicitly argues that the political predispositions of those writing about Vesey have contributed to a collective disinclination to question the reliability of even the most troublesome sources so long as those sources told the right story. This point is unlikely to apply only to the scholarship on Vesey. He details an extensive pattern of what we today might call prosecutorial misconduct in order to explode the notion that the testimony given in the conspiracy inquiries might be considered the "unvarnished truth" (p. 953). His demonstration that one cannot credibly believe that witnesses "told the truth, the whole truth, and nothing but the truth" (p. 949) because "the court's power inflected every word that appeared in the transcripts" (p. 942) applies to differing extents to all court testimony. In each of these cases Johnson's work suggests that for all of our current supposed sophistication regarding the complexities of textual production and consumption, too many of us hesitate to perform the tedious traditional practices of source criticism that are the hallmark of good historical work. All of this would probably stand as an uncontroversial call for greater scholarly caution were it not for the conclusions that he reaches: that the Denmark Vesey Conspiracy was, in fact, a conspiracy against Vesey rather than one led by him and that the seemingly rich window that the trial records open on enslaved Americans' desire for freedom is actually a mirror reflecting white paranoia rather than revealing black activism.

James Sidbury teaches history at the University of Texas. He wishes to thank Catherine Molineux and Robert Olwell for reading an early draft of this response.

[1] Johnson, "Denmark Vesey and His Co-Conspirators," *William and Mary Quarterly,* 3d Ser., 58 (2001), 915–76 (references to the article are in parentheses in the text).

William and Mary Quarterly, 3d Series, Volume LIX, Number 1, January 2002

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:03:39 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

Johnson's commitment to restoring the integrity of the Vesey records produces utterly convincing results. His catalogue of errors in Edward Pearson's transcription and arrangement of the trial records appears to be devastating, both to the book itself and to less diligent reviewers, like me, who failed to subject it to so rigorous an examination.[2] It is worth noting, however, that even after his forthcoming edition of the transcripts appears, only those with easy access to the archives in Columbia or to the funds necessary to travel there will be able to make independent judgments about which version of the record is superior. Most may not find that a difficult call to make in this case, but it does serve as a cautionary reminder of the dark side of one of the recent boons to scholarship: the rapid proliferation of primary sources in print and, especially, on the Internet. There are, for example, numerous recent editions of *The Interesting Narrative of the Life of Olaudah Equiano or Gustavus Vassa the African,* and significant substantive differences exist among them.[3] Anyone working extensively with Equiano's narrative is, of course, responsible for doing the work necessary to determine which edition should be used, but historians make occasional use of far too many sources to subject each to such intensive inquiry. Johnson's essay underscores the degree to which we operate on faith and the dangers that we court in doing so. Those dangers can only grow exponentially with the rich but largely unpoliced explosion of scanned source material that has been posted on the world wide web.

The danger that scholars' political preferences will blind them to problems with sources that say what they want to hear is, like that of the integrity of edited documents, an old problem on which Johnson's essay casts particularly harsh and productive light, for the stakes in the misreadings that Johnson highlights are far smaller than they might at first appear. Even if one could prove the Vesey Conspiracy to have been a pure hoax, there is little danger that historians will revert to a "Gone with the Wind" view of happy slaves and benevolent masters. The evidence that slaves fought slavery and sought freedom is simply too pervasive for heroic rebels to be as important to our understanding of slavery

[2] James Sidbury, review of Edward A. Pearson, *Designs against Charleston: The Trial Record of the Denmark Vesey Slave Conspiracy of 1822* (Chapel Hill, 1999), in *Journal of the Early Republic,* 19 (1999), 559–61.

[3] Among the most prominent are Vincent Carretta, ed., *The Interesting Narrative and Other Writings* (New York, 1995); Paul Geoffrey Edwards, ed., *Equiano's Travels: His Autobiography, The Interesting Narrative of the Life of Olaudah Equiano or Gustavus Vassa the African* (Oxford, 1996); Henry Louis Gates Jr., ed., *The Classic Slave Narratives* (New York, 1987); Robert J. Allison, ed., *The Interesting Narrative of the Life of Olaudah Equiano* (Boston, 2000); and Werner Sollers, ed., *The Interesting Narrative of the Life of Olaudah Equiano* (New York, 2000). Compare Carretta's edition, which is the best, with those of Gates and Allison.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:03:39 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.47 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Sidbury, James. "Plausible Stories and Varnished Truths." *The William and Mary Quarterly* 59, no. 1 (2002): 179–184. https://www.jstor.org/stable/3491648.

Footnote citation

James Sidbury, "Plausible Stories and Varnished Truths," *The William and Mary Quarterly* 59, no. 1 (2002): 179–180, https://www.jstor.org/stable/3491648.

Shortened citation

Sidbury, "Plausible Stories and Varnished Truths," 179–180.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 179-180. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	James Sidbury - Plausible Stories and Varnished Truths.pdf
SHA-256	2306b689dbf80427b9de61a5a67e8faa8efd9846568cd16a860bf797d7ec3386
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3491648

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.48 - Time, Slavery and Plantation Capitalism in the Ante-Bellum American South

Mark M. Smith

ARTICLE	Time, Slavery and Plantation Capitalism in the Ante-Bellum American South
JOURNAL	Past & Present, no. 150 (1996)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 142-143
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/651240

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 142-143

TIME, SLAVERY AND PLANTATION CAPITALISM IN THE ANTE-BELLUM AMERICAN SOUTH*

INTRODUCTION

In so far as they have considered the matter at all, historians of the American slave South have usually characterized southerners' attitudes towards time as premodern. By most accounts, ante-bellum southerners, black and white, considered nature's rhythms, not the clock, the legitimate arbiters of work and social organization. In his seminal study *Roll, Jordan, Roll*, Eugene Genovese explained why:

> The planters' problem came to this: . . . How could they instill factorylike discipline into a working population engaged in a rural system that, for all its tendencies toward modern discipline, remained bound to the rhythms of nature and to traditional ideas of work, time, and leisure? . . . The slaves could and did work hard, as their African ancestors had before them . . . But they resisted that regularity and routine which became the *sine qua non* for industrial society and which the planters, despite their own rejection of so much of the bourgeois work ethic, tried to impose upon them.

Yet if slave-holders did attempt to instil a "factorylike" time-discipline in their bondpeople, and if slaves did manage to resist clock-time regularity and routine, Genovese and those who have

* Two stints as an Andrew W. Mellon Research Fellow at the Virginia Historical Society, Richmond, and generous financial assistance from the Graduate Council of the University of South Carolina, Columbia, helped in the research, formulation and completion of this article. Without in any way implicating them in the views expressed herein, I should like to thank the following for their kind and critical reading of this essay and of the larger work from which it is drawn: Alexander X. Byrd, Stanley Engerman, Thavolia Glymph, Dean Kinzley, A. G. Miles, John Oldfield, Jennifer Ring, Robert M. Weir and Clyde N. Wilson. Their gracious criticisms and hard questions did much to improve the final version. Special thanks are due to Eugene D. Genovese and Lacy K. Ford, Jr, who have remained steadfastly supportive, if not always persuaded, of this project. Mechal Sobel and Charles Joyner provided helpful comments on aspects of this paper at the annual meeting of the Southern Historical Association in Louisville, Kentucky, in November 1994. I should also like to thank Tony Badger for the invitation to present a slightly different version of this essay to the American History Research Seminar at Sidney Sussex College, Cambridge, on 6 February 1995.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:58:48 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

accepted his interpretation have declined to document how and why.[1]

Partly in answer to Genovese's question, and partly in rebuttal of his interpretation, this article documents the emergence of a clock-dependent time-consciousness in the slave South during and after the 1830s. It contends that the application of clocks and watches to plantation slave labour reveals the stirring of a capitalistic impulse among ante-bellum southern masters. Contrary to the widely held assumption that the slave mode of production and its dependence on agricultural seasons necessarily fostered a predominantly natural (and hence precapitalist) time-awareness among southern masters, the following analysis of planters' application of the mechanical timepiece to plantation labour not only shows that slave-holders managed to introduce the clock and watch to the field, but suggests that the strategies such an introduction demanded made them think and act like clock-conscious capitalists. In rendering their slaves extremely sensitive to (and obedient of) clock-time, ante-bellum southern masters succeeded in regulating slave work-times and work-rates by the clock, and in effect produced a time-based form of plantation capitalism that has remained overlooked by historians of the old South. This argument also has implications for the historical

[1] Quotation from Eugene D. Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made*, 2nd edn (New York, 1976), pp. 286, 309. He quotes two pieces of slave testimony and very little supporting evidence to justify this rather sweeping conclusion: *ibid.*, p. 730 n. 17. Of course, any summary of Genovese's rich and complex work risks over-simplification, and one is best off consulting Genovese himself rather than his interpreters. Recommended in this context are E. D. Genovese, "Marxian Interpretations of the Slave South", in Barton J. Bernstein (ed.), *Towards a New Past: Dissenting Essays in American History* (New York, 1968), pp. 90-126; E. D. Genovese, *The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South* (Middletown, Conn., 1961); E. D. Genovese and Elizabeth Fox-Genovese, *Fruits of Merchant Capital: Slavery and Bourgeois Property in the Rise and Expansion of Capitalism* (New York, 1983). Among those historians stressing the modern, capitalist nature of the slave South, the position is stated most clearly and convincingly by Robert Fogel and Stanley Engerman, *Time on the Cross: The Economics of American Negro Slavery*, 2 vols. (Boston, 1976), esp. i, pp. 202-9; James Oakes, *The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders* (New York, 1983). It should be noted that Fogel and Engerman insist that southern slaves developed what amounted to a Protestant work ethic without considering the question of planters' or slaves' conceptions of time. The only historians who have examined southern time-sensibilities have done so for the colonial period, where they correctly discern a natural time-awareness among black and white southerners: Mechal Sobel, *The World They Made Together: Black and White Values in Eighteenth-Century Virginia* (Princeton, 1987), pp. 15-64; Rhys Isaac, *The Transformation of Virginia, 1740-1790* (New York, 1982), pp. 77-8, 84-5.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:58:48 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.48 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Smith, Mark M. "Time, Slavery and Plantation Capitalism in the Ante-Bellum American South." *Past & Present*, no. 150 (1996): 142–168. https://www.jstor.org/stable/651240.

Footnote citation

Mark M. Smith, "Time, Slavery and Plantation Capitalism in the Ante-Bellum American South," *Past & Present*, no. 150 (1996): 142–143, https://www.jstor.org/stable/651240.

Shortened citation

Smith, "Time, Slavery and Plantation," 142–143.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 142-143. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Mark M. Smith - Time, Slavery and Plantation Capitalism in the Ante-Bellum American South.pdf
SHA-256	ee151e0cbb88cd11b35dbec5ea1e383a8ae672600fefd15b2c0e29051737b18c
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/651240

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.49 - Suicide, Slavery, and Memory in North America

Terri L. Snyder

ARTICLE	Suicide, Slavery, and Memory in North America
JOURNAL	The Journal of American History 97, no. 1 (2010)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 39-40
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/40662817

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 39-40

Suicide, Slavery, and Memory in North America

Terri L. Snyder

> Lots of slaves what was brung over from Africa could fly. There was a crowd of them working in the field. They don't like it here and they think they go back to Africa. One by one they fly up in the air and all fly off and gone back to Africa.
>
> —Jack Tattnall, Georgia Writers' Project interview, in Georgia Writers' Project, *Drums and Shadows: Survival Stories among the Georgia Coastal Negroes* (1940; Athens, Ga., 1986), 108.

When ex-slaves were interviewed by the Federal Writers' Project in the 1930s, the subject of suicide rarely surfaced.[1] Exceptions to this silence about slave self-destruction came from the particular region of the Georgia and South Carolina Sea Islands where ex-slaves and their children related stories, similar to Jack Tattnall's, of Africans who literally had the power to take flight to escape enslavement. The flying African folktale probably has its historical roots in an 1803 collective suicide by newly imported slaves. A group of Igbo (variously, Ebo or Igbo) captives who had survived the middle passage were sold near Savannah, Georgia, and reloaded onto a small ship bound for St. Simon's Island. Off the coast of the island, the enslaved cargo, who had "suffered much by mismanagement," "rose" from their confinement in the small vessel, and revolted against the crew, forcing them into the water where they drowned. After the ship ran aground, the Igbos "took to the marsh" and drowned themselves—an act that most scholars have understood as a deliberate, collective suicide. The site of their fatal immersion was named Ebos Landing.[2]

Terri L. Snyder is professor of American studies at California State University, Fullerton. The author wishes to thank Vincent Brown, Kevin Dawson, Cornelia Hughes Dayton, Edward T. Linenthal, Mark M. Smith, Jordan Y. Taylor, Sharon E. Wood, and the anonymous readers for the *JAH* for their perceptive commentary and helpful contributions. She also is grateful to the staff of the *JAH,* especially Stephen Douglas Andrews, Sarah B. Rowley, and Cynthia Gwynne Yaudes, for their assistance in shepherding this article through the publication process. Support for researching and writing this article was provided by a National Endowment for the Humanities Fellowship and a faculty research grant from California State University, Fullerton.

Readers may contact Snyder at snyder@exchange.fullerton.edu.

[1] Interviews with African American informants in the 1930s were often rendered in "negro dialect," which, as Rhys Isaac has pointed out, used spelling conventions that were developed for minstrel shows. Following the example of Isaac and others, I have regularized spelling without changing the syntax or the idiom of the informants' interviews. See Rhys Isaac, *Landon Carter's Uneasy Kingdom: Revolution and Rebellion on a Virginia Plantation* (New York, 2004), 193; and Timothy B. Powell, "Summoning the Ancestors: The Flying Africans' Story and Its Enduring Legacy," in *African American Life in the Georgia Lowcountry: The Atlantic World and the Gullah Geechee,* ed. Philip Morgan (Athens, Ga., 2010), 259–62. For the list of questions used by the Federal Writers' Project interviewers, see Charles L. Perdue Jr., Thomas E. Barden, and Robert K. Phillips, *Weevils in the Wheat: Interviews with Virginia Ex-slaves* (Bloomington, 1976), 367–76.

[2] William Mein to Pierce Butler, May 24, 1803, folder 27, box 6, Series II: Plantation Management, Miscellaneous Correspondence 1802–1803, Butler Family Papers (Historical Society of Pennsylvania, Philadelphia). On

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:03:33 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

The fate of those Igbo in 1803 gave rise to a distinctive regional folklore and a place name, but both individual and collective suicide were also part of the general history of North American slavery. From the start of the transatlantic slave trade, mariners, merchants, and masters exchanged reports of slave suicide along with their human traffic, and they noted alarmingly that captive Africans often responded to enslavement by destroying themselves. Some ship captains kept account of their cargo losses for investors and insurers; one study of surgeons' logs for the period 1792–1796 reveals that 7.2 percent of captive Africans killed themselves at some point during capture, embarkation, or along the middle passage. Particularly at loading points on the African coast and aboard ships during the middle passage, captive Africans' self-destruction was common enough to warrant the use of the earliest technologies for suicide prevention. Nets were strung on the decks of slave ships to forestall any captives who might leap to their deaths and the *speculum oris* was used to forcibly feed those who chose to starve themselves. While work by Michael Gomez and, more recently, Marcus Rediker and Eric Robert Taylor has underscored the frequency of suicide among captive Africans during the early stages of the transatlantic trade, little attention has been given to the meanings of self-destruction among newly imported slaves after disembarkation or among seasoned and former slaves born in colonial North America and, later, the United States.[3]

Self-destruction in the context of North American slavery has been overlooked, in part, because of the problematic nature of all evidence for suicide. We simply cannot know how many enslaved persons—or even free people—chose suicide in early modern America. Because no systematic public accounting of deaths was undertaken when slaves were domestically dispersed, traded, and resold on the North American mainland, suicide figures for disembarkation are difficult to ascertain. Naval office shipping lists from the colonial period provide the numbers of slaves who died within forty days of arrival at American ports, but they do not give reasons for the deaths. Because surviving North American plantation records are essentially private documents, they also do not systematically account for the causes of slave deaths. The incidence of suicide under the slave

Ebos Landing, see Michael A. Gomez, *Exchanging Our Country Marks: The Transformation of African Identities in the Colonial and Antebellum South* (Chapel Hill, 1998), 117–18; Powell, "Summoning the Ancestors," 253–80; Timothy B. Powell, "Ebos Landing," June 15, 2004, *New Georgia Encyclopedia,* http://www.georgiaencyclopedia.org/nge/Article.jsp?id=h-2895&hl=y; and Malcolm Bell Jr., *Major Butler's Legacy: Five Generations of a Slaveholding Family* (Athens, Ga., 1987), 131–32.

[3] See Gomez, *Exchanging Our Country Marks,* 116–31; Marcus Rediker, *The Slave Ship: A Human History* (New York, 2007); and Eric Robert Taylor, *If We Must Die: Shipboard Insurrections in the Era of the Atlantic Slave Trade* (Baton Rouge, 2006). David Eltis, *The Rise of African Slavery in America* (Cambridge, Eng., 1999), 157n73. The earliest sustained consideration of suicide among Africans who were forcibly transported to the Americas is William D. Pierson, "White Cannibals, Black Martyrs: Fear, Depression, and Religious Faith as Causes of Suicide among New Slaves," *Journal of Negro History,* 62 (April 1977), 147–59. On slave suicide among newly imported Africans, see Stephanie E. Smallwood, *Saltwater Slavery: A Middle Passage from Africa to American Diaspora* (Cambridge, Mass., 2007); John Thornton, "Cannibals, Witches, and Slave Traders in the Atlantic World," *William and Mary Quarterly,* 60 (April 2003), 273–94; Alex Bontemps, *The Punished Self: Surviving Slavery in the Colonial South* (Ithaca, 2001); and Orlando Patterson, *Slavery and Social Death: A Comparative Study* (Cambridge, Mass., 1982). On suicide in the colonies and the early United States, see Daniel E. Walker, "Suicidal Tendencies: African Transmigration in the History and Folklore of the Americas," *Griot,* 18 (Spring 1999), 10–18; Vincent Brown, *The Reaper's Garden: Death and Power in the World of Atlantic Slavery* (Cambridge, Mass., 2008); Terri L. Snyder, "What Historians Talk about When They Talk about Suicide: The View from Early Modern British North America," *History Compass,* 5 (March 2007), 658–74. Donna Merwick, *Death of a Notary: Conquest and Change in Colonial New York* (Ithaca, 1999); Howard I. Kushner, *Self-Destruction in the Promised Land: A Psychocultural Biology of American Suicide* (New Brunswick, 1989); Richard Bell, "The Double Guilt of Dueling: The Stain of Suicide in Antidueling Rhetoric in the Early Republic," *Journal of the Early Republic,* 29 (Fall 2009), 383–410; and Richard James Bell, "Do Not Despair: The Cultural Significance of Suicide in America, 1780–1840" (Ph.D. diss., Harvard University, 2006).

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:03:33 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.49 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Snyder, Terri L. "Suicide, Slavery, and Memory in North America." *The Journal of American History* 97, no. 1 (2010): 39–62. https://www.jstor.org/stable/40662817.

Footnote citation

Terri L. Snyder, "Suicide, Slavery, and Memory in North America," *The Journal of American History* 97, no. 1 (2010): 39–40, https://www.jstor.org/stable/40662817.

Shortened citation

Snyder, "Suicide, Slavery, and Memory," 39–40.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 39-40. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Terri L. Snyder - Suicide, Slavery, and Memory in North America.pdf
SHA-256	2a389d7809a949c67241106d73f182f8b8dc487833bf9b3e4f805722665b8352
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/40662817

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.50 - The Economics of Industrial Slavery in the Old South

Robert S. Starobin

ARTICLE	The Economics of Industrial Slavery in the Old South
JOURNAL	The Business History Review 44, no. 2 (1970)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 131-132
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3112351

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 131-132

By Robert S. Starobin
ASSISTANT PROFESSOR OF HISTORY
UNIVERSITY OF WISCONSIN, MADISON

The Economics of Industrial Slavery In the Old South

¶ *The economics of slavery in the United States has long been a subject of great interest to historians, but the use of bondsmen in southern industries has been little studied. Professor Starobin not only provides new information on industrial slavery, but also offers important conclusions concerning the profitability, efficiency, and viability of this "peculiar institution."*

From the pre-Civil War period until the present day, historians and economists have offered theories and evidence regarding the extent and profitability of southern plantation slavery.[1] After all, if slavery was not economically viable, would not slaveholders have abandoned their "peculiar institution?" Was a bloody civil war necessary if slavery was dying of its own weight? Obviously, the moral question of chattel slavery far transcends economics. But since economic arguments were so prominent in the slavery controversy, then and now, objective analyses of their form, substance, and verity are worthwhile.

Curiously, and despite its political and social significance, scholars have devoted little attention to either the extent to which slave labor was employed in industries in the Old South or to the economic feasibility of such employment. This article is the core of a larger study intended to pose and explore these questions.[2]

The Extent of Industrial Slavery

Southern industry's most distinctive aspect was its wide and intensive use of slave labor. In the 1850's, for example, 160,000 to

Business History Review, Vol. XLIV, No. 2 (Summer, 1970). Copyright © The President and Fellows of Harvard College.

[1] H. D. Woodman, "The Profitability of Slavery," *Journal of Southern History*, XXIX (1963), 303–325; S. L. Engerman, "The Effects of Slavery Upon the Southern Economy," *Explorations in Entrepreneurial History*," second series, IV (1967), 71–97.

[2] See *Industrial Slavery in the Old South* (New York, Oxford University Press, 1970), which is based on my doctoral dissertation of the same title, done at the University of California, Berkeley, in 1968. These works contain a full discussion of the use of slaves in southern industries, 1790–1861; working and living conditions; black resistance to bondage and work routines; means of control of slave workers; relations between black and white laborers; and the political relationship of slave-based industrialization to the coming of the Civil War.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Thu, 15 Oct 2026 06:13:49 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

200,000 – about 5 per cent of the total slave population – worked in industry. About four-fifths of these industrial slaves were directly owned by industrial entrepreneurs; the rest were rented by employers from their masters by the month or year. Most were men, but many were women and children. They lived in rural, small-town or plantation settings, where most southern industry was located, not in large cities, where only about 20 per cent of the urban slaves were industrially employed.[3]

Many southern textile mills employed either slave labor or combined both bondsmen and free workers in the same mill, contradicting the myth that southern textile manufacturing was the sole domain of native poor whites. The manufacture of iron was also heavily dependent on slave labor, and southern tobacco factories employed slave labor almost exclusively. Slave labor was crucial to hemp manufacturing, and most secondary manufacturing – shoe factories, tanneries, bakeries, paper-makers, printing establishments, and brickmakers – used bondsmen extensively. Sugar refining, rice milling, and grist-milling together employed about 30,000 slaves. At ports and river towns, slaves operated mammoth cotton presses to recompress cotton bales for overseas shipment.

The southern coal and iron mining industry was greatly dependent upon slave labor, gold was mined throughout the Piedmont and Appalachian regions largely with slaves, and lead mining employed many bondsmen. Salt was produced with slave labor; slaves were used to log the pine, cypress, and live-oak in the swamps and forests from Texas to Virginia; and the turpentine extraction and distillation industry was entirely dependent upon slave labor. Southern internal improvements enterprises were so dependent upon slave labor that virtually all southern railroads, except for a few border-state lines, were built either by slave-employing contractors or by company-owned or hired bondsmen. Most southern canals

[3] This figure has been computed from tables on urban slave population in 1850 in Richard Wade, *Slavery in the Cities* (New York, 1964), 30 and appendix; J.D.B. De Bow, *Statistical View of the United States . . . Being a Compendium of the Seventh Census* (Washington, 1850), 94, estimated that about 400,000 slaves lived in southern cities and towns in 1850, while Kenneth Stampp, *The Peculiar Institution* (New York, 1956), 60, estimates that the *total* city, town, and non-agricultural slave population was about 500,000 in 1860. If two-thirds of the *male* population of towns *and* cities was engaged in industrial enterprises and occupations, then the 160,000 to 200,000, or 5 per cent, figure seems approximately correct for the years 1850 to 1860. See tables in my dissertation for some large slaveholdings by deep-South industries. For further estimates, see J. C. Sitterson, *Sugar Country* (Lexington, 1953); J. F. Hopkins, *A History of the Hemp Industry in Kentucky* (Lexington, 1951); J. C. Robert, *Tobacco Kingdom* (Durham, 1938); C. Eaton, *Growth of Southern Civilization* (New York, 1961), 64–65, 134–35, 99–101, and ch. 10; K. Bruce, *Virginia Iron Manufacture in the Slave Era* (New York, 1930); and S. Lebergott, "Labor Force and Employment, 1800–1860," National Bureau of Economic Research, *Output, Employment, and Productivity in the United States After 1800* (New York, 1966), XXX, 117–210.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Thu, 15 Oct 2026 06:13:49 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.50 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Starobin, Robert S. "The Economics of Industrial Slavery in the Old South." *The Business History Review* 44, no. 2 (1970): 131–174. https://www.jstor.org/stable/3112351.

Footnote citation

Robert S. Starobin, "The Economics of Industrial Slavery in the Old South," *The Business History Review* 44, no. 2 (1970): 131–132, https://www.jstor.org/stable/3112351.

Shortened citation

Starobin, "Economics of Industrial Slavery," 131–132.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 131-132. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Robert S. Starobin - The Economics of Industrial Slavery in the Old South.pdf
SHA-256	2d2de0fc35f8e6b72a02b2da186ecd7329844867c3fb053ed5cf287a64db2baa
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/3112351

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.51 - The Structure and Profitability of the Antebellum Rice Industry: 1859

Dale E. Swan

ARTICLE	The Structure and Profitability of the Antebellum Rice Industry: 1859
JOURNAL	The Journal of Economic History 33, no. 1 (1973)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 321-322
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2117166

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 321-322

The Structure and Profitability of the Antebellum Rice Industry: 1859

The structure and progress of the antebellum southern economy influenced both the direction and rate of nineteenth-century economic growth. The existence of slavery and plantation organization in the South has had even farther-reaching social and political ramifications. To thoroughly understand these several influences it seems important to obtain a detailed picture of the variety of antebellum southern economic experience. Yet, most of the quantitative research into the economic history of the antebellum South has been limited to studying, in relatively aggregate terms, the structure, profitability, and development of the cotton economy. There remains the task of examining in detail agricultural organization in those corners of the picture made up of sub-regions, largely specializing in the production of other staple crops—specifically, tobacco, rice and sugar.

This dissertation begins to fill in one of these corners. It is an examination of a relatively homogeneous coastal region, consisting of ten counties in South Carolina and Georgia, that can be viewed as a sub-economy largely centered around the production and exportation of rice. For purposes of this summary I shall limit myself to a brief discussion of a few selected findings that seem to bear most directly on our understanding of overall southern agricultural organization and economic growth: (1) the distribution of estimated rates of return earned by rice producers; (2) economies of scale as a possible explanation for the high degree of concentration in rice production; (3) the degree of food self-sufficiency in the rice coast; and (4) slave breeding in the coastal tidelands region.

The investigation is based upon input and output data for a sample of 575 rice-producing farms drawn from the 1860 manuscript census. In addition, sample-wide estimates are made for commodity and slave prices, meat production coefficients, animal and slave maintenance costs, average depreciation charges, and free labor wage rates. The input-output data and sample-wide estimates are then used in a capital-value model to estimate internal rates of return for each farm. The model that is used views each farm as a seller of all its production, both final and intermediate factors, including those that it produces. The model assumes a constant (1859) input-output structure throughout the length of the investment. Inputs are kept constant by incurring maintenance expenditures equal to annual depreciation charges, and/or by selling annually any appreciation in capital resulting from the natural growth of the slave force. Finally, surplus slave sales are viewed as part of gross receipts in calculating rates of return.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:13 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

The estimates show that rice farming was, for most, an unprofitable venture by the eve of the Civil War. Roughly two thirds of the sample farms had estimated rates of return of less than six percent, the rate assumed to define the opportunity cost of capital. In fact, close to a third of the sample (mostly very small farms) were estimated to have had negative net receipts each year. This finding is not surprising. Contemporary reports clearly indicate that the South Carolina-Georgia rice economy was in serious decline during the decade of the 1850's. What is interesting is that our estimated rates of return are clearly correlated with the size of the production unit (in particular the volume of rice production), and this relationship goes a long way toward explaining the relatively great concentration that characterized antebellum rice culture.

If a rice plantation is defined as a farm producing at least 100,000 pounds of clean rice, then only a fifth of all rice-producing farms fall within this category, but they account for 96 percent of the region's 1859 rice crop. Only this group of plantations earned an average rate of return equal to or in excess of the opportunity cost of capital, and over seventy percent of plantations were at least that profitable, while nearly eighty percent of all smaller production units were experiencing either absolute losses or returns of less than six percent. Thus, rice plantations may have tended to be large, and the rice industry highly concentrated, simply because large production units tended to be more profitable.

There is limited evidence that large plantations were realizing higher rates of return because there were important economies of scale in the rice industry. The test for economies of scale is admittedly a simple one. All inputs, including labor, were capitalized and then the multiple increases in total value of inputs and output were compared when moving across farm size classes, grouped by value of total capital. The results suggest that, while decreasing returns characterized smaller farms with less than $20,000 of capital, production units having attained this size experienced at least constant returns and probably increasing returns to scale. Though these results must be considered tentative, they do nonetheless suggest that if plantation organization retarded the growth of this region, as others have suggested for the South as a whole, it must have been for reasons other than the static inefficiency of large scale organization.

In my investigation I have examined the role that the rice economy played in any interregional food and slave trade that may have taken place during the late antebellum period. It would appear, on the basis of Robert Gallman's work,[1] that if the South did provide an important market for western grain, the lower coastal South, which includes the rice coast, must have accounted for an important share of that demand. A comparison of the rice economy's production and requirements of grain

[1] Robert E. Gallman, "Self-Sufficiency in the Cotton Economy of the Antebellum South," in William N. Parker, ed., *The Structure of the Cotton Economy of the Antebellum South* (Washington: Agricultural History Society, 1970).

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:13 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.51 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Swan, Dale E. "The Structure and Profitability of the Antebellum Rice Industry: 1859." *The Journal of Economic History* 33, no. 1 (1973): 321–325. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2117166.

Footnote citation

Dale E. Swan, "The Structure and Profitability of the Antebellum Rice Industry: 1859," *The Journal of Economic History* 33, no. 1 (1973): 321–322, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2117166.

Shortened citation

Swan, "Structure and Profitability," 321–322.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 321-322. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Dale E. Swan - The Structure and Profitability of the Antebellum Rice Industry — 1859.pdf
SHA-256	3c53aef9571d8194a6fa558f21e9f9bf97bb42ca0bdb3ed1c579bc0931ac5fe5
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2117166

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.52 - Conflict and Collaboration: Yeomen, Slaveholders, and Politics in the Antebellum South

Harry L. Watson

ARTICLE	Conflict and Collaboration: Yeomen, Slaveholders, and Politics in the Antebellum South
JOURNAL	Social History 10, no. 3 (1985)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 273-274
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/4285456

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 273-274

Harry L. Watson

Conflict and collaboration: yeomen, slaveholders, and politics in the antebellum South*

INTRODUCTION

The antebellum history of the United States South opened in 1815, when General Andrew Jackson's victory over the British at the Battle of New Orleans secured his prior conquest of the southwestern Indians and opened the richest cotton country in the world to American settlement. In 1848, Jackson's political successors defeated Mexico, gained recognition for their annexation of Texas, and conquered an empire for liberty and slavery which could stretch to the Pacific. In the interval, King Cotton settled firmly on his throne and the United States fully occupied the territory which would later become the Confederacy. Jackson removed the Indians from the Old Southwest, white settlers surged after their lands, and Afro-Americans suffered a second diaspora. Profits from this inter-regional slave trade revitalized the economy of the declining Upper South. In the same period, whites crushed two major slave revolts, silenced local talk of a general emancipation, and began to defend slavery as a positive good. Acting alone at first, South Carolinians began to rehearse the arguments and the tactics that would culminate in secession three decades later. In the other states, hotly contested reforms extended voting rights to most white men and broadened representation in the legislatures, while a popular two-party system stimulated voter turnout to unprecedented levels. During the Jacksonian period, a unique and self-conscious civilization took shape throughout the South, and voters and politicians dedicated themselves to preserving it against all threats from an increasingly hostile world.

The society they fought to preserve was a complex structure of diverse castes and classes. In 1860, the future Confederacy contained some 9·1 million persons, of whom 3·4 million were slaves and 1·7 million were whites belonging to slaveholding families. About 3·8 million were non-slaveholding whites and the remainder were 'free persons of color'. In proportional terms, the South

* Numerous friends have contributed to this article by their generous criticisms and advice, but they are hardly responsible for what I have done with their suggestions. I would especially like to thank William Adams, Ira Berlin, Eric Foner, Richard L. McCormick, Jim Oakes, Margot Stein, Stanley Stein, and Mills Thornton.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Thu, 15 Oct 2026 06:19:06 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

contained 37·4 per cent slaves, 18·7 per cent slaveholding whites, and 41·8 per cent non-slaveholding whites.[1] Most of the white non-slaveholders were 'yeomen'. In contemporary parlance, that is, they were farmers and their families who owned their own land and depended almost exclusively on their own labors in cultivation. Writing in 1860, southern apologist Daniel R. Hundley identified the 'honest Southern Yeomen' as 'the industrious poor whites of the South' and sharply distinguished them from the destitute class he called 'Poor White Trash'. Hundley assured his readers that 'the Southern Yeoman is the peer in every respect of the small farmers in the Free States, as well as their superior in a great many'.[2] The families he referred to lived in every region of the South, but their greatest concentrations lay in the upland districts where the plantation system never flourished.

Planters, conventionally defined as the owners of twenty slaves or more, clustered in the coastal regions or fertile river bottoms which were variously known as black belts, tidewater, or low country, depending on the locality. A small group of merchants and professionals enjoyed close family and business ties to the planters and dominated the South's towns and cities. These urban areas were few in number and small in size, but their importance as centers of trade and culture made them equally important as political centers. Urban society was completed by a population of artisans and laborers who included whites, free blacks, and slaves.

By the onset of the Jacksonian era, most of the southern states had granted the right to vote to adult white males who met residency and other minor requirements. Exceptions occurred in some of the older states, where significant property limitations on voting and office-holding and gross malapportionment of the legislatures kept power securely in the hands of a slaveowning tidewater gentry. Women and blacks did not have the right to vote at all. Within these limitations, the tone of politics was noisily democratic. Elections were free and frequent, political participation was nearly universal among eligible voters, outright coercion or bribery of voters was almost unknown, and pretensions to aristocratic privileges were roundly denounced from the stump. Regardless of the conduct of local politics, however, slavery everywhere undergirded a pattern of political and economic privilege which seemed to discriminate against non-slaveholders.[3]

Electoral fault lines frequently reflected the maldistribution of wealth and privilege which slavery had created and sustained. Conflicts over suffrage rights

[1] A quarter million 'free persons of color' rounded out the South's population. *Population of the United States in 1860...* (Washington, 1864), 598–9; *Statistics of the United States in 1860...* (Washington, 1866), 351; *Agriculture of the United States in 1860...* (Washington, 1864), 247.

[2] D. R. Hundley, *Social Relations in Our Southern States* (New York, 1860), 193, 195.

[3] Fletcher M. Green, *Constitutional Development in the South Atlantic States, 1776–1860* (Chapel Hill, N.C., 1930); Ralph A. Wooster, *The People in Power: Courthouse and Statehouse in the Lower South, 1850–1860* (Knoxville, Tenn., 1969); Ralph A. Wooster, *Politicians, Planters, and Plain Folk: Courthouse and Statehouse in the Upper South, 1850–1860* (Knoxville, Tenn., 1975); John C. Inscoe, 'Mountain masters: slaveholding in western North Carolina', *North Carolina Historical Review*, LXI (1984), 143–73.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Thu, 15 Oct 2026 06:19:06 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.52 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Watson, Harry L. "Conflict and Collaboration: Yeomen, Slaveholders, and Politics in the Antebellum South." *Social History* 10, no. 3 (1985): 273–298. https://www.jstor.org/stable/4285456.

Footnote citation

Harry L. Watson, "Conflict and Collaboration: Yeomen, Slaveholders, and Politics in the Antebellum South," *Social History* 10, no. 3 (1985): 273–274, https://www.jstor.org/stable/4285456.

Shortened citation

Watson, "Conflict and Collaboration," 273–274.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 273-274. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Harry L. Watson - Conflict and Collaboration — Yeomen, Slaveholders, and Politics in the Antebellum South.pdf
SHA-256	0a0b080a44d89ef3a13af3e1db325efa9db51a4f731769742e4aaf9d053c6e1c
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/4285456

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.53 - An Old South Morality Play: Reconsidering the Social Underpinnings of the Proslavery Ideology

Michael Wayne

ARTICLE	An Old South Morality Play: Reconsidering the Social Underpinnings of the Proslavery Ideology
JOURNAL	The Journal of American History 77, no. 3 (1990)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 838-839
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2078988

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 838-839

An Old South Morality Play: Reconsidering the Social Underpinnings of the Proslavery Ideology

Michael Wayne

During the first half of the nineteenth century, the South, like the rest of the nation, underwent what amounted to a democratic revolution. That revolution was partly institutional: The franchise was broadened to take in the great majority of (in some states all) white males; legislatures were reapportioned to decrease the representation of the planting districts; property qualifications for office holding were reduced; oral voting was eliminated; and many more offices were made elective. But beyond these legislated reforms, there was a change in thinking about the proper relationship between government and the people. At the time of the Revolution and in the years immediately afterward, the common wisdom among the plain folk was that their political leaders—invariably men privileged by wealth and education—understood what was in the best interests of society better than did the voters who elected them. Now, however, those who aspired to office in the South had to demonstrate that they were responsive to the will of the electorate. In principle at least, control over public policy had passed into the hands of nonslaveholders, who made up the great majority of all whites.[1]

At the same time as that political revolution was coming to completion, a fundamental change took place in the southern attitude toward criticism of slavery. During the era of the Revolution and in the first decades of the nineteenth century, white southerners had accepted debate over the institution as legitimate, even constructive; by the middle of the 1830s, however, a consensus emerged that opposition to slavery represented a crime against society. Critics of the regime were repressed,

Michael Wayne is associate professor of history at the University of Toronto. He would like to thank the following people, as well as several anonymous readers for the *Journal*, for their comments on earlier drafts of this article: George Fallis, Joey Slinger, Peter Wilkie, Richard Reid, Gavin Wright, Edward Ayres, Lacy Ford, and especially, David Thelen, Marc Kruman, and Sandra Tychsen.

[1] The process of democratization was well outlined in Fletcher M. Green, *Constitutional Development in the South Atlantic States, 1776–1860: A Study in the Evolution of Democracy* (Chapel Hill, 1930); Fletcher M. Green, "Democracy in the Old South," *Journal of Southern History*, 12 (Feb. 1946), 3–23; and Charles S. Sydnor, *The Development of Southern Sectionalism, 1819–1848* (Baton Rouge, 1948), 33–53, 275–93.

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:57 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

often brutally so. Behind that consensus lay the conviction of the white majority that the perpetuation of slavery was necessary to the preservation of their own liberty and equality: slavery allowed for broad distribution of landownership among whites, and it ensured that the dependent laborers of the South, those who might otherwise pose a threat to the republican order, were strictly controlled and politically powerless.[2] The cornerstone of the proslavery ideology was the belief that blacks were innately suited to be slaves and largely accepting of their fate. To quote J. William Harris:

> Every defender of slavery as a stabilizer of republicanism drew attention to God's providential wisdom in having stamped Africans as . . . "doomed to perpetual servitude." . . . Further, since blacks were happy and contented with their degraded status, they had no desire to change it. They would not rebel.[3]

The debate over slavery effectively came to an end, then, at that moment in southern history when the power to determine the course of events seemingly passed into the hands of the nonslaveholders.

How were these two developments related? Probably no question has played a more important role in debates over the fundamental character of the Old South. Most scholars at most times have answered that, despite the democratic reforms of the antebellum decades, the region remained dominated by a planting elite. According to this view, the proslavery convictions of the plain folk were a direct result of the power of large slaveholders to shape the beliefs and define the aspirations of white society as a whole. In recent years, however, a number of historians—among them J. Mills Thornton III, George M. Fredrickson, and Lacy K. Ford, Jr.—have challenged this interpretation. Laying stress on the independent spirit of southern yeomen, they have contended that the regional commitment to slavery can be best understood in terms of the ideological needs and social experiences of the plain folk.[4] The case they make touches broadly on elements of political culture and eco-

[2] Lacy K. Ford, Jr., *Origins of Southern Radicalism: The South Carolina Upcountry, 1800–1860* (New York, 1988), esp. 49–51, 348–65. See also J. Mills Thornton III, *Politics and Power in a Slave Society: Alabama, 1800–1860* (Baton Rouge, 1977); and William J. Cooper, *Liberty and Slavery: Southern Politics to 1860* (New York, 1983).

[3] J. William Harris, *Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands* (Middletown, 1985), 38. See also Ford, *Origins of Southern Radicalism*, 359. The historiography of the defense of slavery is discussed in Drew Gilpin Faust, ed., *The Ideology of Slavery: Proslavery Thought in the Antebellum South, 1830–1860* (Baton Rouge, 1981), 1–20. For an argument that the proslavery ideology represented "the social, cultural, and moral values of a large portion of the population of America in the first half of the nineteenth century" and not just of southern whites, see Larry E. Tise, *Proslavery: A History of the Defense of Slavery in America, 1701–1840* (Athens, Ga., 1978).

[4] For recent historiography on planter dominance, see Randolph B. Campbell, "Planters and Plain Folks: The Social Structure of the Antbellum South," in *Interpreting Southern History: Historiographical Essays in Honor of Sanford W. Higginbotham*, ed. John B. Boles and Evelyn Thomas Nolen (Baton Rouge, 1978), 73–75. Most scholars today would acknowledge that upcountry areas removed from the market economy were not under planter control. See Steven Hahn, *The Roots of Southern Populism: Yeoman Farmers and the Transformation of the Georgia Upcountry, 1850–1890* (New York, 1983), 13–133. For basing the commitment to slavery on the plain folk, see Thornton, *Politics and Power in a Slave Society*; George M. Fredrickson, *The Black Image in the White Mind: The Debate on Afro-American Character and Destiny, 1817–1914* (New York, 1971), 58–70; and Ford, *Origins of Southern Radicalism*. There has been a rapid outpouring of works in recent years dealing with nonslaveholders and small slaveholders; see, for example, Hahn, *Roots of Southern Populism*; Bertram Wyatt-Brown, *Southern*

This content downloaded from 132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:57 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.53 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Wayne, Michael. "An Old South Morality Play: Reconsidering the Social Underpinnings of the Proslavery Ideology." *The Journal of American History* 77, no. 3 (1990): 838–863. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2078988.

Footnote citation

Michael Wayne, "An Old South Morality Play: Reconsidering the Social Underpinnings of the Proslavery Ideology," *The Journal of American History* 77, no. 3 (1990): 838–839, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2078988.

Shortened citation

Wayne, "An Old South Morality Play," 838–839.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 838-839. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Michael Wayne - An Old South Morality Play — Reconsidering the Social Underpinnings of the Proslavery Ideology.pdf
SHA-256	bde23233c4b6ed9ce5e25be035449c508758d756987fea2293e2594a4d10d584
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2078988

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.54 - The Intersection of Race and Gender: The Antebellum Plantation Mistress and Her Slaves

Marli F. Weiner

ARTICLE	The Intersection of Race and Gender: The Antebellum Plantation Mistress and Her Slaves
JOURNAL	Humboldt Journal of Social Relations 13, no. 1/2 (1986)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 374-375
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/23262675

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 374-375

HUMBOLDT JOURNAL OF SOCIAL RELATIONS
Vol. 13:1 & 2 (Fall/Winter & Spring/Summer 1985/86) 374-386

THE INTERSECTION OF RACE AND GENDER: THE ANTEBELLUM PLANTATION MISTRESS AND HER SLAVES*

Marli F. Weiner
Department of History
University of Vermont
Burlington, VT 05405

ABSTRACT

This paper examines plantation mistresses' efforts to improve the living conditions and enhance the well-being of the slaves in their care. It explains those efforts in light of work patterns, the ideology of domesticity, paternalism, and southern efforts to explain slavery as a positive good. These forces generally led women to mediate the harshest aspects of slavery while their husbands devoted themselves to the business of agriculture.

The efforts made by mid-nineteenth century white southerners to extol the virtues of their region could not disguise the harshness and brutality that lay just beneath the surface of its famed hospitable mansions and lush fields ripe with king cotton. Whites prided themselves on the virtue and order inherent in their institutions and congratulated one another for the advantages slavery provided when compared with the wage slavery of industrial areas, but their statements have a self serving quality about them. The defensiveness of the apologists for slavery, made necessary by growing criticism, imposed a unified view on southern public opinion. Slaves were very well treated; they were happy with their lot; slavery was uplifting, Christianizing, and civilizing them. As political crisis followed political crisis in the

*An earlier version of this paper was presented at the conference "Southern Women: Portraits in Diversity," Tulane University, September 1985. I wish to thank Cathy Tumber, Eugene Genovese, and Dale Engel for their comments on various versions of this paper. Thanks are also due to Laurie Baron for his support and friendship.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:42:33 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

antebellum years and as the South found itself increasingly morally isolated, white southerners tightened their restrictions against dissent at home. Unable to convince others of the benefits of their peculiar institution, white southerners ultimately were willing to go to war to protect it. Slavery was too profitable and too central to their view of the world, and the alternatives too painful to contemplate, for southerners not to be anxious to defend it.

Slaveholders who believed slavery to be a positive good were convinced that their behavior justified their rhetoric. They took pride in the quality and quantity of the food, clothing, and shelter they provided, in the access slaves had to religion and medical care, and in the absence of harsh treatment. Slaveholders were convinced that slavery as they practiced it provided the most humane treatment possible for a dependent labor force.

The reality, of course, was very different. Although historians' efforts to quantify beatings, sales, and other slave experiences have been quite controversial, there can be no doubt that slaves were not treated as their masters liked to think. Slaves clearly hated slavery and were eager for freedom. However, since freedom was rarely a realizable goal either for the individual or the group, slaves did what they could to make life tolerable for themselves. Their efforts to do so were simultaneously rejected by slaveholders determined to preserve their own authority and acknowledged as necessary to maintaining the harmony of plantation life.

The tension inherent in simultaneously rejecting and acknowledging the demands made by the slaves was often resolved by assigning each task to different members of the slaveholding family. For the most part, men perceived their responsibility to be rejection of slaves' demands in order to further their own authority and the interests of their family fortunes. Women were given responsibility for acknowledging the claims slaves made for improved conditions, care, and concern. This division of responsibility according to gender was never deliberately articulated within southern society. However, southern ideals about appropriate behavior for women encouraged them to identify slaves as among their primary responsibilities, just as appropriate behavior for men urged them toward assertions of authority. Mistresses were effectively assigned responsibility for making slavery a positive good for slaves in daily practice as well as in the theory propounded by their husbands.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:42:33 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.54 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Weiner, Marli F. "The Intersection of Race and Gender: The Antebellum Plantation Mistress and Her Slaves." *Humboldt Journal of Social Relations* 13, no. 1/2 (1986): 374–386. https://www.jstor.org/stable/23262675.

Footnote citation

Marli F. Weiner, "The Intersection of Race and Gender: The Antebellum Plantation Mistress and Her Slaves," *Humboldt Journal of Social Relations* 13, no. 1/2 (1986): 374–375, https://www.jstor.org/stable/23262675.

Shortened citation

Weiner, "Intersection of Race," 374–375.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 374-375. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Marli F. Weiner - The Intersection of Race and Gender — The Antebellum Plantation Mistress and Her Slaves.pdf
SHA-256	7f85c9f13d7bdf84ade30badedf6b563a8b690dfc5ba4565378f5e34c0439ec4
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/23262675

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.55 - Before the Railroad: From Slavery to Freedom in the Canadian-American Borderland

Gregory Wigmore

ARTICLE	Before the Railroad: From Slavery to Freedom in the Canadian-American Borderland
JOURNAL	The Journal of American History 98, no. 2 (2011)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 437-438
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/41509964

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 437-438

Before the Railroad: From Slavery to Freedom in the Canadian-American Borderland

Gregory Wigmore

On the night of May 13, 1807, a woman and a four-year-old boy stealthily crept out of the home of the attorney James Woods in Sandwich, Upper Canada. Clutching a trunk containing some bedding and a few belongings, the mother led her son to the banks of the Detroit River, a short sprint away. There they met up with some acquaintances from the opposite shore who helped them into a small boat and rowed under cover of darkness for Detroit—a journey of about a mile. After reaching the town, the pair joined a rapidly growing community of runaways who had fled Canadian slavery for American freedom.[1]

The following day, Woods sent a letter over the river to Solomon Sibley, one of Detroit's leading jurists, promising him "a very handsome fee" if he could secure the slaves' return, or could at least obtain some redress for the lost property. Woods expressed some ambivalence about recovering the "old woman," whose body presumably had suffered the premature aging process of a life spent in slavery. Even so, he confessed to Sibley a burning desire to "punish her in a small degree" for absconding with her more valuable son. Under Upper Canada's gradual emancipation law, Woods was entitled to another two decades of service from the boy, until he turned twenty-five. Given the scarcity of laborers and domestic servants, slaves remained a precious commodity throughout labor-starved Upper Canada (now Ontario) and the broader Great Lakes region.[2]

Recognizing that his slaves' flight into foreign territory jeopardized his property rights, Woods desperately sought a legal remedy that would minimize his losses. He suggested to Sibley a wide range of legal actions, inquiring whether they might be successfully pursued in Michigan's territorial court. Could he have the pair apprehended as runaway servants? Could he sue the woman for the theft of the boy, or for carrying off the trunk of possessions, which legally belonged to him? Could he seek damages against Detroiters who had encouraged or assisted the runaways or who harbored them in Michigan Territory? If the

Gregory Wigmore is a doctoral candidate in the Department of History at the University of California, Davis. He is especially grateful to Robert Chester, Ari Kelman, Elisabeth Ritacca, Alan Taylor, Frank Towers, Clarence Walker, James W. St.G. Walker, and the reviewers and editorial staff of the *JAH* for their helpful comments on earlier versions of this essay. He also thanks Barbara DeWolfe and John MacLeod for providing valuable research leads, and Philip Dinwiddie for making available the Lisette Forth image. Steven Deyle's graduate seminar in American slavery provided much of the initial inspiration for this article.

Readers may contact Wigmore at gswigmore@ucdavis.edu.

[1] James Woods to Solomon Sibley, May 14, 1807, Solomon Sibley Papers (Burton Historical Collection, Detroit Public Library, Detroit, Mich.).

[2] *Ibid.*; Elizabeth Jane Errington, *Wives and Mothers, School Mistresses and Scullery Maids: Working Women in Upper Canada, 1790–1840* (Kingston, 1995), 141–42.

doi: 10.1093/jahist/jar256
© The Author 2011. Published by Oxford University Press on behalf of the Organization of American Historians.
All rights reserved. For permissions, please e-mail: journals.permissions@oup.com

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:03:25 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

court refused to restore his property, Woods wondered, could he still sell the mother and the remainder of her son's term of servitude to another party in Detroit?[3]

When Sibley advised Woods that he saw no lawful means to recover the slaves or sell them to new owners in Detroit, the Upper Canadian grudgingly accepted that his human property was lost forever.[4] In crossing the river, the woman and her child traversed more than just a boundary separating the British Empire in Canada from American territory in Michigan. By passing from one jurisdiction to another, the pair exploited competing slavery laws in the borderland, which allowed enslaved individuals to emancipate themselves simply by crossing the border.

This article seeks to illuminate the relationship between slavery and borders in early North America, focusing on the boundary between the Old Northwest and Upper Canada. Unlike the larger wave of migration associated with the Underground Railroad in the decades preceding the Civil War, an earlier generation of slaves who emancipated themselves remains largely overlooked by American and Canadian historians. Despite their comparative obscurity, runaway slaves in the early Canadian-American borderland along the Great Lakes played a significant role in the hardening of that boundary. Most of the cross-border flow of fugitives occurred in the region along the Detroit River. When Detroit passed from British to American rule in 1796, in accordance with the Jay Treaty, several slaveholders relocated to the new settlements of Amherstburg and Sandwich (now Windsor) on the Canadian side of the river, taking their human property with them. Because the Northwest Ordinance of 1787 and the 1793 Act against Slavery in Upper Canada forbade the introduction of new slaves into their respective territories, enslaved people on both sides of the border soon learned that they could seize their freedom merely by crossing the river.[5]

Investigating the institution of slavery and the development of the Canadian-American border in concert allows us to recast our understanding of both subjects, revealing the extent to which each shaped the other. For instance, the flight of runaway slaves across the emerging boundary between Michigan Territory and Upper Canada proved critical in establishing the principle of the inviolability of borders in North America. It also led authorities on the ground to finally recognize the boundary's political significance as, in the historian Peter Sahlin's words, "the point at which sovereignty found expression." During the decade following the border's establishment in 1796, local officials and prominent settlers on each side frequently sought to confront mutual challenges through reciprocal (and even ad hoc) accommodation. However, the deterioration of Anglo-American relations after 1807 inflamed passions in the borderland. This rising tension prevented the

[3] Woods to Sibley, May 14, June 8, 1807, Sibley Papers.

[4] Sibley to Woods, June 5, 1807, *ibid.*; Woods to Sibley, Sept. 14, 1807, *ibid.*

[5] Surrendered to the United States by the Treaty of Paris in 1783, Detroit and several other western posts remained British possessions until after the conclusion of the Jay Treaty in 1794, when the British agreed to relinquish them by June 1, 1796. See *American State Papers: Foreign Relations* (6 vols., Washington, 1833–1859), I, 520–25. "Ordinance of 1787," in *The Territorial Papers of the United States,* ed. Clarence Edward Carter (28 vols., Washington, 1934–1975), II, 39–50. Article VI of the ordinance reads: "There shall be neither slavery nor involuntary servitude in the said territory." However, the first territorial governor, Arthur St. Clair, interpreted the prohibition as applying only to slaves who arrived in the territory after the ordinance. Those slaves already in the territory remained legally enslaved, as under British rule. See Arthur St. Clair to Luke Decker, Oct. 11, 1793, in *The St. Clair Papers: The Life and Public Services of Arthur St. Clair,* ed. William Henry Smith (2 vols., Cincinnati, 1882), II, 318–19; St. Clair to Judge [George] Turner, Dec. 14, 1794, *ibid.*, II, 331–32. For the Act against Slavery, see Statutes of Upper Canada, 33 George 3, c. 7 (1793), reprinted in *The Statutes of the Province of Upper Canada* (Kingston, Canada 1831), 41–42.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:03:25 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.55 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Wigmore, Gregory. "Before the Railroad: From Slavery to Freedom in the Canadian-American Borderland." *The Journal of American History* 98, no. 2 (2011): 437–454. https://www.jstor.org/stable/41509964.

Footnote citation

Gregory Wigmore, "Before the Railroad: From Slavery to Freedom in the Canadian-American Borderland," *The Journal of American History* 98, no. 2 (2011): 437–438, https://www.jstor.org/stable/41509964.

Shortened citation

Wigmore, "Before the Railroad," 437–438.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 437-438. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Gregory Wigmore - Before the Railroad — From Slavery to Freedom in the Canadian-American Borderland.pdf
SHA-256	98ea8cf675e8841242743935fd988a76a07938873fb9dec9ef2197a55a5ac14f
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/41509964

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.56 - Planter Capitalism and Slavery: The Labor Thesis

George R. Woolfolk

ARTICLE	Planter Capitalism and Slavery: The Labor Thesis
JOURNAL	The Journal of Negro History 41, no. 2 (1956)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 103-104
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2715573

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 103-104

THE JOURNAL
OF
NEGRO HISTORY

Vol. XLI—April, 1956—No. 2

PLANTER CAPITALISM AND SLAVERY: THE LABOR THESIS

The economic value of slavery to the plantation economy of the ante-bellum South has long been a subject of debate among students of the problem. The most persistent thesis underlying the development of the literature has been the "labor" thesis. Posed as a logical and more scientific approach to the coeval moralism of the Abolitionist by its proponents, by predicating every explanation of the economic value of slavery upon its narrow base, the labor thesis has proved to be just as limiting to the development of creative insights as the emotionalism it superseded. There can be little doubt that the institution of slavery offended the economic morality of the nineteenth century. The persistence of the labor theses through interminable adaptations indicates that students of the problem have uncritically accepted the imputation, rejected in part by northern contemporaries of the institution, that planter economics was motivated by the same perverted congenital anachronism as planter morality.

Practically every student of the problem feels the necessity of answering the question, "Was slave labor profit-

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:20 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

able?'' The insistence upon a clear-cut answer in terms of dollars and cents does violence to both the concepts of economic value and economic use. Whether or not the ''profits'' question is ever definitely answered can be important only to those who value outcome over function. Investigation of planter capitalism up the long river countries of east Texas suggests slavery also served the important function of providing both producers and liquid capital in an economy where the value of the land and unpredictability of entrepreneural skill made hazardous the risk of capital. This conclusion justifies a reconsideration of the ''labor'' thesis and the conclusions that have been drawn therefrom.

There is some indication that planter capitalism had no difficulty in seeing the slave as both capital and a labor force, and successfully combined the dual concept in the pursuit of profits.[1] Frederick Law Olmstead's objective survey led him to agree in the answering of two basic questions,

> ''Is slave labor, then, profitable? To certain individuals, unquestionably. . . . Is not then this slave agriculture economically conducted? To the ends had in view by the planter it certainly is.''

Olmstead reserved this benediction for the situation where there were large planters and other fortuitous arrangements of the factors of land, tools, and entrepreneural skill. However, he could conceive of no situation in the planter South were the cost of labor was not too high. Slavery, to Olmstead, impoverished and degraded by unnecessarily adding to the cost of making natural wealth, or the resources of the country, available and by causing the wasteful use of natural wealth. Thus the Labor thesis was launched.

[1] Frederic Law Olmsted, *A Journey in the Back Country in the Winter of 1853-4*, Vol. 11 (G. P. Putnam's Sons, New York, 1907), pp. 50, 51, 52; William Summer Jenkins, *''Pro-Slavery Thought in the Old South.''* (University of North Carolina Press, Chapel Hill, 1935), pp. 295-296.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 02:00:20 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.56 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Woolfolk, George R. "Planter Capitalism and Slavery: The Labor Thesis." *The Journal of Negro History* 41, no. 2 (1956): 103–116. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2715573.

Footnote citation

George R. Woolfolk, "Planter Capitalism and Slavery: The Labor Thesis," *The Journal of Negro History* 41, no. 2 (1956): 103–104, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2715573.

Shortened citation

Woolfolk, "Planter Capitalism and Slavery," 103–104.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 103-104. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	George R. Woolfolk - Planter Capitalism and Slavery — The Labor Thesis.pdf
SHA-256	2c6811b48daced5575dce4169cd0291d65905af52a83b345f7cea80d0c120a3b
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2715573

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.57 - Slavery and Anglo-American Capitalism Revisited

Gavin Wright

ARTICLE	Slavery and Anglo-American Capitalism Revisited
JOURNAL	The Economic History Review 73, no. 2 (2020)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 353-354
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/48584576

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 353-354

THE
ECONOMIC HISTORY REVIEW

Economic History Review, 73, 2 (2020), pp. 353–383

Slavery and Anglo-American capitalism revisited†

By GAVIN WRIGHT*

British and American debates on the relationship between slavery and economic growth have had little interaction with each other. This article attempts intellectual arbitrage by joining these two literatures. The linkage turns on the neglected part two of the 'Williams thesis': that slavery and the slave trade, once vital for the expansion of British industry and commerce, were no longer needed by the nineteenth century. In contrast to recent assertions of the centrality of slavery for US economic development, the article argues that part two of the Williams thesis applies with equal force to nineteenth-century America. Unlike sugar, cotton required no large investments of fixed capital and could be cultivated efficiently at any scale, in locations that would have been settled by free farmers in the absence of slavery. Cheap cotton was undoubtedly important for the growth of textiles, but cheap cotton did not require slavery. The best evidence for this claim is that after two decades of war, abolition, and Reconstruction, cotton prices returned to their prewar levels. In both countries, the rise of anti-slavery sentiment was not driven by the prospect of direct economic benefits, but major economic interest groups acquiesced in abolition because they no longer saw slavery as indispensable.

The relationship between slavery and the industrial revolution is one of the oldest debates in British economic history. On the American side, a parallel debate about slavery and economic development has been largely separate. Originally concerned with the profitability of slavery, attention in the American literature then turned to issues of efficiency and productivity, and most recently to the role of slavery in US economic development.[1] Remarkably, these two conversations have had almost no connection to each other, with the notable exception of Beckert's *Empire of cotton*, which links the technological revolution in cotton textiles to the exploitation of slaves in the cotton fields of the American South.[2]

In this article, I propose to conduct intellectual arbitrage by joining these two literatures. The linkage, however, is not exactly seamless. While Williams argued that the slave trade and slave-based commerce were essential components of the eighteenth-century industrial revolution, he went on to assert that British

*Author's Affiliation: Stanford University.

† Adapted from the Tawney Lecture, presented at the Economic History Society meetings in Belfast, 7 April 2019. The author thanks Steve Broadberry for the invitation to deliver the lecture, and John Clegg, Christian Dippel, Suresh Naidu, Richard Sylla, Warren Whatley, and Nuala Zahediah for comments on earlier drafts. Even more than usual, it should be stressed that none of these individuals are responsible for any of the views presented here. Dante Mangiaracina contributed outstanding research assistance.

[1] A useful survey of the profitability and efficiency debates is Sutch, 'Economics of African American slavery'.

[2] The centrality of slavery for US development is argued in Baptist, *Half has never been told*; Beckert, *Empire of cotton*; and Beckert and Rockman, eds., *Slavery's capitalism*. Critiques include Clegg, 'Capitalism and slavery'; Hilt, 'Economic history'; and Olmstead and Rhode, 'Cotton, slavery and the new history of capitalism'.

© Economic History Society 2020. Published by John Wiley & Sons Ltd, 9600 Garsington Road, Oxford OX4 2DQ, UK and 350 Main Street, Malden, MA 02148, USA.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:57:18 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

industrial development, 'stimulated by mercantilism, later outgrew mercantilism and destroyed it'.[3] In the dissertation that formed the prelude to his famous book, Williams was even more explicit: 'The tremendous expansion of British industry and commerce was accompanied by the declining importance of the colonies which had once been the gems of the Empire'.[4] In other words, abolition became viable in the nineteenth century because slavery and the slave trade were no longer the 'vital props that spurred the rise of British industry'.[5] Williams was right. After 1815, British manufactured goods found diverse new international markets, which did not require captive colonial buyers, naval protection, or slavery. Long-distance trade became safer and cheaper, as freight rates declined and international financial infrastructure developed. One need not glorify the ideology of free trade, nor deny the role of imperialism, to acknowledge that the world economy emerging after 1815 was different in fundamental respects from its eighteenth-century predecessor. The thesis advanced here is that this revolutionary economic restructuring applied with equal force to the upstart economy across the Atlantic.

Insurgent scholars known as New Historians of Capitalism argue that slavery, specifically slave-grown cotton, was critical for the rise of the US economy in the nineteenth century.[6] Beckert asserts: 'It was on the back of cotton, and thus on the backs of slaves, that the U.S. economy ascended in the world'.[7] Baptist writes: 'Cotton also drove U.S. expansion, enabling the young country to grow from a narrow coastal belt into a vast, powerful nation with the fastest-growing economy in the world'.[8] In essence, these historians are transporting the first part of the Williams thesis from the mercantilist eighteenth century to the industrializing economies of the nineteenth. But times had changed. The Atlantic economy of the eighteenth century was propelled by sugar, a quintessential slave crop. In contrast, cotton required no large investments of fixed capital and could be cultivated efficiently at any scale, in locations that would have been settled by free farmers in the absence of slavery. Early mainland cotton growers deployed slave labour, not because of its productivity or aptness for the new crop, but because they were already slave owners, searching for profitable alternatives to tobacco, indigo, and other declining crops. Slavery was, in effect, a 'pre-existing condition' for the nineteenth-century American South.

To be sure, US cotton did indeed rise 'on the backs of slaves', and no cliometric counterfactual can gainsay that brute fact of history. But it is doubtful that this brutal system served the long-run interests of textile producers in Lancashire and in New England, as many of them recognized at the time. As argued here, the slave South *underperformed* as a world cotton supplier for three distinct though related reasons: the region agreed in 1807 to close the slave trade and failed

[3] Williams, *Capitalism and slavery*, p. 106.
[4] Williams, *Economic aspect*, p. 199.
[5] Ibid., p. xv.
[6] The most prominent works by New Historians of Capitalism pertaining to slavery are Baptist, *Half has never been told*; Beckert, *Empire of cotton*; Johnson, *River of dark dreams*; Schermerhorn, *Business of slavery*; and the collection edited by Beckert and Rockman, *Slavery's capitalism*. Critical surveys include Clegg, 'Capitalism and slavery'; Hilt, 'Economic history'; Oakes, 'Capitalism and slavery and the Civil War'; Olmstead and Rhode, 'Cotton, slavery, and the new history of capitalism'.
[7] Beckert, *Empire of cotton*, p. 119.
[8] Baptist, *Half has never been told*, p. 113.

© Economic History Society 2020

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on Wed, 21 Oct 2026 01:57:18 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.57 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Wright, Gavin. "Slavery and Anglo-American Capitalism Revisited." *The Economic History Review* 73, no. 2 (2020): 353–383. https://www.jstor.org/stable/48584576.

Footnote citation

Gavin Wright, "Slavery and Anglo-American Capitalism Revisited," *The Economic History Review* 73, no. 2 (2020): 353–354, https://www.jstor.org/stable/48584576.

Shortened citation

Wright, "Slavery and Anglo-American Capitalism Revisited," 353–354.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 353-354. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Gavin Wright - Slavery and Anglo-American Capitalism Revisited.pdf
SHA-256	6388b27c5e326de5a5d08e943f60c7e3ddb6c760edb068de84ee6e5f496e4d9f
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/48584576

CHAPTER 11 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A11.58 - Ideology and Death on a Savannah River Rice Plantation, 1833-1867: Paternalism amidst 'a Good Supply of Disease and Pain'

Jeffrey R. Young

ARTICLE	Ideology and Death on a Savannah River Rice Plantation, 1833-1867: Paternalism amidst 'a Good Supply of Disease and Pain'
JOURNAL	The Journal of Southern History 59, no. 4 (1993)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 673-674
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2210538

Excerpt Format

The next two pages are exact facsimiles from the supplied article PDF. Original pagination and the author's note system are preserved.

CONTINUE TO FACSIMILE EXCERPT | ORIGINAL PAGES 673-674

Ideology and Death on a Savannah River Rice Plantation, 1833–1867: Paternalism amidst "a Good Supply of Disease and Pain"

By Jeffrey R. Young

In recent years, historians have become increasingly aware that North American slavery evolved differently within disparate geographic contexts.[1] In particular, scholars have begun to emphasize the ways that slavery in the Carolina and Georgia lowcountry deviated from the mainstream North American experience of African-American bondage. Unlike the vast majority of nineteenth-century southern masters who planted cotton and resided among their slaves, the tidewater slaveowners planted rice and lived away from their coastal estates for much of the year. Concentrating on this physical separation between master and slave, historians such as Margaret Washington Creel and Charles Joyner have demonstrated that slaves in coastal South Carolina and Georgia enjoyed a relatively large measure of cultural and emotional autonomy from their absentee masters.[2] These scholars have done much to illuminate the

[1] See, for example, Ira Berlin, "Time, Space, and the Evolution of Afro-American Society on British Mainland North America," *American Historical Review*, LXXXV (February 1980), 44–78. Berlin lamented the lack of "temporal and spatial specificity" (p. 44) in such works as Eugene D. Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made* (New York, 1974). I would especially like to thank James L. Roark for his comments on numerous drafts of this article. I have also benefited from suggestions and support offered by Cynthia A. Bansak, Ellen Barnard, Dan Costello, Sarah E. Gardner, Eugene D. Genovese, Andrea E. Kluge, Randall M. Packard, Susan M. Socolow, Mart A. Stewart, Sharon T. Strocchia, and the editorial staff of the *Journal*.

[2] Margaret Washington Creel, *"A Peculiar People": Slave Religion and Community-Culture Among the Gullahs* (New York and London, 1988); Charles Joyner, *Down by the Riverside: A South Carolina Slave Community* (Urbana and Chicago, 1984). Also see Julia Floyd Smith, *Slavery and Rice Culture in Low Country Georgia, 1750–1860* (Knoxville, 1985); Berlin, "Time, Space, and the Evolution of Afro-American Society"; Thomas F. Armstrong, "From Task Labor to Free Labor: The Transition Along Georgia's Rice Coast, 1820–1880," *Georgia Historical Quarterly*, LXIV (Winter 1980), 432–47; Philip D. Morgan, "Work and Culture: The Task System and the World of Lowcountry Blacks, 1700 to 1880," *William and Mary Quarterly*, 3d Ser., XXXIX (October 1982), 563–99; and Morgan, "The Ownership of Property by Slaves in the Mid-Nineteenth-Century Low Country," *Journal of Southern History*, XLIX (August 1983), 399–420. Even historians critical of the historiographical trend toward portraying the slave communities as relatively autonomous have acknowledged the special circumstances of the Carolina and Georgia lowcountry. See Peter Kolchin, "Reevaluating the Antebellum Slave Community: A Comparative Perspective," *Journal of American History*, LXX (December 1983), 591.

Mr. Young is a Ph. D. candidate at Emory University.

The Journal of Southern History
Volume LIX, No. 4, November 1993

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 02:02:05 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

world of the tidewater slave, but they have not considered the unique lowcountry communities in the wider context of the southern slaveowners' devotion to a shared set of values.

Despite their own regionally distinct brand of slavery, the lowcountry masters committed themselves deeply to a paternalist ethos that could be found all across the nineteenth-century South—an ethos that hinged on the notion of reciprocal responsibilities for master and slave and on the implicit recognition of the slave's humanity. To be sure, this commitment thoroughly contradicted the especially grim conditions that African Americans faced in the coastal swamps.[3] But, as the following examination of one Savannah River rice plantation will reveal, the unhealthful lowcountry environment did not prevent masters from embracing a cohesive set of paternalist values that were, indeed, antithetical to their specific geographic situation. In fact, only by exploring the tension between the slaveowners' paternalism and the physical reality of tidewater slavery can one appreciate the dedication of the master class to an ethos that transcended the tangible boundaries between upcountry cotton and lowcountry rice.

Charles Manigault became a planter in 1825 when his father-in-law presented him with Silk Hope, a Cooper River rice and indigo plantation forty miles above Charleston. At the age of thirty, the prominent descendant of one of South Carolina's wealthiest colonial merchants began planting rice and managing slaves. Like many of the Charleston planters, however, Manigault soon grew frustrated with his upcountry property's marginal soil. In 1833 he turned to the rich tidewater land near the Savannah River and purchased Gowrie plantation for forty thousand dollars.[4]

Continuing to live in and near Charleston for most of the year, Manigault nonetheless took a keen interest in the daily affairs of his Georgia plantation. In numerous letters to his overseers and to his son Louis, who started to manage the property in 1852, Charles Manigault articulated a philosophy

[3] Of course, the paternalist ideology always contradicted the reality of African-American bondage. As Genovese has observed, "the problems inherent in the contradiction in the slave's legal existence as man and thing constantly emerged." *Roll, Jordan, Roll*, 88. Still, conditions on the coastal rice estates deviated from the plantation reality that spawned the paternalist ethos in the first place—a reality that supposedly hinged on the face-to-face relationship of resident masters and their slaves. See *ibid.*, 4-5; Genovese, *From Rebellion to Revolution: Afro-American Slave Revolts in the Making of the Modern World* (Baton Rouge and London, 1979), 4-5; Genovese, *The World the Slaveholders Made: Two Essays in Interpretation* (Middletown, Conn., 1988), 96-97; and Michael Wayne, *The Reshaping of Plantation Society: The Natchez District, 1860–1880* (Baton Rouge and London, 1983), 24.

[4] Maurice Alfred Crouse, "The Manigault Family of South Carolina, 1685-1783" (Ph. D. dissertation, Northwestern University, 1964); James M. Clifton, "A Half-Century of a Georgia Rice Plantation," *North Carolina Historical Review*, XLVII (October 1970), 392-95; and Clifton, ed., *Life and Labor on Argyle Island: Letters and Documents of a Savannah River Rice Plantation, 1833–1867* (Savannah, 1978), xvii-xx. Manigault was one of only many South Carolina rice planters who turned to more fertile property in Georgia. See Smith, *Slavery and Rice Culture*, 34.

This content downloaded from
132.174.249.220 on ed, 21 ct 2026 02:02:05 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

A11.58 | CITATION RECORD

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry

Young, Jeffrey R. "Ideology and Death on a Savannah River Rice Plantation, 1833-1867: Paternalism amidst 'a Good Supply of Disease and Pain.'" *The Journal of Southern History* 59, no. 4 (1993): 673–706. https://www.jstor.org/stable/2210538.

Footnote citation

Jeffrey R. Young, "Ideology and Death on a Savannah River Rice Plantation, 1833-1867: Paternalism amidst 'a Good Supply of Disease and Pain,'" *The Journal of Southern History* 59, no. 4 (1993): 673–674, https://www.jstor.org/stable/2210538.

Shortened citation

Young, "Ideology and Death," 673–674.

Source Verification

Supplied PDF pages 2-3 correspond to original journal pages 673-674. The pages were inserted directly from the supplied PDF; no transcription or silent omission was introduced.

SOURCE FILE	Jeffrey R. Young - Ideology and Death on a Savannah River Rice Plantation, 1833-1867 — Paternalism amidst a Good Supply of Disease and Pain.pdf
SHA-256	87a6c63ce7ddce55f73f2815902c95c96a8b28118828709 01aace6821dc88ff2
STABLE LINK	https://www.jstor.org/stable/2210538